



Cross Cultural Psychology (PSY515)

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LESSON 01

INTRODUCTION TO CROSS-CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 1-4

Module 1: Introduction to the Course

Students are introduced to the objectives and contents of the course. Students are introduced to the discipline of cross-cultural psychology and basic concepts in this field.

Overall Objectives of the Course

- To cover social and cultural aspects of human behavior.
- To explore similarities and diversity across societies and cross-cultural research.
- To identify and comprehend both the similarities and differences of people's behaviors, emotions, motivations, and thoughts across cultures.
- To understand and analyze cultural and sub-cultural practices.

Learning Outcomes (for the whole course)

The course aims to cover social and cultural aspects of human behavior, similarities and diversity across societies and cross-cultural research.

Hence at the end the students will:

1. have complete awareness and acceptance about cultural diversity within their own society and across societies.
2. tend to engage with people from different cultures with empathy and tolerance and understand and analyze cultural and sub-cultural practices
3. be able to conceive, plan and conduct cross cultural research
4. differentiate between area studies, cross-cultural studies, and intercultural studies
5. be familiar with cross-cultural research on various dimensions of human behavior

You will be able to understand cultural diversity and engage with people from different cultures with empathy and tolerance. It will also enable you to conceive, plan and conduct cross cultural research. This discipline offers the opportunity to connect with others through a deeper sense of appreciation and understanding.

Contents of the Course

1. Definition of Cross-Cultural and Cultural Psychology with basic terms and concepts
2. Various approaches to study of culture, natural and social sciences, eco-cultural, humanities, integrative and mixed cultural approaches
3. How culture is incorporated in psychological science and what challenges that poses.
4. Comparison of cultures; similarities and differences; types of cultures
5. Research methods and design used in Cross cultural psychology; Experimental, Quasi, cross sectional and field studies Experimental, Quasi, cross sectional and field studies and qualitative research
6. international and indigenous research across cultures
7. Human Development and Socialization; parenting, socialization practices across cultures, families across cultures, developmental stages, moral development, perception of ageing and death across cultures
8. Culture, Cognition and Consciousness; world views of reality, perception of next world, spirituality, culture and religion human consciousness, emotions across cultures,

women across cultures, attitudes towards sexuality and diversity, social cognition, Emotion research, Intelligence and Personality theory

9. Applications of cross-cultural psychology in health, mental health, counseling, working with immigrants, organizations, education and working abroad, global concerns and actions in sustainability, environment and climate, civic behavior and human rights
10. Crossing boundaries and cross-cultural communication; literature, music, arts and crafts as a universal language of human experience and expression. Travel as cultural learning. Learning of language
11. Implications of the course for personal growth

Module 2: Introduction to Cross-Cultural Psychology

A Personal Journey Across Cultures

Let me begin with a personal story. I've had the privilege of traveling to various countries across the world, both in the East and the West. I've spent time in cities and small towns in Japan, the USA, France, Greece, Australia, Nepal, Iran, Canada, the Middle East, Malaysia, Scotland, and England. I even lived in the United Kingdom for a few years for educational purposes. During these travels, I was constantly comparing customs, values, dress, languages, food, behavior, attitudes, public spaces, services, families, beliefs about God, and religious practices. I noticed both differences and similarities. The fact that a Pakistani woman like me could travel and manage life in these diverse countries is a testament to the reality that human beings share universal traits—commonalities that transcend dissimilarities and contrasts. Once you set foot on foreign soil, the study of culture becomes almost second nature.

Cultural Diversity Within Pakistan

Even within our own society, I have never stopped being amazed—and sometimes shocked—by the cultural diversity and stark contrasts within Pakistan itself. For instance, in a small town in Pakistan, a girl might get married without ever having met the boy she is committing to spend her life with. This was unimaginable in my family and social circle. All the children around me were taught to read the Quran from age five or six and given a book guiding everyday behavior as a Muslim. Yet, when I grew up, I discovered that many in my society had not gone through similar education. Some of my classmates spoke of their fathers drinking alcohol—a concept entirely foreign to me until I was 22 and attended a New Year's party at my first job.

Each of you can likely identify similar contrasts around you—from cities to villages, from one province to another, and from family to family. There are also numerous similarities, such as communal eating, festivals, school rituals, values, and family bonding. With this personal reflection, I now introduce you to the discipline of cross-cultural psychology, one of the most fascinating studies of human life and behavior in all its richness and complexity.

Understanding Cross-Cultural Psychology

The Scope and Importance of Cross-Cultural Psychology

It is important to recognize that the conditions in which people live vary greatly from place to place. Human actions and mental frameworks—formed and developed in various environments—may also differ from group to group. These differences, as well as similarities, are studied by cross-cultural psychology (Gudykunst & Bond, 1997). Cross-cultural psychology is the critical and comparative study of cultural effects on human psychology.

Key Elements of Cross-Cultural Psychology

Two key elements of this definition are worth noting:

1. **Comparative Nature:** This is a comparative field. Any study in cross-cultural psychology draws its conclusions from at least two samples representing at least two cultural groups. Because cross-cultural psychology is rooted in comparisons, it inherently involves critical thinking.
2. **Psychological Diversity and Universals:** Cross-cultural psychology examines psychological diversity and the underlying reasons for such diversity. It studies, from a comparative perspective, the links between cultural norms and behavior and how specific human activities are influenced by different, sometimes dissimilar, social and cultural forces (Segall et al., 1990).

Practical Applications of Cross-Cultural Psychology

For example, do disaster survivors experience similar painful symptoms across cultures? If they do (Bemak & Chung, 2008), can a psychologist apply a therapy designed to treat posttraumatic symptoms in the United States to other cultural environments, such as in Sudan or Iran? As Shiraev and Levy (2016) explain, cross-cultural psychology is the scientific study of human behavior and mental processes, including their variability and invariance under diverse cultural conditions.

Distinguishing Cross-Cultural Psychology from Cultural Psychology

Establishing Psychological Universals

Cross-cultural psychology does more than study differences between cultural groups; it also seeks to establish psychological universals—phenomena common to people across many or all cultures (Berry et al., 1992; Lonner, 1980). For example, the structure of human personality—relatively enduring patterns of thinking, feeling, and acting—might be considered a universal trait.

Limited Comparisons in Cultural Psychology

This distinguishes cross-cultural psychology from cultural psychology, where human behavior is seen as determined by unique individual cultures and can only be compared in a limited way.

The Impact and Influence of Cross-Cultural Psychology

A Transformative Study of Human Behavior

Studying human behavior through the lens of culture is a transformative experience. It opens our eyes to the incredible variety of human beings in this world. Cross-cultural psychology is a vibrant and colorful branch of psychology that examines human behavior from a cultural perspective, uncovering aspects often overlooked in other branches of psychology.

Interdisciplinary Reach and Practical Relevance

It spans multiple disciplines, including sociology, anthropology, cultural studies, epidemiology, population studies, and social psychology. Cross-cultural psychology informs various fields, such as medicine, mental health practice, workplace relations, and adaptation in a globalized world.

Module 3: Studying Human Behavior from Lens of Culture

Exploring Commonalities Across Cultures

A significant aspect of cross-cultural psychology is the exploration of commonalities or universals. For example, are the laws of learning, memory, perception, and other basic

processes equally applicable in places like Afghanistan, Benin, Chile, and Egypt, as they are in Anaheim, Chattanooga, or Bellingham, Washington? If not, what accounts for these variations? Is conformity the same everywhere? Can depression be understood in the same way across all corners of the world?

Critical Thinking in Cross-Cultural Studies

By examining an introductory psychology textbook, one might question whether the topics covered are **culturally invariant**. And if one is convinced that they are, what evidence supports this belief? Cross-cultural psychology challenges us to consider these questions critically, providing a deeper understanding of human behavior in its **cultural context**.

The photo below symbolizes the colors of human diversity across cultures and societies.



Module 4: Basic Concepts in Cross Cultural Psychology

Culture is not just an **ornament**; it is the expression of the nation's character, and at the same time it is a **powerful instrument** to mould character. The end of culture is right living.

---W. SOMERSET MAUGHAM (1874–1965)

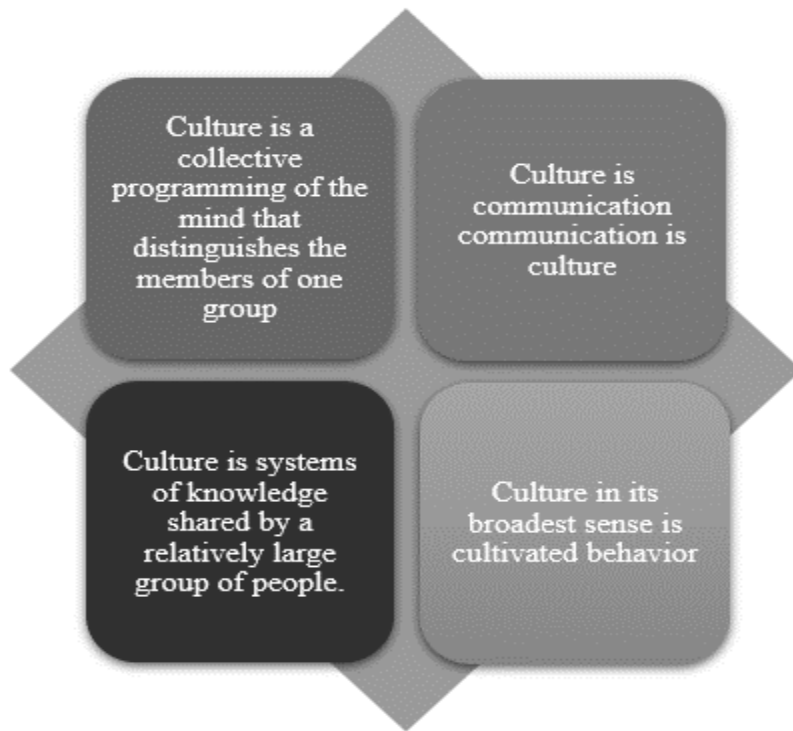
Two possible approaches of cross-cultural psychology:

- **Etic approach:** emphasizes similarities of cultures
- **Emic approach:** emphasizes differences between cultures
- **Factors:** Cultures have been compared on child rearing and personality variables.
- **Culture is a set of attitudes, behaviors, and symbols** shared by a large group of people and usually communicated from one generation to the next.

Attitudes	Behaviors	Symbols
• beliefs • values • general knowledge • opinions • superstitions • stereotype	• norms • roles • customs • traditions • habits • practice • fashion	• resent things • ideas • material object • a color • a sound • a slogan • a building

Characteristics:

- Cultures can be described as having both explicit and implicit characteristics.



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Lesson 2

APPROACHES IN CROSS CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 5-10

Modules 5: Natural and Social Sciences Approaches

Natural Sciences and the Evolutionary Approach

The **Natural Sciences & Evolutionary Approach** is a theoretical model that explores how evolutionary factors influence human behavior. It posits that general biological laws of behavior serve as a fundamental explanation for human actions, laying a natural foundation for human culture. According to this approach, culture is simply a form of existence that fulfills basic human needs and subsequent goals.

The primary objective of human beings, according to this approach, is **survival**. To endure, humans require food and resources. As a result, people seek mates, conceive, give birth, and then protect their offspring until they mature. Much like animals, humans across all cultures aim to avoid unnecessary pain and eliminate threats to their well-being. This approach is centered around Charles Darwin's concept of "**Survival of the Fittest**."

Social Sciences Approach

The **Social Sciences Approach** emphasizes broad social structures that shape society as a whole and, consequently, its individuals. This approach has a significant impact on the scientific and comparative understanding of human behavior within a cultural context. Society is viewed as existing objectively, independent of individual experiences, with particular social forces influencing the behavior of large social groups.

According to this approach, human beings develop and adjust their individual responses in accordance with the demands and pressures of larger social groups and institutions. As a result, culture is both a product of human activity and a major shaping factor in human behavior.

Module 6: Humanities and Eco-Cultural Approach

The **Humanities & Eco-Cultural Approach** is a cross-disciplinary, comprehensive model that integrates the individual with their environmental context. It emphasizes the following principles:

- The individual cannot be separated from their **environmental context**.
- People constantly exchange messages with the environment, **thereby transforming it**.
- The individual is not seen as a **passive, static entity** influenced solely by the environment, but rather as a **dynamic being** who interacts with and changes the environment.

Environmental Factors Influencing Individual Psychology

This approach identifies two key contexts that **significantly** impact **individual psychology**:

1. **Ecological Context**: This refers to the **natural setting** in which **human organisms** and the **environment interact**, including the economic activity of the population. **Key factors** within this context include:
 - **Presence or absence of food**
 - **Quality of nutrition**
 - **Heat or cold**
 - **Population density**

2. **Sociopolitical Context:** This context encompasses the extent to which people participate in both global and local decisions. It includes various ideological values, the organization of government, and the presence or absence of political freedoms.

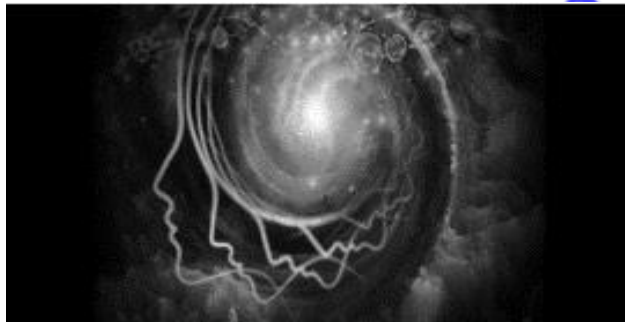
Each of these factors plays a crucial role in shaping individual psychology, influencing how people interact with their environment and broader society.

Module 7: Cultural Mixtures Approach & Integrative Approach

Cultures are moving and mixing. Cultural Identity is becoming increasingly dynamic, absorbing the commingling of different backgrounds, interests, ideas, and choices in one individual self. The cultural mixtures are linked to the concept of globalization. Access to mass media also plays an important role as everything happening around the globe is just a click away.

Globalization is based on few interconnected principles including:

- Economic-Political (free market: anybody can buy or sell anything anywhere)
- Democracy (everybody has a choice to vote and choose their leaders)
- Cultural-Psychological (freedom of choice, tolerance and openness to experience)



This photo is depicting a mixing and intermingling of cultures as colors retain the form but are also mixed.

Psychologists have developed at least three views on how cultures will respond to globalization:

1. First view predicts the weakening of local cultures and development of a new international culture. Individualism, competition and pursuit of efficiency will become global.
2. Second view assumes that today's globalization patterns will pull cultures further apart which resultantly affects the lives of a small portion of world's population (the wealthy ones).
3. Third view suggests that globalization will have a positive impact on only half of the world's population and the other half will suffer. A large group of people will suffer from psychological and economic uncertainty and elevated anxiety due to cultural transition trends (small farmers and small business owners).

Module 8: Cultural Mixtures Approach

Activity is a process of the individual's goal-directed interaction with the environment. Human motivation, emotion, thought, and reactions cannot be separated from human activity, which is determined by individual, socioeconomic, environmental, political, and cultural conditions and changes these conditions.

Access to resources is another important factor that unifies and separates people and cultures from one another. People's access to resources affects many aspects of culture and individual behavior. The **Eco cultural approach** significantly enriched the scientific understanding of human activity around cultures.

Cross-cultural psychologists enlighten themselves with knowledge from anthropology, history, and sociology. This knowledge is helpful in more informed and **multi-level data interpretation**

Module 9: Theory of Cultural Determinism

Theory of Cultural Determinism and Cultural Relativism

The position that the ideas, meanings, beliefs and values people learn as members of society determines human nature signifies the theory of **cultural determinism and relativism**.



This picture posits that people are what they learn.

Cultural Determinism: Optimistic and Pessimistic Perspectives

Optimistic Version of Cultural Determinism

The **optimistic** version of cultural determinism posits that there are no limits to what human beings can achieve or become. It suggests that human nature is infinitely malleable, allowing individuals to choose their preferred ways of life. In this view, culture is seen as a **flexible framework** that empowers people to shape their destinies according to their desires and aspirations.

Pessimistic Version of Cultural Determinism

In contrast, the **pessimistic** version of cultural determinism argues that people are largely shaped by the conditions of their culture, over which they have little or no control. According to this perspective, human beings are passive creatures who conform to the **norms and dictates** of their culture. They do not actively choose their path but rather follow the scripts provided by their cultural environment.

Cultural Relativism and the Study of Cultural Differences

Cultural determinism also underscores the idea that different cultural groups think, feel, and act in distinct ways. Importantly, it suggests that there are no scientific standards for deeming one cultural group as inherently superior or inferior to another.

The study of cultural differences among groups and societies is grounded in a position of **cultural relativism**. This approach does not imply that one's own culture or society is the standard of normalcy. Instead, it encourages an open-minded and **non-judgmental stance** when interacting with cultures different from one's own. However, this does not mean that judgment is entirely suspended. Rather, it suggests that informed judgment—based on a deep understanding of cultural differences, their origins, and their consequences—should precede any action or **decision-making** regarding other cultural groups or societies.

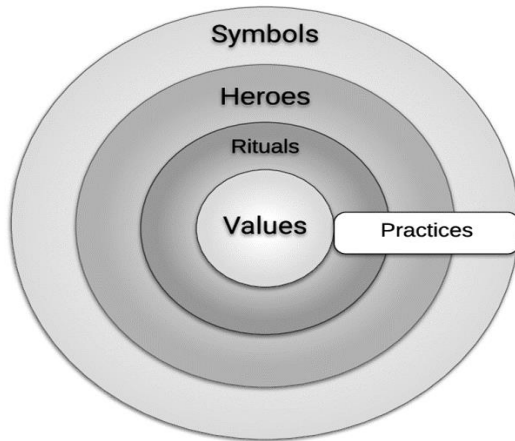


Module 10: Manifestation of Culture

Manifestation of culture means how culture is represented and appears in various forms, objects, practices, human persons and values. Basically, the shapes it takes and behavior and ideas that are held and shown across cultures. Cultural differences manifest themselves in different ways and differing **levels of depth**. **Symbols** represent the most superficial and value the deepest manifestations of culture. **Symbols** are words, gestures, pictures, or objects that carry a particular meaning which is only recognized by those who share a particular culture.



Heroes are persons, past or present, real or fictitious, who possess characteristics that are highly prized in a culture. They also serve as models for behavior.



Rituals

Rituals are collective activities sometimes superfluous in reaching desired objectives of a culture such as community participation or unity or identity, carried out most of the times for their own sake. These include

- ways of greetings
- paying respect to others
- religious and social ceremonies



The Core of Culture: Understanding Values

Values form the foundation of any culture. They represent broad tendencies and preferences for certain states of affairs over others, such as good versus evil, right versus wrong, or natural versus unnatural. These values are not always explicitly stated but can be inferred from people's actions in various circumstances. For example, when someone is seen helping the needy, protesting for peace in a conflict-ridden area, advocating for human rights, or raising awareness

about climate change, observers can infer that this person or group upholds values like justice, equality, kindness, charity, and environmental stewardship. These actions reflect the underlying values that drive behavior and decision-making.

In organizational contexts, core values often guide the mission, vision, and everyday practices of the group. For instance, an organization's commitment to integrity, collaboration, or innovation can be seen in how it operates and interacts with its stakeholders. These values form the cultural backbone of the organization and influence its overall identity and impact.



Lesson 3

SCOPE AND NATURE OF CROSS-CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 11-14Module 11: Layers of Culture

People, even within the same culture, carry multiple layers of mental programming. These layers exist at various levels:

1. National Level

The national level is associated with the nation as a whole. Symbols, heroes, and practices that represent a country, such as the green flag, heroes of the Pakistan movement, and the Urdu language in Pakistan, or the Zen Garden in Japanese society, are examples of this layer.

2. Regional Level

The regional level is connected to ethnic, linguistic, or religious differences within a nation. For example, Bhangra is associated with Punjab, while Ajrak is linked to Sindh. These symbols often appear in cultural shows representing different regions of Pakistan.

3. Gender Level

The gender level involves differences between males and females. For instance, wrestling is more commonly associated with men, while socializing practices and dress styles differ between genders. However, in areas like values, character traits, and emotions, there are no significant cultural differences between men and women.

4. Generation Level

The generation level reflects differences between generations, such as grandparents, parents, and children. Cultural adaptation occurs over time, with technology introducing practices and habits that were not present in earlier generations.

5. Social Class Level

The social class level is associated with differences in education and occupation. This creates cultural gaps between economic classes in a society. For example, education can lead to differences in language use, leisure activities, health awareness, and access to systems, all of which demonstrate the impact of social class on culture.

6. Corporate Level

The corporate level pertains to the particular culture of an organization and applies to those who are employed. This layer is evident in differences between educational institutions, private and public universities, and multinational versus local organizations.

Module 12: Challenges of Incorporating Culture in Psychological Science**Methodological Challenges**

Psychologists may hesitate to engage in cross-cultural studies due to formidable methodological challenges. Designing studies across cultures requires larger sample sizes, ensuring equal variance and matching samples from different countries, and overcoming obstacles related to data collection, such as access to participants, obtaining consent, and providing data collection tools in different languages. Translating questionnaires into various languages is a meticulous process, known as adaptation, which ensures that concepts and meanings, not just words, are conveyed accurately.

Collaborative Research

To address these challenges, collaborative research is common in cross-cultural psychology. Teams with members based on each culture being studied are often formed. Online and big data studies have also facilitated data gathering from large cross-cultural samples. For instance, recent studies on morality, Facebook usage, interpersonal distance, and mate preferences across cultures have used data from 45 countries by collaborating with researchers in each country.

Funding and Disciplinary Compartmentalization

Securing adequate funding for cross-cultural research is another challenge, as is the tendency to compartmentalize disciplines. This mindset argues that the study of culture should be left to anthropologists and sociologists, while psychologists focus on other areas. Additionally, some instructors may avoid cultural topics due to time constraints in their syllabi or a lack of preparedness to address the complexities of culture.

The Argument for Cross-Cultural Psychology

Despite these challenges, the argument for cross-cultural psychology is strong. To achieve the highest level of scientific rigor and influence, comparable to disciplines like chemistry and physics, psychology must extend its investigations to all corners of the world. While hard sciences often produce universally accepted theories or laws, such as gravity or genetic mutation, psychology has fewer universally accepted laws. The Law of Effect is one of the few that has held validity across most cultures.

Universality in Human Experience

A large number of questions can be explored in the search for commonalities or universals. Many human experiences are universal, such as maternal instinct, spiritual experience, compassion, love, adventure, and curiosity. Arts, literature, cities, food, and stories are also shared across cultures.

Aesthetics may differ across cultures, but the experience of beauty is universal. Aesthetics refers to the standards of beauty that a culture holds, yet the desire for beauty is a common human trait. Modern culture, in some respects, differs from traditional culture in that it has lost certain standards of beauty, particularly in dress, manners, and arts. In many modern societies, ugliness has become more acceptable in terms of city planning, buildings, art, and social manners.

This child and the waterfall.

The child is ecstatically enjoying could be anywhere in the world. Such experiences are universal.



Module 13: Nature and Scope of Cross-Cultural Psychology

Cross-cultural psychology is not a distinct, isolated field within psychology; rather, it is a **methodological approach** that aligns with other established approaches like experimental, physiological, quantitative, and clinical methods. It examines how human thought and behavior are influenced by cultural contexts, making it an essential perspective in understanding psychological processes.

Methodological Challenges in Cross-Cultural Psychology

The unique nature of cross-cultural psychology necessitates addressing specific methodological challenges, particularly problems of **equivalence**—conceptual, linguistic, and metric equivalence. These challenges arise when comparing psychological phenomena across different cultures and require innovative solutions to ensure the accuracy and reliability of findings. **Sampling** is another area where creative strategies are needed to represent various cultural groups effectively.

When designing **sophisticated research** in cross-cultural psychology, researchers must consider several critical questions:

- Which cultures should be studied, and why?
- Which communities and individuals should be selected, and why?
- Which behaviors should receive detailed attention?

These questions guide the research process, ensuring that studies are relevant, representative, and insightful.

Breadth of Study in Cross-Cultural Psychology

The scope of cross-cultural psychology is remarkably broad, reflecting the diversity of mainstream psychology. Cross-cultural psychologists explore a wide range of topics, including:

- **Emotion Regulation:** How do different cultures regulate emotions?
- **Anxiety:** How is anxiety manifested and controlled within various family structures?
- **Self-Conception:** How does culture shape individuals' conceptions of the self?

Moreover, cross-cultural psychologists study the **consequences of rapid relocation**, such as migration, and investigate whether human personality structures are consistent across cultures. The diverse topics and areas of study in **cross-cultural investigations underscore** the vast scope of this approach within psychology.

Module 14: Cultural Psychology

Cultural psychology is distinct from cross-cultural psychology in its **core assumptions and objectives**. It posits that culture and mind are inseparable, and that psychological theories developed within one cultural context may not be applicable in another. This field emerged prominently in the **1980s and 1990s**, drawing from earlier work in the 1960s and 1970s.

Key Concepts in Cultural Psychology

Cultural psychology explores how cultural traditions, and social practices shape the human psyche, leading to **ethnic divergences** in mind, self, and emotion, rather than a universal **psychological unity**. It informs various areas within psychology, including social psychology, developmental psychology, and cognitive psychology.

Cultural psychologists typically use **ethnographic or experimental** methods to collect data, focusing on how local cultural practices influence psychological processes. For example, while

a cross-cultural psychologist might test the universality of Piaget's stages of development across cultures, a cultural psychologist would investigate how specific social practices within different cultures shape cognitive development in distinct ways.

Conclusion

Both cross-cultural and cultural psychology offer valuable insights into the complex interplay between culture and psychology. While cross-cultural psychology tests the universality of psychological processes across different cultures, cultural psychology delves into how these processes are shaped by local cultural practices. Together, they enrich our understanding of human behavior and thought, highlighting the importance of considering cultural context in psychological research.

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Lesson 4

COMPARING CULTURES

Module 15-18

Module 15: Traditional And Non-Traditional Cultures

Traditional Culture

The term used to describe cultures based largely on beliefs, rules, symbols, and principles established predominantly in the past, confined in local or regional boundaries, restricting and mostly intolerant to social innovations.

Non-Traditional Culture

The term used to describe cultures based largely on modern beliefs, rules, symbols, and principles relatively open to other cultures, absorbing influences and dynamic. The non-traditional cultures are seen as science-based and technology-driven and relatively tolerant to social innovations.

Although due to global access to technology some of these boundaries have merged between traditional and non-traditional cultures and increasingly diffusing what were seen as characteristics of either type. The terms of traditional and non-traditional are also re-defined and often replaced by other terms to categorize and distinguish the cultures.



Guess which ones are traditional and which ones are non-traditional cultures?



Module 16: Individualistic and Collectivistic Cultures

Individualistic and Collectivistic Cultures

Individualism is a complex behavior based on concern for oneself and one's immediate family or primary group as opposed to concern for other groups or society to which one belongs.

Collectivism is a behavior based on concerns for others and care for traditions and values. People in collectivist culture prefer harmony-enhancing strategies of conflict resolution. People in individualistic cultures prefer more competitive strategies.

Traditional Cultures	Non- traditional cultures
Most social roles are prescribed to individuals.	Most social roles are achieved by individuals.
In evaluations of individual behavior, the emphasis is placed on custom and routine.	In evaluations of individual behavior, the emphasis is placed on individual choice.
There is a clear distinction between good and evil in human behavior.	The distinction between good and evil in human behavior is relative.
Truth is not debatable; it is established and does not change.	Truth is revealed through the competition of ideas.

Collectivism is expected to be high in the Asian countries and Individualism is high in Western countries (Triandis, 1996). Both collectivist and individualistic cultures are concerned with how individuals in a society prioritize and manage their relationships and goals. Collectivist cultures value group cohesion over individual pursuits whereas Individualistic cultures focus on autonomy.



Various aspects of this classification have been studied. In other words, psychologists have studied [how characteristics of individualistic and collectivist cultures influence behavior](#). One such study is present in the [page below](#). Full article can be accessed through relevant journal. In your assignment, you will be asked to summarize the abstract in your own words.

Levels of Organizational Trust in Individualist Versus Collectivist Societies: A Seven-Nation Study

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Abstract

Competitiveness in global industries increasingly requires the ability to develop trusting relationships. This requires organizations, and the individuals they are comprised of, to be both trustworthy and trusting. An important question is whether societal culture influences the tendency of individuals and organizations to trust. Based largely on Yamagishi's (1994, 1998a, b) theories explaining trust, commitment, and in-group bias in collectivist cultures, this study examines potential differences in levels of trust between individualist and collectivist cultures. Survey data was collected from 1,282 mid-level managers from large banks in Japan, Korea, Hong Kong, Taiwan, China, Malaysia, and the United States. We first study differences in how individuals from individualist and collectivist societies trust in-groups versus out-groups. This provides an important foundation for hypotheses regarding differences in individual propensities to trust and two measures of organizational trust: internal trust (trust within the organization) and external trust (an organization's trust for suppliers, customers, etc.). Findings show higher levels of propensity to trust and organizational external trust in the United States than in Asia.

(Organizational Trust; Trustfulness; Individualism/Collectivism)

Introduction

An organization's ability to develop trusting relationships is an increasingly important source of competitive advantage (Barney and Hansen 1994, Lane 1998, Sako 1998). Advantages accrue to firms that enjoy an internal climate of trust (Shockley-Zalabak et al. 2000) and that can develop trust and cooperative relationships with external partners (Zaheer et al. 1998, Dyer and Singh 1998, Barney and Hansen 1994). Trust is particularly important for

firms competing in global markets, where uncertainty and risk are enhanced and where partners' culture, values, and goals may be very different (Lane 1998).

Given the importance of trust for firms competing in foreign markets, an important question is whether the societal culture of its home market influences a firm's ability to trust and be trusted. If so, firms from certain cultures may have an inherent advantage over others in their ability to develop relationships, and thus compete in global markets. The question is important at the national as well as the organizational level. Fukuyama (1995) argues that a nation's prosperity depends on the global competitiveness of its firms, which is influenced by the level of trust inherent in the nation's society.

Few scholars have directly studied the link between societal culture and an organization's ability to trust. Many have written of the high trust widely acknowledged to be prevalent in Japanese business society, compared with low trust in the United States (Casson 1991, Ouchi 1981, Sullivan and Peterson 1982, Sullivan et al. 1981, Hazama 1978, Dyer and Singh 1998). Fukuyama (1995) compares trust in several societies, claiming that Germany, the United States, and Japan are high trust, while China, Korea, Southern Italy, and France are low-trust cultures. Doney et al. (1998) link several trust processes to Hofstede's (1980a) dimensions of culture. None of these studies empirically compares trust across cultures. Perhaps the most extensive work on the topic has been that of Yamagishi and associates (1988a, 1988b, 1989, 1994, 1998a, 1998b), whose careful study of trust in Japan and the United States refutes the common notion that trust is high in Japan and low in the United States.

This paper examines how societal culture may influence organizational trust, with a particular interest in how

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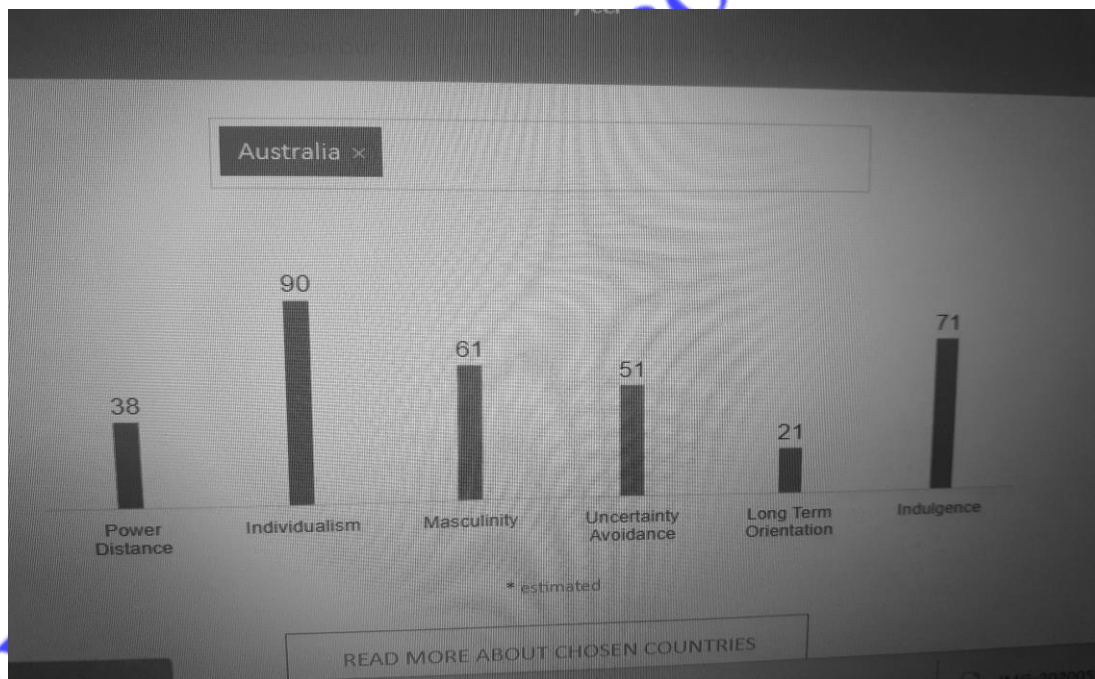
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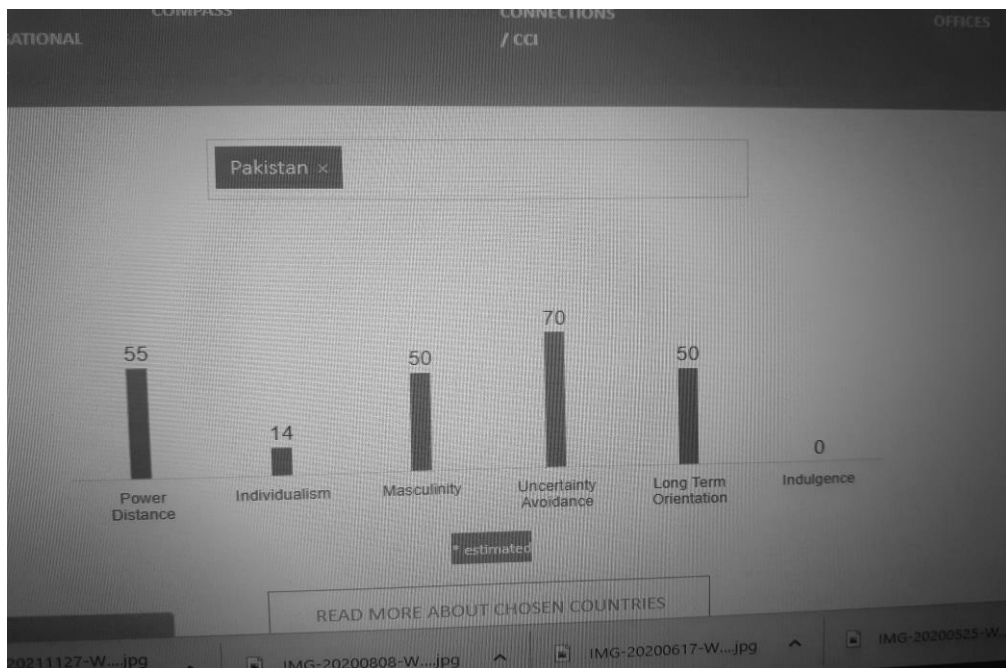
Module 17: Countries and Cultures

An interesting source that shows how cultures and countries are mapped can be found at <https://www.hofstede-insights.com/fi/product/compare-countries/>



At this website you can find cultural differences between various societies on specific traits. In the charts given in hand outs and in recordings, I have given comparison that I found between Australia and Pakistan. Individualism between these two societies has a large difference; Pakistan is much less individualistic than Australia. However, there isn't a very large difference on Masculinity. This cultural compass is very interesting, and you will be doing an assignment on comparing two countries of your choice. Basically, website uses data available on measures of these traits.





Module 18: Religion, Race, Ethnicity and Nation

In cross-cultural psychology some words are used interchangeably with reference to various research samples. These distinctions are about how people or groups are different.

Some of those are:

1. **Religion:**

It is based on revelation that is the faith of the people who abide by or belong to a religion. It is a socio-cultural system of designated behaviors and practices. It includes moral beliefs, theology, worldviews, texts, sanctified places, prophecies, ethics and organizations. It also relates humanity to supernatural, transcendental, and spiritual. Religious affiliation means acceptance of a particular faith, its beliefs and practices.

2. **Race:**

Race is a large group of people distinguished by certain similar and genetically transmitted physical characteristics. It is an important element of people's identification.

3. **Ethnicity:**

It is a cultural heritage shared by a category of people who share a common ancestral origin language, traditions, religion, geographic territory.

4. **Nation:**

Nation is a very large group of people, who share a legitimate territory and an independent state, they have a common geographical origin, share a common history and in most cases, language. They have a sense of bonding with common ideologies and loyalties.

Lesson 5

SIMILARITIES AND DIFFERENCES BETWEEN CULTURES

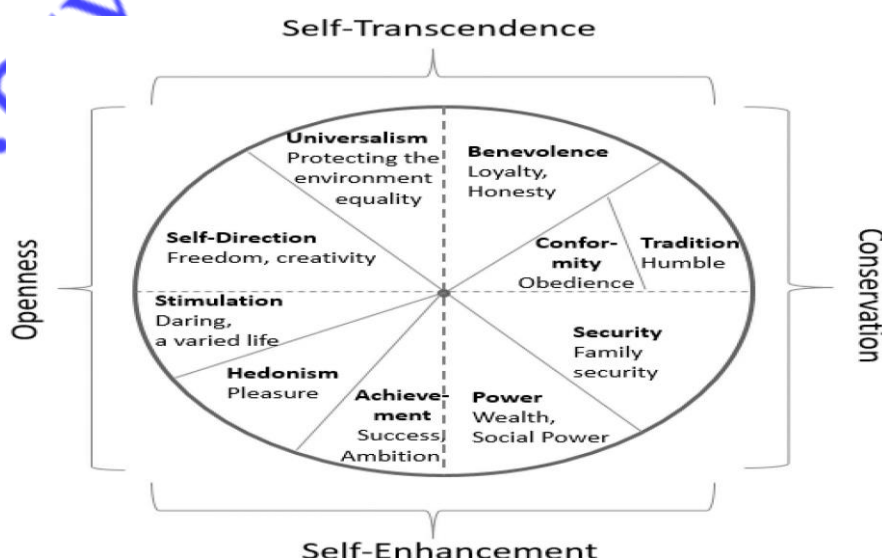
Modules: 19-23Module 19: Culture: Similarities & Differences

Human Value Instantiation

Human values instantiation means instances of behaviours related to values. Cultures represent both concrete (behavior) and abstract (value) concepts. A study using samples from 3 countries; United Kingdom, India and Brazil found examples of certain behaviours that show values for example helping or being kind. Two studies asked people to describe how a particular value was shown in a behaviour or action and then matched those actions to values i.e., how actions or behaviours show values for example behaviour is saving water and underlying value is protecting environment. Similarly, behaviour is giving money in charity and value is helping. Behaviour playing with friends is driven by the value of enjoyment. These studies are described in the article given in reference below:

<https://www.frontiersin.org/articles/10.3389/fpsyg.2018.00849/full>

Within-country variability of human values (e.g., equality and helpfulness) clearly outweighs between-country variability. This means that people in one culture are different in human values and relating the concrete behaviour to those values more than people across two cultures. The figure below shows the examples of various core values and their dimensions. For example, openness has dimensions of stimulation, daring a varied life, creativity and freedom. Self enhancement has dimensions of achievement, power wealth and so on. These exist in connecting segments of a circle, lower half of circle represents more of self enhancement whereas upper half represents opposite pole of self – transcendence. Similarly, right half represents the value of Conservation whereas left half represents opposite pole of Openness. Looking at these opposite poles, you can study cultures in terms of these values. People endorse the same values to a similar extent across countries and instantiate them similarly. These values vary within one culture more than it varies between cultures! Where differences exist, these are due to context.



Module 20: Similarities

Similarities across cultures are found on many values for example helping behaviour, kindness, enjoyment or pleasure, inequality, social class differences, education processes, family interactions, leisure. The inequality also exists in the western and Eastern societies as shown in lectures (USA and Pakistan); Helping behaviour also exists in both cultures. In each culture inequality may be experienced more by some sections of society for example by American Africans and women in USA and minorities in Pakistan.

Module 21: Research Evidence of Differences

Cross cultural research suggests that....

- East Asians need to change their behaviour more frequently to adjust to their environment.
- They hold an incremental theory of self- seeing personality as more flexible.
- Compared to European Americans who see self as stable and consistent across situations.
- Based on this it is possible that Asians believe that emotions are also changeable and controllable.

As we discussed earlier cultural psychology is the study of the way cultural traditions and social practices regulate, express, and transform the human psyche including feelings and emotions. Negative emotions are disappointment, hate, anger, resentment, sadness, disgust. Two researchers tested this assumption regarding emotions and found it to be true! East Asian persons controlled their emotions more when shown a negative picture. They also showed less activation in brain scans. The Method was self report of beliefs about emotions for example *“If people want, they can change their emotions”* and Appraisal, *“when I want to feel less negative emotion, I change the way I am thinking about the situation”*

MRI was showing brain activation while they did reinterpretation of the emotions, e.g., things will get better, or things will get worse.

Module 22: Independent and Interdependent Cultures

“Independence” and “interdependence” also became frequently used terms in cross cultural psychology. In some cultures, most people seek to maintain their independence from others by attending to their individual selves and by expressing their unique inner attributes.



In other cultures, people are more interdependent. They accentuate attention to others, fitting in and maintaining harmonious relationship with people of higher, lower, or equal status levels (Markus & Kitayama, 1991).



Comparison studies

- Independent cultures value autonomy over affiliation and obedience
- Interdependent cultures value harmony and cohesion over personal choices
- Achievement and success are ideals
- Community and group goals are more important

We often hear the phrase in our own society, “Family/ baradri ki khtir karna hota hai”! Most east Asian countries: china, Korea, Japan, Vietnam, Cambodia, Malaysia, India, Bangladesh, Bhutan, Maldives, are seen as interdependent cultures, Arab and African countries, Southeast Asia, Indigenous nations and tribes are seen as interdependent cultures. Whereas Europe, Australia and North America are mostly defined as independent cultures.

Module 23: Acculturation & Multiculturalism

Acculturation can be defined as a process of learning and incorporating the values, beliefs, language, customs and mannerisms of the new country in which immigrants and their families are living. It also includes behaviors that affect health such as dietary habits, activity level and substance use. (Immigrant medicine, 2007).

Enculturation is the process through which we first learn about a culture and can think of acculturation as the process of learning about a second culture.

Immigration and acculturation have a long history as people have been involved in these processes since long ago. It is a process of social, psychological and cultural change. Immigrants, refugees, asylum seeker and many other people experience the process of acculturation.

Examples from Research:

- **Dietary practices** among Arabic-speaking immigrants and refugees in western societies: A scoping review. (Sarah Elshahat, Tina Moffat. In appetite 2020) e.g., Halal food practices.
- **Character strength use: a comparison of overseas Pakistani in Saudi Arabia and matched sample in Pakistan.** (Sidra Javed, unpublished M.Phil. thesis, university of Punjab) e.g., Saudi people use the character of honesty more than Pakistanis.

Models of Acculturation

- **Assimilation:** it occurs when an individual adopts the cultural norms of a dominant or host culture, over their original culture.
- **Separation:** individual rejects the dominant or host culture in favor of preserving their culture of origin.
- **Integration:** individuals can adapt the cultural norms of the dominant or host culture while maintaining their culture of origin. Integration leads to and is often synonymous with biculturalism.
- **Marginalization:** individuals reject both their culture of origin and the dominant host culture.

Multiculturalism is a view that encourages recognition of equality for all cultural and national groups and promotes the idea that various cultural groups have the right to follow their own unique paths of development and have their own unique activities, values, and norms.

Acculturation is seen as adhering to no culture or relative freedom from any cultural effects on behaviour. Leaving one's own culture and adapting a contemporary way of behaviour that are contextual and not culture bound. This is like a fluid capacity that allows a uniformity in global world.

Lesson 6

CRITICAL THINKING IN CROSS-CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 24-27Module 24: Critical Thinking in Cross Cultural Psychology

Cross-cultural psychology is the critical and comparative study of cultural effects on human psychology. As a comparative field, cross-cultural psychology draws its conclusions from at least two samples that represent at least two cultural groups. The act of comparison requires a particular set of critical thinking skills. Learning how to think critically is one of the most vital and indispensable components of learning. Thinking is one of the most essential of all human characteristics. It is intrinsic to almost everything we do. But do we ever think about thinking? How often do we subject our thinking process to critical analysis? Problem solving open mindedness, creativity, communication analysis are all components of critical thinking.

Metathinking

It is a skill that can be cultivated, successfully taught and learned. This skill will help someone who is going to conduct cross-cultural research in the domain of psychology.

Module 25: Cultural Dichotomies in Cross Culture Research

No society is culturally homogeneous. There are no cultures that are either entirely similar or completely different. Within the same cultural cluster there can be significant variations, inconsistencies, and dissimilarities. Cross-cultural psychologists establish and conceptualize the main culture's features in terms of cultural dichotomies. Among such dichotomies are high versus low-power distance, high- versus low-uncertainty avoidance, masculinity versus femininity, and collectivism versus individualism.

We have shown a comparison of Australia and Pakistan on such dichotomies in module 17. Defining them here now: **Power distance** is the extent to which the members of a society accept that power in institutions and organizations is distributed unequally (Hofstede, 1980). It is assumed that there are cultures high and low on power distance. Most people in "high-power distance" cultures generally accept inequality between the leaders and the led, the elite and the common, the managers and the subordinates, and breadwinners and other family members. If you look at figures in module 17, you will notice that Pakistan is more accepting of power distance than Australia. Expectedly, there are also cultures low on power distance, in which equality is a preferred value in relationships. Studies reveal that people in hierarchical, high power-distance cultures tend to assign stricter behavior rules associated with social status (for example, "when you become a father you should always act like a respectable head of the family"). On the other hand, people in egalitarian, low power-distance cultures are less preoccupied with the behavioral rules attached to the status ("a father is just a man, after all").

Uncertainty Orientation refers to common ways used by people to handle uncertainty in their daily situations and lives in general. This phenomenon is measured on a continuum between uncertainty acceptance and uncertainty avoidance. Uncertainty avoidance is the degree to which the members of a society feel uncomfortable with uncertainty and ambiguity. People in cultures high on uncertainty avoidance tend to support beliefs promising certainty and to maintain institutions protecting conformity. Likewise, people in cultures low on uncertainty

avoidance are apt to maintain nonconformist attitudes, unpredictability, creativity, and new forms of thinking and behavior. People who accept **uncertainty** tend to respond to uncertain situations by seeking information and engaging in activities that **directly resolve the uncertainty**. People who are **certainty oriented** tend to refer to rules, customs, or opinions of other people, including authority figures, to resolve uncertainty (Sorrentino et al., 2008). Research shows that people in Eastern and Western cultures tend to differ in how they handle uncertainty. In particular, Eastern cultures such as **Japan or China** tend to be more “**uncertainty avoidant**” than Western cultures such as France or Canada (Hofstede, 1980).

Collectivism and Individualism are perhaps the most frequently mentioned and examined cultural characteristics (Triandis, 1989). **Individualism** is typically interpreted as complex behavior based on concern for oneself and one’s immediate family or primary group as opposed to concern for other groups or society to which one belongs. **Collectivism**, however, is typically interpreted as behavior based on concerns for others and care for traditions and values. **Collectivism** is expected to be **high in the Asian** countries, in the traditional societies, and in the former communist countries. Individualism is high in Western countries (Triandis, 1996).

Module 26: Different Approaches in Cross Culture Research

Cross-cultural psychologists use several approaches to examine human activities in various cultural settings. These include Evolutionary or natural sciences approach, Sociological approach, Ecocultural approach, and Cultural Mixtures Approach.

Socio-Biology is a theoretical model that explores the ways in which biological factors affect human behavior and thus lay a natural foundation for human culture. The **sociological approach** focuses on broad social structures that influence society as a whole, and subsequently its individuals. There are **particular social forces** that shape the behavior of large social groups, and human beings develop and adjust their individual responses in accordance with the demands and pressures of larger social groups and institutions.

According to **an ecocultural approach** to cross-cultural psychology, the individual cannot be separated from his or her environmental context. People constantly exchange messages with the environment, thus transforming it and themselves.

According to a **“culture mixtures” approach**, researchers should switch their attention from traditional views on culture to new cultural mixtures, contact zones, interconnected systems, and multiple cultural identities. The **culture mixtures approach** is also seen as new cross-cultural psychology that does not treat cultures as static or confined to particular regions in this age of globalization. The sharing of technology and increased communication between cultures as well as large number of people moving across cultures have softened the boundaries between cultures originating in specific regions.

Integrative Approach: this approach emphasizes human activity i.e., what do people do, how do people behave, etc. it also focuses on the process of the individual’s **goal-directed interaction with the environment**. Human motivation, emotion, thought, and reactions cannot be separated from human activity, which is (1) determined by individual, socioeconomic, environmental, political, and cultural conditions, and (2) changes these conditions. Two factors, presence of and access to resources, largely determine type, scope, and direction of human activities.

Module 27: Ethnocentrism & Multiculturalism

Ethnocentrism is the view that supports judgment about other ethnic, national, and cultural groups and events from the observer's own ethnic, national, or cultural group's outlook.

Ethnocentrism, in a way, is an exaggeration. Consider an example. College students in several countries were asked to draw a map of the world in 10 minutes, putting in as much detail as possible. In almost all cases, the students' own country was drawn disproportionately large (Whittaker & Whittaker, 1972). Perhaps what is most familiar to us tends to be exaggerated. This is the view that supports judgment about other ethnic, national, and cultural groups and events from the observer's own ethnic, national, or cultural group's outlook.

Ethnocentrism narrows our perception of other countries and social groups. Ethnocentrism is also a distortion of reality. In most cases, being ethnocentric is also judging from the position of a cultural majority. Values and norms accepted by any majority have great power because of the sheer size of the majority and because of the fact that its members hold most positions of power (Shiraev & Levy, 4th edition, page 21).

Multiculturalism is an individual, psychological and theoretical view. It encourages recognition of equality for all cultural and national groups. It promotes the idea that various cultural groups have the right to follow their own unique paths of development. They have their own activities, values and norms. This view is rooted primarily in self-exploration and self-awareness.

In short, ethnocentrism supports judgement while multiculturalism supports unity of cultures.

Lesson 7

RESEARCH METHODOLOGY IN CROSS CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 28-31

Module 28: Goals of Cross-Cultural Research

Research is a scientific process involving some definite steps for arriving at answer to a question or solution to a problem or acquiring knowledge. Research is also a creative process, answers some questions, raises more questions. Methodology for a study depends upon the goals.

There are four basic goals of research in cross-cultural psychology: description, interpretation, prediction, and management. After identifying the goals, the researcher has to choose a methodological approach that is most appropriate for the implementation of these goals.

1. Description

Description involves accurately portraying or depicting a phenomenon within or across different cultures. Researchers collect data to provide detailed observations and establish a clear understanding of what is happening in a given cultural context. This step focuses on "what" the phenomenon is.

2. Explanation/Interpretation

In this phase, researchers aim to understand the underlying reasons for the existence of the phenomenon. They ask the question "why" and explore factors or cultural influences that may explain the observed behaviors or patterns. This step moves beyond observation to uncover the causes or motivations behind behaviors.

3. Prediction

Prediction involves anticipating an event or behavior before it occurs, based on the information gathered from previous studies or known cultural trends. In cross-cultural psychology, this goal helps foresee how certain variables may influence behavior in various cultural settings.

4. Control/Management

This goal focuses on manipulating conditions or variables to bring about desired outcomes or changes in behavior. Researchers may implement interventions or policies based on their findings to manage or control the phenomenon within a specific cultural context. The aim is to apply research insights to influence or improve behavior.

Module 29: Qualitative and Quantitative Research

In general, research methodology in cross-cultural psychology can be divided into two categories: quantitative and qualitative. Qualitative research consists of an investigation that:

- seeks answers to a question
- systematically uses a predefined set of procedures to answer the question
- collects evidence
- produces findings that were not determined in advance
- produces findings that are applicable beyond the immediate boundaries of the study

Qualitative research is particularly suitable for gaining an in-depth understanding of underlying reasons and motivations. It provides insights into the setting of a problem. At the same time, it frequently generates ideas and hypotheses for later quantitative research. For example, these

photos show friendly behaviour and rude behaviour. As an aggression researcher, I investigated when do children fight, what kind of words are used in shouting and do they feel bad about it afterwards. The study was conducted with Pakistani and English samples. I asked for description of the conflict, how it started, what they said and how did it end. This needed a qualitative method.



Qualitative research can be narrative or descriptive. Narrative research explores personal stories and experiences to understand how individuals make sense of their lives, emphasizing detailed, subjective perspectives. In contrast, descriptive research provides an accurate, factual account of a phenomenon, focusing on what is happening without manipulating variables, often using observations or surveys to gather data.

Interviews, observation notes or surveys are some methods used in qualitative research.

Qualitative research is conducted primarily in the natural setting to detect and describe some implicit aspects of culture that are difficult to measure by standard quantitative procedures. It enables to understand a given research problem from local population's perspective. There is an element of subjectivity in qualitative method as the researcher is the observer. One such study is:

- Brailovskaia, J., Lin, M., Scholten, S. *et al.* A Qualitative Cross-Cultural Comparison of Well-Being Constructs: The Meaning of Happiness, Life Satisfaction, and Social Support for German and Chinese Students. *J Happiness Stud* 23, 1379–1402 (2022). <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10902-021-00454-6>. For a review of literature across cultures, see
- Ramzan, N., & Amjad, N. (2017). *Cross Cultural Variation in Emotion Regulation: A Systematic Review*. *Annals of King Edward Medical University*, 23(1).



Quantitative Research in cross-cultural psychology—and in psychology in general—involves measurement of certain aspects of human activity from a comparative perspective. The variables chosen for examination have to be studied empirically, primarily through observation

as opposed to other forms of reflection, such as intuition, beliefs, or superstitions. Because cross-cultural psychologists are interested in establishing similarities, differences, and other statistical relationships that occur between two or among several variables, the most common data are measures of central tendency. The measure of central tendency indicates the location of a score distribution on a variable; that is, it describes where most of the distribution is located. There are three measures of central tendency: the mode, the median, and the mean.

Numerical data is collected and analysed. Research explores relationship between variables that are Independent (single or multi-levelled) and Dependent (single or multiple). Analysis may permit exploration of an interaction between variables. Comparing samples from two or more cultures, subcultures and societies on a variable(s) of interest using quantitative measures such as scales and structured questionnaires is standard method in quantitative research.

Quantitative Research is considered to have as its main purpose the quantification of data. This allows generalizations of results from a sample to an entire population of interest and the measurement of the incidence of various views and opinions in each sample.

For example, measuring support for democracy, character strengths or well being across nations are examples of quantitative studies. One such study is: Universality of the triangular theory of love: Adaptation and psychometric properties of the Triangular Love Scale in 25 countries by P Sorokowski, A Sorokowska, M Karwowski, A Groyecka, T Aavik, et al. The Journal of Sex Research 58 (1), 106-115.

Another quantitative study comparing countries is:

- Human Flourishing in Cross Cultural Settings. Evidence from the United States, China, Sri Lanka, Cambodia, and Mexico.
<https://www.frontiersin.org/articles/10.2389/fpsyg.2019.01269/full>

Module 30: Field Studies of Cultures & Societies

Field study is the process of observing and collecting data about people, cultures, and natural environments without doing a lab experiment or a survey. It is a qualitative research method suited to an interpretive framework rather than to the scientific method. To conduct field research across different cultures, one must be willing to step into new environments and observe, participate, or experience those worlds.



In the two photos above, you can see two different societies, civilians raising voice together for a cause.

Similarly, In the photo below it is clearly a student gathering demanding a peaceful educational environment on campus. These show group behaviour. Cross cultural studies can also compare smaller numbers like mother-child interactions or family environment in home settings.



A field study takes place in the subject's natural environment, whether a coffee shop or tribal village, a homeless shelter or the DMV, a hospital, airport, mall, or beach resort. Field work is optimal for observing *how* people behave across different cultures. It is less useful, however, for understanding *why* they behave that way.

The photo below captures a memorial for victims of Naga Saki and Hiroshima, when America unleashed nuclear bomb in Japan. This was taken in Calgary, Canada by me personally when I was visiting Canada. People from all nationalities were present showing empathy and human concern for a horrific crime in history. We may infer that in world of today, globally citizens condemn crimes against humanity committed in history. But this will be only an inference based on observation not quantitative investigation.



Field studies provide rich observational data. A cross-cultural psychologist may do ethnographic field work. It may include direct observation, limited participation analysis of documents, interviews and surveys.

This picture below shows Pakistani students addressing an award ceremony in USA after winning an innovation competition. Someone studying achievement or joy at achievement across cultures may observe that winning a competition is valued across cultures and a sense of elation and joy is reported or observed on such occasions.

You cannot create experience. You must undergo it.

ALBERT CAMUS (TWENTIETH CENTURY)—FRENCH NOVELIST, PHILOSOPHER, AND JOURNALIST



Module 31: Rationale for Field Studies

For cross-cultural psychologist, field studies create opportunities for first-hand experiences and encourage critical thinking. Learning from field studies is retained long-term and has greater transfer potential. This means that this learning can be used in other situations for comparison. Field studies foster positive attitudes towards science and appreciation for nature. These lead to increased scientific curiosity about characteristics of Cultures that can be described as having both explicit and implicit characteristics. Moreover, field studies are useful in creating cultural sensitivity.

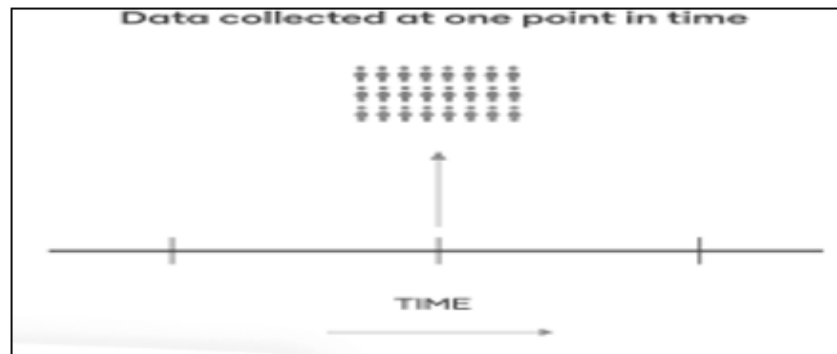
Travel restrictions and social distancing practices put in place in response to the COVID-19 pandemic have largely ground field research to a halt. Fieldwork plays an essential and vital role, often underappreciated, by bringing important local perspectives to the fore and helping to contextualize conflicts within their wider ecosystems and societal and cultural realities. No other method offers quite the same kind of closeup lens on everyday life. Cross cultural psychologists can obtain very detailed data about people and processes of different cultures. It is more detailed than using any other method. There are not many field studies in Psychology yet in Pakistan hence psychologists need to unmask this dimension.

Lesson 8

RESEARCH METHODS-I**Module: 32-37****Module 32: Cross Sectional Studies**

The **cross-sectional studies** are a type of observational research in which data is analysed of variables collected at one given point in time across a sample population. It does not involve conducting experiments. The variables are observed without manipulating them.

Data is collected from many different individuals at a single point in time.



To examine the prevalence of some outcome at a certain moment in time, a cross-sectional study is **the best choice**. **Cross-sectional studies** are cheaper and less time-consuming than many other types of research. These can be used to describe characteristics that exist in a community, societies and across various cultures.

In **Cross Cultural Psychology**, it allows researchers to look at numerous characteristics at once (age, income, gender, etc.). It is often used to look at the prevailing characteristics in each population across various cultures. It can provide information about what is happening in a current population. The examples of quantitative studies in Lesson 7 are also cross-sectional studies.

Module 33: Big Data Studies

Big data studies are a combination of structured, semi-structured and unstructured data collected by organizations. This can be mined for information used in machine learning projects, predictive modelling and other advanced analytics applications.

Big data studies in Cross- cultural psychology are often characterized by the three **V's**:

- the large **volume** of data in many environments
- the wide **variety** of data types frequently stored in big data systems
- the **velocity** at which much of the data is generated, collected and processed

Big Data Studies in Cross- cultural Psychology explore similarities and diversity across societies and cross-cultural research to understand and analyse cultural and sub-cultural practices and to identify and comprehend both the similarities and differences of people's behaviors, emotions, motivations, and thoughts across cultures.

Module 34: Experimental Designs

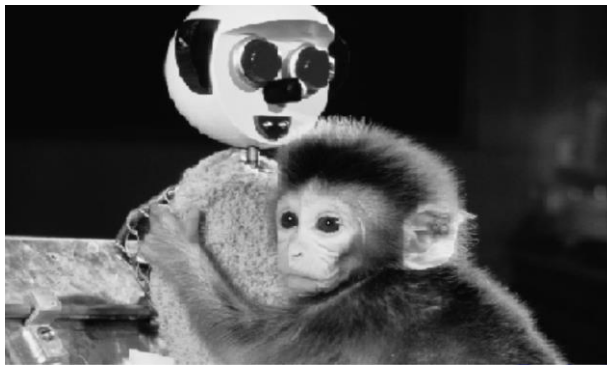
An experiment is a **scientific procedure** to support or refute a hypothesis or to determine the efficacy and likelihood of something previously untried (e.g. in medical science, pharmacy, or

cross-cultural psychology). Experiments provide insight into cause-and-effect by demonstrating what outcome occurs when a particular factor is manipulated.

In Cross-cultural Psychology, an experiment is a set of actions and observations across cultures performed in the context of solving a particular problem or question to support or falsify a hypothesis or research concerning cultural phenomena (e.g. “If someone falls by the road someone will stop to help them” This experiment was first started in America when someone stabbed a girl kitty with the knife, she kept screaming but no one came to help her then the social researchers developed these experiments). Many experimental studies have been conducted in the field of Psychology. However, not all have compared the findings across cultures.

Two significantly important and often cited experiments are:

Attachment of Infants by Harlow in the 1950's. This study established that infant monkeys formed an attachment with a surrogate inanimate figure in the absence of a mother.



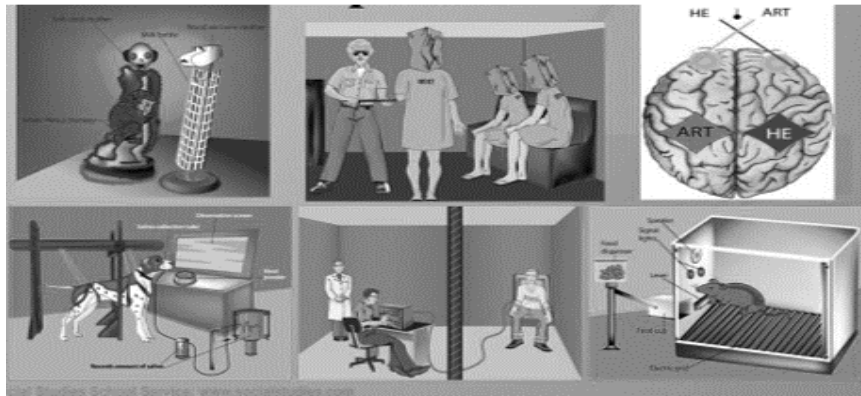
The study by Watson and his colleague's called 'Little Albert' was conducted in the 1920's. It was carried out to examine the conditioning of fear in toddlers. These have not been replicated in other cultures but have been cited often to explain the phenomenon of fear and explored in therapy worldwide whether a child had a traumatic experience with an object before he or she developed a fear of a certain object person or situation. Hence the finding has been accepted in the scientific community across many cultures.

There are the following types of experiments:

- 1) Quasi Experiment (study whatever is already happening in real life)
- 2) Field (if a team is playing and you started music to study how much it affects their motivation)
- 3) Lab experiments

In later modules, we will learn about more cross-cultural experimental studies that investigated a particular phenomenon through experiments across two or more societies.

We will now discuss the type of experiments in detail.



Module 35: Quasi Experiments

The quasi experiments are also called Natural experiments. It involves making a prediction or forming a hypothesis then gathering data by observing a system. The variables are not controlled in these experiments (e.g. you study the behavior of booking shopping before school opening). So, these are conducted in the everyday (i.e. real life) environment of the participants. For example, Hodges and Tizard's attachment research (1989) compared the long-term development of children who have been adopted, fostered or returned to their mothers with a control group of children who had spent all their lives in their biological families.



Strengths of Quasi Experiments:

- Behaviour in a natural experiment is more likely to reflect real life because of its natural setting
- There is less likelihood of demand characteristics affecting the results
- Can be used in situations in which it would be ethically unacceptable to manipulate the independent variable, e.g. researching stress.

Limitations of Quasi Experiments:

- They may be more expensive and time consuming than lab experiments.
- There is no control over extraneous variables that might bias the results.

Module 36: Field Experiments

Field experiments use experimental design that occur in a natural setting. Researchers examine how the manipulation of at least one independent variable leads to a change in a dependent variable in the context of the natural environment.

A field experiment may be either a natural experiment or a controlled experiment. The degree of control is far less than that in laboratory experiments. It takes place in a real-world setting,

rather than under lab conditions for example, an experiment involving an animal in its natural habitat would be a field experiment.

1) The Stanford Prison Experiment

In 1971; Philip Zimbardo conducted an experiment in this experiment it was told that people would be involved in memory experiments (which was a lie) but in reality, they randomly assigned people the role of guards, and a few were assigned the role of prisoners. The study showed how ordinary people could engage in cruel behavior when placed in positions of power or control, and how those under authority could become passive or traumatized.



Strengths:

- Behavior in a field experiment is more likely to reflect real life because of its natural setting.
- There is less likelihood of demand characteristics affecting the results

Limitation:

There is less control over extraneous variables

Module 37: Lab Experiments

Lab experiments are controlled experiments conducted under highly controlled conditions (not necessarily a laboratory) where accurate measurements are possible (e.g. in lie detector tests).

An experimental group is compared with a control group.

The researcher decides:

- where the experiment will take place
- at what time
- with which participants
- in what circumstances
- using a standardized procedure

Some examples of classic lab experiments are Milgram and Ivan Pavlov's dog experiments.

Strengths:

- It is easier to replicate (i.e. copy) a laboratory experiment. This is because a standardized procedure is used
- They allow for precise control of extraneous and independent variables. This allows a cause-and-effect relationship to be established.

Limitations:

- The artificiality of the setting may produce unnatural behavior that does not reflect real-life
- It would not be possible to generalize the findings to a real-life setting.
- Demand characteristics or experimenter effects may bias the results

Lesson 09

RESEARCH METHODS-II

Module: 38-40

Module 38: Measurement Scales

Measurement scales are those scales through which **data is collected**. There are **4 types** of measurement scales:

- 1) Nominal Scale
- 2) Ordinal Scale
- 3) Interval Scale
- 4) Ratio Scale

- 1) **Nominal scale**, in which an object is classified by using the list of categories. For example, people get mail offer orders with categories like **No response**, purchase and pay, purchase but return the product, purchase but neither pay nor return. Such data is called categorical data.
- 2) **Ordinal scale**, assign value to objects with respect to their ranking with each other. For example, a doctor used a scale of **0 to 10 to indicate** the degree of improvement. In which 0 indicates no improvement, **10 indicates** disappearance of condition.
- 3) **Interval scale**, which **represents distance**. For example, the Fahrenheit and **Celsius scale**.
- 4) **Ratio scale** the scores reflect the true amount of the present variable, and zero truly means that zero amount of the variable is present. **4 means double than 2. 1 means a bit more than 0.** Used for measurement of behaviors.

Module 39: Major Steps for Preparation of a Cross-Cultural Research

Major steps for preparation of Cross-Cultural Research:

Step 1: Describe a problem you must investigate and review the scholarly literature on the topic.

Step 2: Identify your research goal. Then introduce one or several hypotheses for your study. For this, you can use at least two strategies. A) Inductive B) Deductive.

Step3: Identify and describe the research sample of your study

Step 4: Choose or design a methodology for your project.

Step 5: Conduct a pilot study to see how your methodology works and whether there are any obstructions to data collection.

Step 6: Collect research data.

Step 7: Interpret your data using statistical procedure.

Step 8: Present the results and analyze them critically in a report.

Step 9: In your report suggest where and how your data should be or could be used.

Module 40: Sampling and Its Types

Sampling means you choose the number of people or groups from whom you have to collect data for research. Samples in scientific research are divided along two lines: **probability** (Representative samples) **and non-probability samples**.

1) Probability Samples mean every person has an equal chance of selection. It is the representative of the population. They provide the most valid or credible results. They reflect

the characteristics of the population from which they are selected e.g., residents of a particular community, students at an elementary school, etc.

There are two types of probability samples:

1. Random
2. Stratified

Random Sampling is when a large sample of countries or groups is randomly chosen, that is, any country or group has an equal chance of being selected in the research sample.

Stratified Sample:

- It is a mini reproduction of the population.
- Before sampling, the population is divided into characteristics of importance for the research.
- For example, by gender, social class, education level, religion, etc
- Stratified samples are as good as or better than random sample
- They require detailed advanced knowledge of the population characteristics
- They are more difficult to construct



2) Non-Probability (non-representative) sampling means that each sample group is not equally likely to be selected.

One strategy in non-probability sampling is availability or convenience sampling, in which the researcher chooses a culture by chance or, most likely, because of the researcher's professional or personal contacts in the country in which the samples are selected. For instance, if you have a former classmate and good friend working as a professional psychologist in India, will you hesitate to collaborate with her in a comparative study?

Non-probability samples are less desirable than probability samples as they are limited with regards to generalization. Convenience or availability samples are used when a researcher may not be able to obtain a random or stratified sample, or it may be too expensive. Also, a researcher may not care about generalizing to a larger population. Other types of non-probability samples are **Quota sample** and **Purposive sample**.

In **Quota Sample** the researcher deliberately sets the proportions of levels or strata within the sample. The proportions may or may not differ dramatically from the actual proportion in the population. The researcher sets a quota, independent of population characteristics.

Example: A researcher is interested in the attitudes of members of different religions towards the death penalty. In Iowa a random sample might miss Muslims (because there are not many in that state). To be sure of their inclusion, a researcher could set a quota of 3% Muslim for the sample. However, the sample will no longer be representative of the actual proportions in the population. This may limit generalizing to the state population. But the quota will guarantee that the views of Muslims are represented in the survey.

**Purposive Sample:**

A purposive sample is a non-representative subset of some larger population. A researcher may have a specific group in mind such as therapy patients, bi-linguals, or high-level business executives. A subset of a purposive sample is a snowball sample -- so named because one picks up the sample along the way, analogous to a snowball accumulating snow.

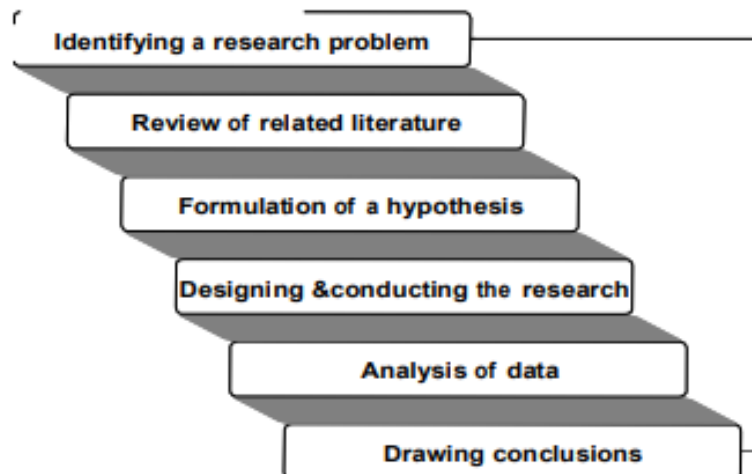


This is achieved by asking a participant to suggest someone else who might be willing or appropriate for the study. It is useful in hard-to-track populations, such as truants, drug users, etc.

Lesson 10

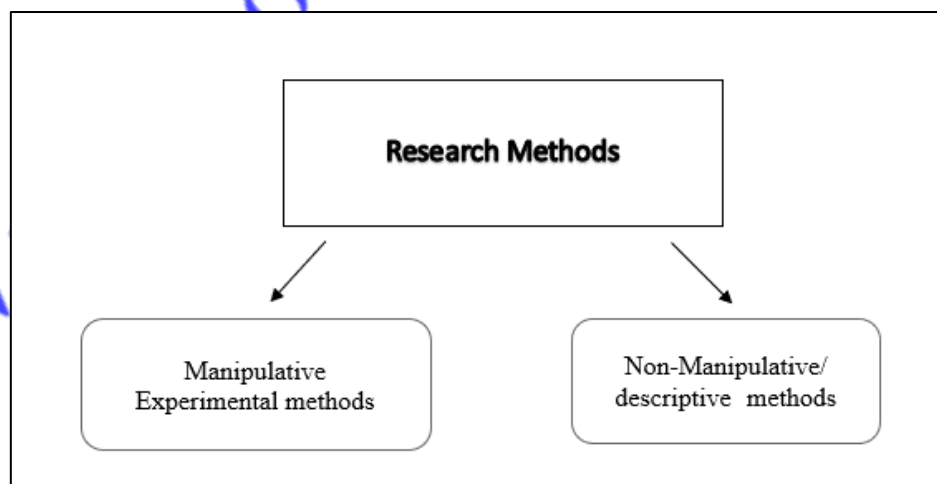
RESEARCH METHODS-III**Module: 41-43****Module 41: Manipulative and Non-Manipulative Research**

The scientific method is an approach practitioner of psychology use for assessing, measuring, and predicting behavior, employing a systematic and pre-defined series of steps or procedures in order to attain optimal efficiency, accuracy, and objectivity in investigation. This involves appropriately framing and properly answering questions.



Manipulative Method in research means that the researcher exercises control over the variables and events. This control is used for determining cause and effect relationships. Manipulating variables is usually done in an experimental setting.

Non-Manipulative Methods mean that the phenomenon of interest is studied the way it exists in nature. The researcher does not interfere with the events, and acts as a passive recorder. The goal is to observe and describe, not control or change hence ways of data collection are different.

**Module 42: Descriptive Research Methods**

Except for manipulative and non-manipulative research there are some other distinctions in research types:

1) Basic vs applied

2) Based on data collection

Qualitative vs Quantitative

3) Primary vs Secondary

Moreover, **Descriptive research** aims to accurately and systematically describe behaviour patterns, situation or another phenomenon. It is the appropriate choice for identifying characteristics, frequencies, trends and categories in a segment of population with focus on the **who, what, and where**, versus the **why or how**. Both quantitative and qualitative data can be used in descriptive research.



Methods of data collection are **Observation using structured or unstructured ways of recording and noting**, **Survey**, **Case studies**, **In-depth, interviews**, or **secondary data such as Archival sources** (e.g. newspapers). **Focus group discussions** are also a type of descriptive and qualitative method.



- Phenomenon of interest is observed, studied, and recorded.
- Recorded observations are analyzed.
- Conclusions are drawn on the basis of analysis.

Module 43: Types of Observation**Observation In Cross-Cultural Psychology**

There are two types of observations:

- 1) Observation with intervention
- 2) Observation without intervention

1. Observation Without Intervention

Observation without intervention includes:

Naturalistic Observation

There is no interference by the observer. The observer may make narrative records, take field notes, use audio or video equipment or may use a combination of some or all strategies.

Participant Observation

The observer becomes a part of the situation; plays an active and significant role in the situation. Structured Observation is when the observer may “create” a situation or initiate it. Field studies are also participant observations.

Unobtrusive/ Indirect Ways of Data Collection

Sometimes the person that is the focus of interest may not be present at the time of investigation. This is used for supplementing information collected through observation. It is a replacement of observation in situations where direct observation is not possible. Unobtrusive measures of behavior include Archival data and Physical Trace. **Archival data** means already existing data such as records, documents, different forms of literature, newspaper items, photographs, movies, documentaries, biographies, and autobiographies. Letters and diaries are also such data that is unobtrusive. **Narratives of other people** like friends or followers are indirect ways of data collection about a person. **Content analyses** are also a part of archival data.

Physical Traces:

These have remained, remnants, fragments, objects and products of past behavior that are used as evidence. Physical traces can be of two types: Use traces and Products.

2. Observation With Intervention

Laboratory Observation creates a situation which does not occur frequently and tests the impact of variables on behavior. This way researchers gain access to a situation that is otherwise not accessible or open to observation.

Lesson 11

RESEARCH METHODS-IV

Module: 44-47Module 44: Correlational Research

Correlation Research is a method used for identifying predictive relationships among naturally occurring variables. Correlation Can be said to exist when two different measures of the same individuals, objects, or events vary together e.g. Relationship between I.Q. score and academic achievement or entry test marks and academic achievement. Correlation is a statistical concept. Correlation is the relationship between two or among several variables. If in one set of data, when variable X is low, variable Y is also low, and when variable X is high, variable Y is also high, we have a positive correlation between the variables. If, according to another data set, when variable A is low, variable B is high, and when variable A is high, variable B is low, we have a negative correlation. Zero correlation means there is no connection between variables. In correlational research surveys, psychometric scores like emotional intelligence, IQ, states, and demographic characteristics (age, income) are also used.

Module 45: Surveys and Source of Data in Surveys

Surveys are the most frequently used method for obtaining information quickly and evaluating people's interest, liking, disliking and opinions without indulging in long-term procedures and techniques. It is also easily used because it is a less costly method, and a large amount of information can be gathered without much difficulty. Surveys consist of presenting a series of questions or statements to the participants and asking them to respond. Surveys are used when quick information is required in a limited time e.g. opinion polls, product preference. Also, useful when information is required from many people e.g. population census. These are more suitable when the goal of the study is to find out about public opinion, attitudes, preferences, traits, behaviour trends.

Moreover, surveys are conducted in several ways, the most common of which is face-to-face and telephone. In face-to-face surveys, the interviewer can see the respondents who are usually at their residences or workplaces, but not exclusively there. Telephone surveys although there is no visual contact between the respondent and the researcher are also based on direct interaction. This type of survey is usually the least expensive one and can be successfully used in places where there is unlimited access of the population to telephones. One of the most common difficulties of surveys is a researcher's inability to identify those respondents who are not honest in their responses.

There are also direct and indirect surveys. In direct surveys, the interviewer maintains or can maintain direct communication with the respondent and is able to provide feedback, repeat a question, or ask for additional information. In indirect surveys, the researcher's personal impact is very small because there is no direct communication between the respondent and the interviewer. The questions are typically written and handed in, mailed, or sent electronically to the respondents in their homes, classrooms, or workplaces.

Sources of Data/Information in Surveys: Questionnaires: in person, mailed, internet Interviews: personal, telephonic Newspaper Survey. Google forms on other on-line questionnaire design applications are now very frequently used by researchers.

Module 46: Steps Involve in Conducting Surveys

There are mainly five steps, which are essential while conducting surveys:

- **Conceiving the Problem:** The purpose of the study must be carefully thought out and precisely defined. How is the information to be used? From whom it is obtained? What kind of information is to be gathered etc.
- **Designing the Instrument:** There are numerous ways by which information can be gathered from the public such as mailed questionnaires, telephonic interviews, through internet etc. It must be carefully thought which procedure is most effective in obtaining the needed information.
- **Sampling the Population:** The problem of obtaining a representative sample of the population is one of the most difficult as well as significant in the field of measuring popular reactions. The sample to be studied must be drawn in such a manner everyone has an equal chance of being selected, and that the drawing of one does not influence the chances of any other being drawn. With this procedure, each age, sex, income, religious and ethnic group in the population will be proportionately represented in the sample. Of course there are a few ways of properly drawing a sample.
- **Conducting Interviews:** Even when the questions are carefully worded and carefully designed, a poor interviewer can bias the results. Experiments have shown that females are the best interviewers: at least 21 years of age, who like people, who are unbiased, who are good listeners, who have some college education, and who are familiar with the section they are working in.
- **Interpreting the Results:** Even when all the findings are carried out properly, there is always a chance of misinterpreting the results. Errors in questionnaires, statistical methods, and investigator's own subjectivity can easily bias the results.

Limitation of Survey:

- Can not identify the lies of participants.
- Cultural differences can also cause hindrances.

Module 47: Types of variables

A variable (changeable) refers to a person, place, thing, or phenomenon that you are trying to measure in some way. A quantitative study usually holds 3 types of variables:

1. Independent Variable
2. Dependent Variable
3. Control Variable

1. Independent Variable (IV): The variable whose impact is being studied; that is manipulated...in terms of kind or level.

Examples:

- I. How does the amount of sleep impact test scores?
IV: Time spent sleeping before the exam
DV: Test Score
- II. What is the effect of fast food on blood pressure?
IV: Consumption of fast food
DV: Blood Pressure

2. **Dependent Variable (DV):** The measure of behavior on which the impact of independent variable is being studied
3. **Control Variable (CV):** A potential independent variable that can have an impact upon dependent variable; it has to be controlled.

Example:

Does caffeine improve memory recall?

CV: Participant Age

Noise in the environment

type of memory test

www.psychologistscommunity.com

Lesson 12

QUALITATIVE APPROACHE IN CROSS-CULTURE PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 48-51

Module 48: Analyses of Qualitative Data

Content-Analysis: The researcher usually examines transcripts of conversations or interviews, television or radio programs, letters, newspaper articles, and other forms of data as a part of archival research. Systematically categorizes and analyzes the content of the behavior or its related aspects. Inferences are made and then conclusions are drawn after objective identification of specific characteristics of contents. Content analysis is done by keeping specific goals, objectives, themes, and constructs in mind.

Analysis may also cover:

- Contents of live human behavior
- Books
- Journals
- Magazines
- Poetry
- Drama
- Movies
- Folktales,
- TV programs,
- School Textbooks And
- Curricula, advertisements etc.

Example:

- Content analysis of textbooks with reference to gender equity and equality
- Analysis of TV programs with reference to portrayal of women.

Steps to run qualitative content analysis are:

1. Identify and collect the data
2. Transcription of interviews
3. Coding to analyze the qualitative data
4. Extraction of themes and sub themes
5. Compiling results and writing up

Grounded Theory (GT)

It is a research method concerned with the generation of theory which is 'grounded' in data that has been systematically collected and analyzed. This method is used to uncover such things as social relationships and behaviors of groups, known as social processes.

Features of GT:

- Data collection and analysis occur simultaneously.
- Categories and analytic codes are developed from data.
- Theoretical sampling is used to refine categories.
- Abstract categories are constructed inductively.
- Social processes are discovered in the data.

- Analytical memos are used between coding and writing.
- Categories are integrated into a theoretical framework

Module 49: Focus Group Methodology and Meta Analyses

In this variety of interviews are conducted in a group setting. For example, a water company conducted focus group to analyze either people will buy water bottles or not. Focus-group methodology is used intensively both in academic and marketing research. The principal advantage of this method is the opportunity to analyze social, gender, and ethnic discourse on some issues in depth: for example, whether a particular fashion product would have any success among a certain ethnic group or whether a psychotherapeutic procedure would be “working” for several cultural groups. The most common use of this method is a procedure in which a group responds to specific social, political, or marketing messages. The typical focus group contains 7–10 participants. Based on the goal of specific research, the group could be either homogeneous or heterogeneous (ethnically, nationally, professionally, etc.). However, the use of focus-group methodology presents a number of problems for cross-cultural psychologists because these groups do not usually represent randomly selected samples. Also, due to the lack of external validity of any particular focus-group outcome, specialists agree that the validity of the focus-group method in general and in cross-cultural psychology, in particular, rests on the repetition of findings across different groups (Kern & Just, 1995).

In a study using the focus group method, a variety of interviews are conducted in a group setting. The researcher talks to the participants using a pre-developed thematic guideline of queries and learns about their opinions, attitudes, preferences, and experiences. Focus group data can be analyzed via constant comparison analysis especially when there are multiple focus groups within the same study. This allows the focus group researcher to assess saturation in general and across-group saturation in particular.

- **Meta Analysis**

Meta Analyses is a statistics-based method. It is a way of reviewing existing research literature in the same field, about the same phenomena. The analysis covers the results of several independent experiments within the same field. Computer-aided statistical analysis yields overall conclusions. It is presented in the form of a table.

Module 50: Contribution of Cross-Cultural Research to Psychology

According to Matsumoto, culture is very important in understanding human behavior. Matsumoto realize that culture played a basic and important role in understanding and contributing to human behavior as did any other influence on our lives, and to gradually understand its pervasive and profound influence on psychological processes in all areas of functioning. There are at least three major areas of contributions that cross-cultural research has made to psychology:

1. Contributions to knowledge
2. Contributions to the critical thinking process
3. The identification of the psychological factors underlying inter and intra-cultural adjustment.

1) Knowledge

Findings from cross-cultural research have clearly impacted all areas of psychology. It has informed us of cultural similarities and differences in attachment, child rearing, and

development; in self-concepts and personality; in thinking, perceiving, reasoning, and problem solving; in emotion, motivation, and morality; in social and organizational behavior. Indeed, cross-cultural research has contributed to knowledge in just about every other major area of psychological inquiry (Matsumoto, 2001).

These contributions are extremely important because they help create a universal psychology that is inclusive of many people of diverse backgrounds, not just people from a single culture or two who traditionally comprised the subject pools from which research participants were recruited. As cross-cultural research has flourished and new findings have gained recognition, more theories are increasingly incorporating culture. While many classic findings remain classics to this day, such as findings on the universality of facial expressions, the relationship between language and thought, and some developmental processes, many other traditional notions of psychological processes have been modified to include culture. Thus, we know that conceptions of self are culturally bound as are the concrete manifestations of many psychopathological states. These developments are incredibly vital to psychology, and cross-cultural research has played an immensely important role in facilitating them.

2) Critical Thinking/Scientific Philosophy

A second contribution that cross-cultural research has made to psychology is in the area of critical thinking and scientific philosophy. To me, cross-cultural research itself is an example of critical thinking because it asks the all-important question "is what I know to be true for one cultural group also true for another?" By asking this question and conducting studies to test it, cross-cultural research in and of itself naturally facilitates the constant challenging of and scepticism toward one's truths and knowledge. By engaging in cross-cultural research, one is always engaging in critical thinking about the state of the field. The implication of cross-cultural research to critical thinking is related to the concept of scientific philosophy, that is, the logic underlying our science.

Module 51: Psychological Engine Adjustment

3) Identification of the "Psychological Engine" of Adjustment

The third major contribution of the cross-cultural approach is in elucidating the process of adjustment both between and within cultures. Cross-cultural psychologists have studied this topic for years and many important findings have emerged (Berry, Kim, & Boski, 1988; Ward, 2001; Ward & Kennedy, 1993, 1996; Ward & Kennedy, 1999; Ward & Rana-Deuba, 2000). Over the last six years Matsumoto and his colleagues study the factors that can predict intercultural adjustment success and the potential for that success. Using a scale called the ICAPS (Intercultural Adjustment Potential Scale), we have been able to predict the intercultural adjustment of Japanese students, businesspersons, and housewives; Americans; Swedes; Central and South Americans; and Indians using a variety of outcome measures including self-reports of subjective adjustment, peer ratings, interviewer ratings, and behavioral assessments (Matsumoto, LeRoux, Iwamoto et al., 2001; Matsumoto, LeRoux, Ratzlaff et al., 2001). The ICAPS can predict adjustment and adjustment-related behaviours above and beyond that already predicted by personality and by emotion recognition, one of the most stable components of emotional intelligence (Matsumoto, LeRoux, Bernhard, & Gray, 2001). Most importantly, his research has allowed us to identify the "psychological engine" of adjustment. These are the psychological skills necessary to live and succeed in a diverse, multicultural

environment. Factor analyses of normative data on the ICAPS involving over 2,500 individuals have given us insight concerning what those skills are:

1. Emotion regulation
2. Openness
3. Flexibility
4. Creativity
5. Critical thinking
6. Autonomy.

The most important is emotion regulation (ER). Empirically, ER is always the most consistent and strongest predictor of all adjustment indices measured in all our studies. Theoretically, individuals need to be able to regulate their emotions, especially negative ones that arise because of inevitable intercultural conflict, to allow them to engage in creative and critical thinking about alternative ways of understanding the world. ER also allows for the incorporation of new cognitive schemas that are produced based on one's ability to accommodate to cultural differences. And most importantly, the fact that ER has been empirically shown to be the best predictor of adjustment in a wide variety of cultural samples suggests that its importance is universal.

Lesson 13

ETHICAL ISSUES IN CROSS-CULTURAL RESEARCH

Module: 52-54

Module 52: Ethical Principles for Conducting Research with Human Participants

The Standing Committee on Ethics in Research with Human Participants has now completed its revision of the **Ethical Principles** for Research with **Human Subjects**. The new 'Ethical Principles for Conducting Research with Human Participants have been approved by the **Council**.

Meaning and Need for Ethics

Professional Ethics are a **moral framework** that is applied to a narrow group of people such as doctors, educationists, or psychologists. The scientific knowledge possesses a **double-edged potential**, i.e., having both positive and negative impact on the society. This poses an ethical concern for scientists across all the fields. Particularly, psychologists using powerful scientific tools for tackling significant societal issues, must be aware and alert others regarding the potential abuse in research along with its positive impact. (American Psychological Association, 1982, P. 16)

Ethics Code

This **code** provides a common set of principles and standards upon which psychologists build their professional and scientific work. **Ethics Code** is intended to provide specific standards to cover most situations encountered by psychologists.

How to Ensure Ethical Conduct

Given the importance of ethics for the conduct of research, it should come as no surprise that many different professional associations, government agencies, and universities have adopted specific codes, rules, and policies relating to research ethics.

Ethics Monitoring Bodies

- ❖ Government agencies:
 - National Institutes of Health (NIH)
 - American Society for Clinical Laboratory Science
 - American Psychological Association
 - Statement on Professional Ethics (American Association of University Professors).
- ❖ Monitoring bodies Pakistan
 - Pakistan Medical Association
 - Higher Education Commission
 - Pakistan Psychiatric Association
 - Pakistan Psychological Association
 - Board of Studies in Psychology

Rights of Participants

- Right to withdraw
- Informed consent
- Confidentiality
- Anonymity

Rights to Withdraw

- Participants should be allowed to decline to participate or to withdraw at any time.

- People who are unhappy about participating should have the freedom to withdraw.

Informed Consent

- **Informed Consent** is a voluntary agreement to participate in research.
- **Obtaining consent** involves informing the subject about his or her rights, the purpose of the study, the procedures to be followed, and the potential risks and benefits of participation. The **ethical researcher** informs participants, prior to participation, of all aspects of the research that might reasonably be expected to influence willingness to participate and explains all other aspects of the research about which participants inquire.
- This means that the participants must be forewarned about those aspects of the research that may have detrimental effects. **Participants** are rarely misled as to the nature of the experiences they will have during the experiment. Furthermore, an experimenter usually states the purpose of the experimental procedure truthfully.

Confidentiality

- **Confidentiality** refers to the condition in which the researcher knows the **identity** of a research subject but take steps to protect that identity from being **discovered** by others.
- Sometimes one **ethical principle** is sacrificed for another. For example, to protect welfare of the participant, confidentiality may have to be given up.

Anonymity

- **Anonymity** means that responses or performance given by the participant is not traceable to them.
- Their identity is not disclosed. In some instances, the identity of participants is not known to researchers even.

Deception and Debriefing

Researchers especially **experimenters** sometimes **mislead** participants about the true purpose of an experiment. This false description is often referred to as a **“cover story.”** This kind of deception is usually done to control the **subject’s reactivity** to the procedures of the research. **Debriefing** is a crucial component for any research involving the use of **deception or incomplete disclosure**. **Debriefing** occurs when subjects are given the **full explanation** of how and why subjects were deceived, and the **true hypotheses being tested** by the research is also revealed.

How Deception is Inevitable?

Let us consider an example.

People responding on a word association test may only give **spontaneous response** when not talked about the true purpose of experiment, i.e., to study the **underlying thoughts**. Instead, they are told that the purpose of the experiment is to test their **verbal reaction time**. The researcher is concerned that **participants’ behavior might change** if they knew the **real purpose** of the experiment, thus effecting the results of the study.

It should be noted that **people must be warned** if the procedure will place them in danger of physical or psychological harm. Deception in such cases is clearly **unethical**. When a procedure involves only minor risks, the decision regarding full disclosure to participants becomes more difficult.

Welfare of Human Subjects

Welfare is assured through many steps. At all times any distress to subject or lasting effects that may be undesirable are weighed against the benefits gained from the experiment.

Debriefing and Protection from Harm

At the end of an experiment studying participants with depression, the researcher can provide the participants with a list of phone numbers of people who could be contacted in the unlikely event that the subject experience severe depression following the experiment. The list of contact can include the principal investigator, a counsellor, or a competent psychotherapist. The researcher himself can also contact the participants 1-2 days following the experiment to ensure their safe health.

Debriefing also helps in avoidance with harm. Informing participants regarding the true nature of the study and allowing them to ask questions helps them in understanding that the effects of the study were only temporary.

Protection from Harm

Psychologists take reasonable steps to avoid harming their clients/patients, students, supervisees, research participants, organizational clients, and others with whom they work, and to minimize harm where it is foreseeable and unavoidable.

Psychologists do not participate in, facilitate, assist, or otherwise engage in torture, defined as any act by which severe pain or suffering, whether physical or mental, is intentionally inflicted on a person, or in any other cruel, inhuman, or degrading behavior.

If a participant could suffer long-term consequences because of serving in a research project, the investigator has the responsibility for removing harmful consequences.

Module 53: Ethical Principles

Ethics; a branch of philosophy dealing with moral problems and moral judgments. It refers to “the evaluation of human actions”, assigning judgments to behaviour as “right” or “wrong” and “good” or “bad” according to some socially accepted guideline (White, 1999). Since social cultures are different, therefore, it is of immense importance to consider ethical guidelines and their varying nature which may exist across these cultures. To describe an act as “ethical” has little meaning unless grounded in some foundational understanding of what is good (Robertson & Walter, 2007), i.e., defining what is good and what is bad?

As Mark Twain once said,

“Always do right, this will gratify some people and astonish the rest”.

The APA’s publication Ethical Principles of Psychologists and Code of Conduct was revised in 2017. Its basic principle states the following:

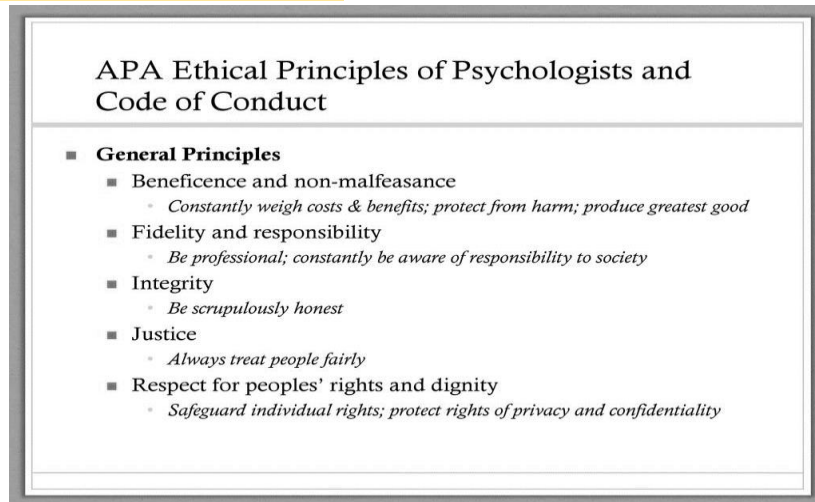
“All psychologists must strive to benefit those with whom they work and take care to do no harm.”

- **Beneficence & Non-Maleficence**

The first principle states that “In their professional actions, psychologists seek to safeguard the welfare and rights of those with whom they interact professionally and other affected persons and the welfare of animal subjects of research.

In short, non-maleficence refers to respecting autonomy, acting justly and faithfully, and

according to **dignity and beneficence** refers to acting benevolently, pursuing excellence, acting accountably and courageously.



- **Fidelity & Responsibility**

Outlining the **value of conscientiousness** in the psychological practice and research, the **second principle** somewhat **overlaps** with the first one. It differs in the focus it has, moving into an overview of what to mind when working with our colleagues and within our work network.

- **Integrity**

The **third principle** summarizes what we are supposed not to do in our practice as researchers. **Cases of manipulation, fraud, fabricating results and general scientific misconduct** are not unheard of, affecting tremendously the field.

- **Justice**

The **fourth principle** states that “**fairness and justice** entitle all persons to access to and benefit from the **contributions of psychology** and to **equal quality** in the processes, procedures, and services being conducted by psychologists.”

- **Respect For People's Rights and Dignity**

The **fifth principle** in a way encompasses the previous **four**, adding an emphasis on obtaining individual's consent and protecting their confidentiality and privacy.

The **Issues of informed consent and confidentiality** are especially important in cross-cultural research, particularly in relation to protection from harm.

Points to Remember

The following points are to be considered when it comes to cross cultural research.

1. **Women and Consent**

When conducting research, you may come across cultures in which the males of the house make decisions on behalf of the females. **Consent of a male against the participation of a female cannot be considered as this would not be ethical. The female, herself, should give consent for participation.**

2. **Language and Meaning**

You'd be needing to develop and maintain documents in your cross-cultural research. You'd be giving consent forms to the participants to fill. **It is important to ensure that the language used should not be alien to the participants and there should be no**

ambiguity in the text. In short, every participant should be able to form the same meaning from the mentioned statements.

3. Cognitive Limitations

You may also come across participants which may show cognitive limitations. For example, if you've used difficult Urdu words such as used in Academics, in your forms, the participants who have never studied Urdu will not be able to understand it.

4. Data taken through others

Data may be collected on behalf of other people. For example, a police attendant can provide data, or a religious leader can provide data for his disciples. In such cases some individuals or small groups may remain identifiable. A researcher needs to ensure that the data is not used against the well being or welfare of these participants.

More Points to Remember

- Data protection is very important. As David Matsumoto pointed out, *'Just because a question can be asked, does not mean it should be asked!'*
- There are issues with human rights in some countries. What strategies should be adopted? How will the data be collected and interpreted in important to consider in such scenarios.
- It is also important to develop a culturally sensitive methodology. For example, in cultures which dislikes mingling of men and women, conducting an interview with females of that cultures by a male researcher would be considered insensitive. It is important to value and respect the culture of the participants.
- A researcher should also ensure that he/she is not promoting any stereotype of a culture when studying. A researcher should remain impartial and indifferent of these stereotypes to value and respect the culture.
- Remember, value given to the culture is directly related to respect of the participants.

Module 54: Research Data from Various Cultures

Cross-cultural research is comparative. It requires the collection of data from members of two or more cultures and the comparison of their data. Following is some of the issues which a cross-cultural researcher face:

1. Operationalization of culture; countries, ethnic, regions, i.e., how would a researcher define a culture?
2. Differences within cultures and differences across cultures. People from the same culture are not similar.
3. Linguistic, religious, and economic sub-groups
4. Arnett (2008) asserted that the conclusions of research conducted by American psychologists "are based not on a broad cross-section of humanity but on a small corner of the human population—mainly, persons living in the United States" (p. 602).
5. The term "WEIRD" is used often to refer to cross cultural samples that are predominantly from Western and English-speaking universities— a subset of the populations called WEIRD (Western, Educated, Industrialized, Rich, Democratic), Henrich, Heine, and Norenzayan (2010).

Lesson 14

CROSS-CULTURAL PERSPECTIVES ON INTERPERSONAL TOUCH AND MATE PREFERENCES

Module: 55-57

Module 55: Affective Interpersonal Touch in Close Relationships: A Cross-Cultural Perspective

Interpersonal Touch refers to how one individual touch another individual, for example, in our culture elders touch the heads of young ones to give blessings.

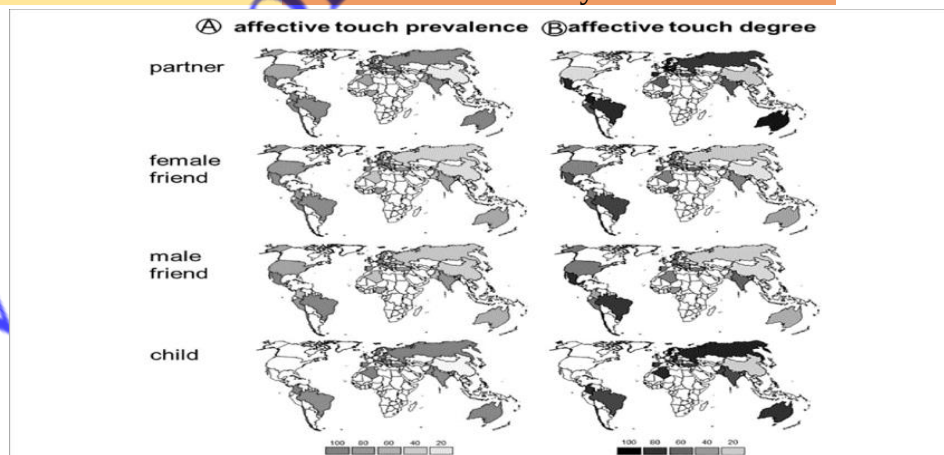
Interpersonal touch behavior **differs across cultures**, yet no study to date has systematically tested for **cultural variation** in affective touch, nor examined the factors that might account for this variability.

Over **14,000 individuals from 45 countries** were asked whether they embraced, stroked, kissed, or hugged their partner, friends, and youngest child during the week, preceding the study. Researchers examined a range of hypothesized **individual-level factors** (sex, age, parasitic history, conservatism, religiosity, and preferred interpersonal distance) and **cultural-level factors** considered were:

- **Regional temperature**
- **Parasite stress**
- **Regional conservatism**
- **Collectivism**
- **Religiosity**

in predicting these affective-touching behaviors.

The results indicated that **affective touch** was most prevalent in relationships with partners and children. Its diversity was relatively higher in warmer, less conservative, and religious countries and among younger, female, and liberal people. This research allows for a broad and integrated view of the bases of cross-cultural variability in affective touch.



Module 56: Gender Differences in Personality

Gender differences in personality have been studied in **many cultures**. Such differences exist across cultures meaning that in every culture there are differences between **men and women** that are **almost universal** whereas there are **gender differences** that are more culture specific. We will point out the **universal ones** first.



Men are nurtured in a world in which a conversation is often a contest, best described by a metaphor. It has been pointed out that “*men and women communicate in very different ways*” (Deborah Tannen, *The Argument Culture*, 1999). The differences in communication between men and women can be explained by “different cultures hypothesis. However, in world of today, women and men live in the same physical and cultural environment therefore it is only metaphorically possible to say that they represent two different cultures.



Women are socialized into a more peaceful world where understanding and tolerance are norms rather than exceptions.



This raises the question whether women and men embody or represent two different cultures. John Gray says “*Men Are from Mars, Women Are from Venus* (1992). This is the title of his book referring to communication styles differences between men and women. Later he wrote another book ‘*Venus and Mars talking to each other*’ making the point that understanding can be built if we understand what the other gender means by something.



Studies also show that girls do more backbiting than boys who do more physical fights (in European samples). When we tested this on Pakistani young college students, we found out that there was no difference in backbiting between high school boys and girls! Although males were found to be more physically aggressive than females.



Hence, we can say that the "different culture hypothesis" is like the "different nature hypothesis."

Men are different from women not only by their physiology but also by their psychological make-up.

Question arises:

Are men and women of the same culture different? Or are these differences caused by two subcultures, one for men and another for women?

Module 57: Sex Differences in Mate Preferences

Even in modern societies there are many values, attitudes and norms in which men and women differ from each other. Men and women also have different social orbits for example in many traditional cultures, they represent two different cultures. Women cannot visit houses where men live. They do not participate in rituals in which only men are actors. They do not know songs that are passed from fathers to their sons.

One interesting example is the preference for mates. **Mate preferences** in humans refers to why one human chooses or chooses not to mate with another human. Men and women have been observed having different criteria as what makes a good or ideal mate (gender differences).

What are the qualities we rely on when we are looking for a mate? Are these qualities same for men and women?

Buss and colleagues (1990) conducted a study of 37 cultures for mate preferences. Results show that in all studied cultures, female preferences for mates are governed by the need for

protection and economic stability and male preferences for mates are dominated by health (beauty) and age issues.

Evolutionarily speaking, these characteristics helped both men and women to flourish their generations. As for males, seeking a spouse which is beautiful creates attraction for him and a younger age increases the chance of him having off-springs. Similarly, females look for mates who are financially stable and competent to protect them.

The recent study conducted included a sample of 45 countries and 14,339 participants from around the worlds, including Pakistan. The purpose was to explore if the preferences for the mates have changed over the periods of time or not.

Following are the findings of this research:

- Support for universal sex differences in preferences remains robust.
- Men, more than women, prefer attractive and young mates.
- Women, more than men, prefer older mates with financial prospects.
- Cross-culturally, both sexes have mates closer to their own ages as gender equality increases.
- Beyond age of partner, neither pathogen prevalence nor gender equality predicted sex differences or preferences across countries.

Sexual dimorphism varies across cultures, Asian and African cultures showed the most and Western European samples showed the least of sexual dimorphism. North and South American cultures being intermediate in terms of male-female differences. The study of Buss and his collaborators is a convincing example of the transcultural universality of sexual selection patterns. Indeed, in general women look for status and men for beauty in almost every known culture.

Reference

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- Sorokowska, A., Saluja, S., Sorokowski, P., Frackowiak, T., Karwowski, M., Aavik, T., ... & Croy, I. (2021). Affective interpersonal touch in close relationships: A cross-cultural perspective. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 47(12), 1705-1721. <https://journals.sagepub.com/doi/10.1177/0146167220988373>

Lesson 15

METHODOLOGICAL CHALLENGES AND CONSIDERATIONS IN CROSS-CULTURAL RESEARCH-I

Module: 58-61

Module 58: Methodological Considerations

Below are some points which should be considered prior to conducting research in a cross-cultural capacity:

- **Adequate preparation prior to fieldwork**
Developing an understanding of a particular culture or society is very important.
- **Appropriateness of sampling**
Diversity in the sample is important to understand the culture properly.
- **Adequacy of data collection approach**
The approach should be relevant to the research.
- **Selection of consumers**
Behavior of the consumers vary from culture to culture.
- **Selection of social or cultural context**
Research should be planned around the cultural context of a particular society.
- **Practical and organizational skills**
Ethical and sensitivity issues

In describing research, authors should provide enough demographic information about the participants. This helps:

- (a) to allow valid interpretation of results
- (b) to generalize the results
- (c) to provide useful information for further research in the area

Demographic information includes variables like age, race or ethnicity, sex, and socioeconomic status. Race and ethnicity are not considered as useful explanatory constructs. But this information can be useful to put the results into context regarding to what groups the results might pertain to. Hence the importance of these variables in behavior is obvious. For example, results of brain imaging studies show that culture and age are associated with differences in neural processing (Apanovich, Bezdenezhnykh, Sams, Jääskeläinen, & Alexandrov, 2018; Park & Gutchess, 2006; Wang, 2016).

Another consideration in interpreting data is based on cultural category. Kim et al. (1999). People from Asian countries become familiar with the culture in the U.S. Their behaviors may change quickly. Attitudes may change slowly. So, in one sense, they become members of both cultures, with an outlook dependent on the degree to which they feel comfortable in both cultures (Benet-Martínez et al., 2002).

Module 59: Translation and Adaptation: An Example

Translation is simply a literal translation of content from one language to another. Adaptation takes translation one step further and modifies the content to make it culturally appropriate and accurate.

VIA - Values in Action is a classification of 24-character strengths grouped under six virtue categories.

Classification is claimed to be universal across cultures and religions (Peterson & Seligman, 2004)

Item examples

1. I admire things that look beautiful.
2. I am thankful for good things in my life.
3. I rarely plan things ahead.
4. Finishing what I start is important to me.
5. I am not afraid in situations of danger.



A measure that is, Values in Action Inventory of Strengths (VIA-IS) has been translated and validated in many languages. This study aimed at the Urdu translation and validation of this scale. The data was collected from Pakistani adults taken from different educational institutes and workplaces. Study comprised two parts.

Part I: Translation and Cross-Language Validation

Participants are given both English and Urdu version where scores are compared on both scales.

Part II: Construct Validation

The sample was 542 adults both males and females.

Mentioned below are the findings of this research:

- Satisfactory alpha coefficients for Urdu version.
- Significant positive correlations with positive affect and life satisfaction
- Negative correlations with negative affect were indicators of its convergent validity.
- Age was negatively associated with five strengths.
- Significant gender differences were found on seven strengths.
- Social desirability effects were non-significant.
- Strength-to-virtue level factor structure exploration resulted in a theoretically meaningful four factor structure, mentioned below:
 1. Interpersonal
 2. Cognitive
 3. Vitality
 4. Transcendence
- However, six factor structure was found in cultures foreign to ours.

The study offers a valid Urdu translation for use in future studies with adult Urdu speaking population.

Reference:

Anjum, A., & Amjad, N. (2020). Values in Action Inventory of Strengths (VIA-IS): Translation and validation in Urdu language. *Pakistan Journal of Psychological Research*, 35(1), 163–189. <https://doi.org/10.33824/PJPR.2020.35.1.10>

Module 60: A Hidden Obstacle of Cross-Cultural Studies: Test Translation

Many cross-cultural projects require translation from the researcher's language to another language. The difficult task is to make sure that the translated version of the method is as close to the original version as possible.

Even a well-translated version of a test is always different from the original one. Languages have dissimilar grammar rules and sentence structures. Some identical words may have different meanings for example the word "friend" in English and *amigo* in Spanish: *Amigo* is for male friend and *Amiga* for female friend. Some words require additional clarifications like word "cousin."

In Arabic and Russian languages this word is translated in a particular way so that it always indicates the cousin's sex. An English version, however, does not typically specify who this person is: "he" or "she." For example, Grand Father in English language does not specify whether he is from the mother's side or the father's side.

Generic rules for successful translation in cross-cultural studies:

1. Translation process from the beginning ought to be conducted by bilinguals.
2. Several people do translations so that there will be several versions of it that can then be compared and converted into one.
3. Both, original and translated, versions of a questionnaire can be administered on the same bilingual individuals.

If the investigator gets similar results on both versions, this is a good indicator that the translation was conducted successfully.

Module 61: Translation and Adaptation of Scales and Psychological Test across Cultures

Translation and adaptation of instruments or scales for cross-cultural research is very time-consuming and requires careful planning. There's also a thorough need to adopt a rigorous methodological approach to derive a reliable and valid measure. The use of multilingual versions of the same instrument is indeed growing with the popularity of tests.



When an instrument is adapted from one language to another, not only the literal meaning of the items should be preserved but also the connotative one (Hambleton, 2001). Therefore, translation into the new-language version of the test needs to be valid. In the target culture group, for test takers from that culture, a meaningful comparison should exist. This is called

construct equivalence. Equivalence (or lack of it) between multilingual versions of a test relates to several complex questions beyond a good adaptation. Does the construct exist in the target culture? Even if it does exist, is it defined and manifested in the same way in both cultures? Are the questions in the multilingual version measuring the same construct as the questions in the original test?

Traditional back translation (Brislin, 1980) has been widely used in cross-cultural assessment. A test is first translated from the original language to the target language. Then translated back to the original language by another, independent translator. Close similarity between the original version and the back-translated one suggests a good translation.

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Lesson 16

**METHODOLOGICAL CHALLENGES AND CONSIDERATIONS IN
CROSS-CULTURAL RESEARCH-II****Module: 62-65****Module 62: Application of Scales and Psychological Test Across Cultures**

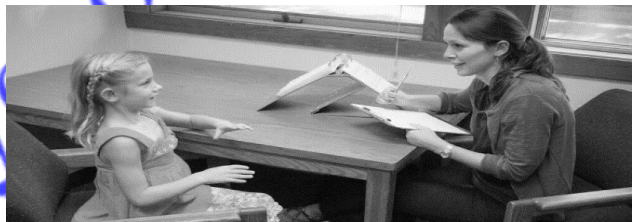
The development of tests is a very complex and time taking process. Once a test has been developed, it is utilized all over the world. This is because only a few countries have developed their own local tests. Majority of the developed tests are from Germany, USA, and England. Psychological tests and scales are widely used across various cultures as a method of assessment for many purposes such as:

- Employee selection and development
- Educational placement decisions
- Clinical and neuropsychological diagnoses
- Interpretations about brain and behavior
- Comparative research

Tests have been found to have substantial validity in aiding in various kinds of decision making in some cultures. Other cultures may wish to employ these measures, or adaptations of them. Items are changed keeping in view the cultural considerations. For example, an item on the WAIS (Wechsler Adult Intelligence Scale) asks the distance between New Jersey and New York? This question is not likely to be correctly answered by the people in Pakistan. Therefore, researchers here would change the cities in the question by two cities of Pakistan, something which is familiar to the Pakistani people.

Test development, test use, and other psychometric issues have long held an important role in cross-cultural psychology.

Psychological tests are also used in various cultures to test the level of intelligence and cognitive abilities of individuals culturally different/linguistically different.



Cultural norms affect response patterns. One possible reason for the systematic differences in response styles could be the different cultural norms; in many Asian cultures it is more important to be modest. So, responding cautiously and toward the middle of a scale (rather than the extremes) is an expression of this modesty (Zak and Takahashi, 1967).

Module 63: Meta Analysis

Systematic reviews typically involve a detailed and comprehensive plan and search strategy with the goal of reducing bias by identifying, appraising, and synthesizing all relevant studies on a particular topic. Often systematic reviews include a meta-analysis component which involves using statistical techniques to synthesize the data from several studies into a single quantitative estimate or summary effect size (Petticrew & Roberts, 2006).

A statistics-based method, a way of reviewing existing research literature in the same field, about the same phenomena. The analysis covers the results of several independent experiments within the same field. Computer aided statistical analysis yields overall conclusions. This special statistical method allows cross-cultural psychologists to do quantitative analysis of a large collection of scientific results and integrate the findings. It refers to the analysis of analyses, usually called “combined tests”; a large collection of individual results to make sense of a diverse selection of data.

Example: Chao Miao, Ronald H. Humphrey, Shanshan Qian, A cross-cultural meta-analysis of how leader emotional intelligence influences subordinate task performance and organizational citizenship behavior, *Journal of World Business*, 53 (4), 2018, 463-474, ISSN 1090-9516, <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jwb.2018.01.003>.

Module 64: Avoiding Bias of Generalization

Generalization refers to the holding a certain view about the entire group based on a small sample of that group. Formation of inaccurate assumptions about groups of people is very common. We base our impressions on certain cross-cultural comparisons.

But what kinds of comparisons are we looking for?

Overgeneralization from a few outstanding examples to the group can happen hence inaccurate generalization can take place as a result. For example, we may base our conclusions on few high-income immigrants in Canada or USA and generalize it to all immigrants. It is important to note, as researchers, that all people even from a certain culture/society are not the same.



Following are some recommendations to avoid making quick generalizations from research findings:

- What were the size and representation of the chosen samples in this project?
- Was the method chosen for the study adequate in different cultural settings?
- Was the scale translated properly?
- Is the data convincing?
- Are there any factors that could have affected the outcomes that were not taken into consideration during the study?



About large groups such as in U.S. whites, blacks, Latinos, Asians, or any other ethnic or religious groups; these groups are far from being homogeneous. Few are educated, few are not. These can be wealthy and poor, live in cities and small towns.

In cross-cultural research, it is always useful to request additional information about the countries in which you do research. For example, we're conducting research on university going female students of Pakistan. We need to be considerate about social class, family type, medium of language in which they've previously studied etc. Ignoring such factors would result in an incomplete result regarding the cultural comparison of these female students. Some people may have either strong or weak psychological attachment to cultural heritage, norms, customs, and values compared to other people who belong to the same group. Every social group has individuals with very high intellectual skills as well as individuals with very low scores. Everyone has quite different lifestyles and opinions on various issues



Module 65: Know More about the Cultures You Examine

It is important for cross-cultural psychologists to have overall knowledge about countries, cultures, and people that you are studying. Travel, collaboration, and exchange of ideas may shed some light on issues (Bemak & Chung, 2008). This helps us to understand the culture better.



A study on cultural differences in preferences for conflict-resolution styles was conducted. A poll of 200 students was used for the study from universities in the United States and Mexico. The students were asked 20 questions regarding their individual choice/s for conflict resolution, i.e.,

competition – working on one's own win only.

collaboration – working towards a situation where both parties win.

avoidance - trying to avoid the conflict altogether or situations which may incite conflict.

accommodation – working towards a compromise.

The findings tell us that Mexican students preferred collaboration and accommodation styles to a greater degree than the students from the United States. Mexican students were found to be concerned about the effect of the outcomes on others.

Designing interviews, psychologists should also be mindful of traditional practices, values, and beliefs of the cultures they are attempting to study. For example, creating an assessment about suicidal ideation or sexual preferences is expected to be difficult with Muslim clients, especially with those who have not been exposed to Western culture.

So, the advice is to watch, analyze raise doubts, and watch again!



Lesson 17

UNDERSTANDING CROSS CULTURE DIFFERENCES AND VARIATIONS

Module: 66-70

Module 66: Intercultural and Area Studies

Intercultural studies are an interdisciplinary field of inquiry dealing with the significance of cultural differences for social relations in contemporary society. A variety of theoretical and methodological viewpoints are found in intercultural studies. The researchers explore ethnic, religious and linguistic heterogeneity, migration processes, relations between minority and majority constellations in different societies and changing social identities.

Common to their approach is an interest in the promises and possibilities of human diversity in cultural difference as a human resource in a globalised world. There is an increasing demand for these types of perspectives in fields such as school and education, social work, healthcare, police and judiciary, business, tourism, diplomacy, and social media.

Many European and American universities offer masters in intercultural studies. Below are the examples of topics in syllabus and research that these focus on:

- Identity politics, racism, urban planning, intercultural business relations, intercultural communication, and the role played by cultural identity in processes of conflict and reconciliation (Karlstad university, Sweden).
- Cultural Diversity in Organizations, Intercultural Communication, Multicultural/Postcolonial Literature, Geography of Sexual and Gender Identities, sociology of culture, Ethnic relations (Elmhurst, USA)

Area Studies refers to a methodical and scientific study of a nation or society of a defined or specific geographical space planned as a unit to meet requirements of understanding all aspects of life in a specific region/area. It entails a comprehensive study of a single national territory/area or region such as: African studies, Australian studies, American studies, Russian studies and any study of a bi-national or multi-national region/area like Central Asian studies, South Asian studies, European studies. In Punjab university 'Kashmiriat' department focuses on Kashmir studies.

"A scientific study of a particular region in order to understand as well as explain the region's place and role in international society. This can only be achieved by the methodical use of all branches of study that may provide valid explanations" (Dr. Shabbir Khan, Area studies centre, University of Peshawar).

Area studies and intercultural studies are interdisciplinary and multidisciplinary for example philologists, political scientist, economist, historians, social scientists and orientalist all undertake such studies. Some scholars think that area studies aim to impose American international domination agendas. The govt intelligence agencies- area studies link has also been pointed out, meaning that these studies provide information to USA government intelligence agencies. Edward Said is well known for his criticism of narrow and post colonial view of area study scholars.

Module 67: Comparing Evidence Across Cultures

Variability across Cultures:

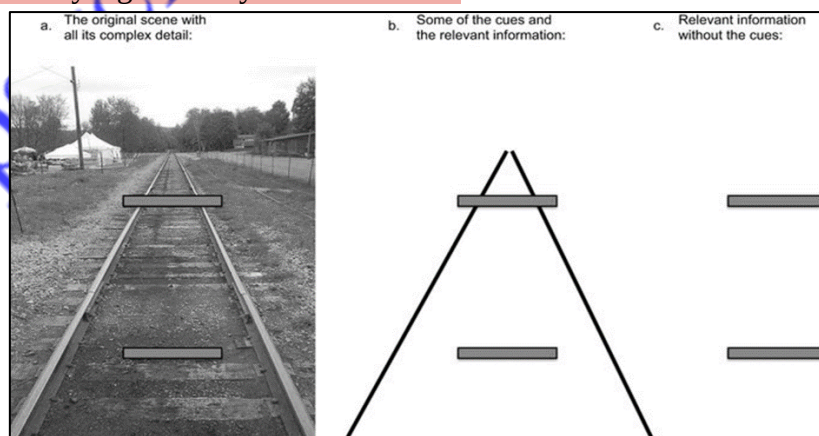
It has been pointed out that “Psychologists who study culture with a focus on prototypical members of that culture may end up ignoring a great deal of individual variation. However, those who study individual differences alone may ignore the way those differences become meaningful only within a cultural system” (Leung & Cohen, 2011).

Using Statistics to look through lens of culture poses an issue as there is variability both between as well as within cultures. How to compare data from two or more cultures? The Mean differences, effect size, Multivariate analyses have been used but these can miss the shades of variability. The theoretical grounds for analyses should be meaningful for the culture being studied. Researcher should be wary of significance when crossing cultures because apparent statistical significance may mislead by assuming differences between cultures whereas these may be specific to samples from each culture. Null hypothesis significance testing, including Type I errors and problems with reproducibility all point to using statistics with caution. Similarly, confidence intervals and effect sizes should be watched.

Cultural insights from relations between variables can be obtained but as we know correlation is not causation and co-varies in cross cultural samples are too many as cultures vary within more than across societies. A challenge is establishing psychometrics, including reliability, validity, and factor analysis. Only after ascertaining this psychometrics, we may be confident in comparing scores from two cultural samples.

What do we compare?

Let's look at what we compare: scores on tests, on scales. In Japanese and American comparison on anxiety, the significant difference meant very little because it was not measuring anxiety for Japanese which is manifested differently in Japanese culture. Different cultures may interpret information differently based on their environmental experiences and cultural conditioning. The **Ponzo illusion** is a classic optical illusion where two horizontal lines of the same length appear to be different lengths due to converging lines in the background, such as railway tracks or a road. This illusion illustrates how our perception is influenced by contextual cues, which can vary significantly across cultures.



When we compare two samples from two cultures for example Tokyo and New York, we are assuming that American sample is average American. Now what is average American? A description given by an author is as below:

“Spends 95 percent of the time indoors, thinks abortion is morally wrong but supports the right to have one, owns an electric coffeemaker, has nine friends and at least one pet, would rather spend a week in jail than become president. He (or she) lives within a 20-minute drive of a Wal-Mart, attends church at least once a month, prefers smooth peanut butter to chunky, [and] lives where the average annual temperature is between 45 and 65 degrees”! (Grimes, 2005, para. 7).

Bob Burns, who was average on every one of the 140 criteria. He is 5'8" tall, is a sports fan, has a deck on his house, likes to fish, and enjoys reading books. Burns's religious faith is important to him, he is accepting of diversity, and he prefers smooth peanut butter to chunky. Like the typical American, he has no desire to be famous. (O'Keef, 2005). Is there an average Mr. or Ms average Pakistani? My own description is as below:

Women: live with in-laws/ expects arranged marriage, cook, cleans and provides nursing care, prays 5 times likes HUM TV, likes to gossip, fights with maid and mother-in-law, or is victim of in-laws, doesn't have a career, educated till intermediate, doesn't care about environment or climate change **OR** her own house, wears designer clothes, goes to super stores, hates other women who are smarter, slimmer, earn more, whose children get more grades, uses designer bags! Doesn't care about environment or climate change! I leave for you to decide which one is Ms average Pakistani.

Now Mr. Average Pakistani

Goes to mosque, is single earner, does not like to change diapers!

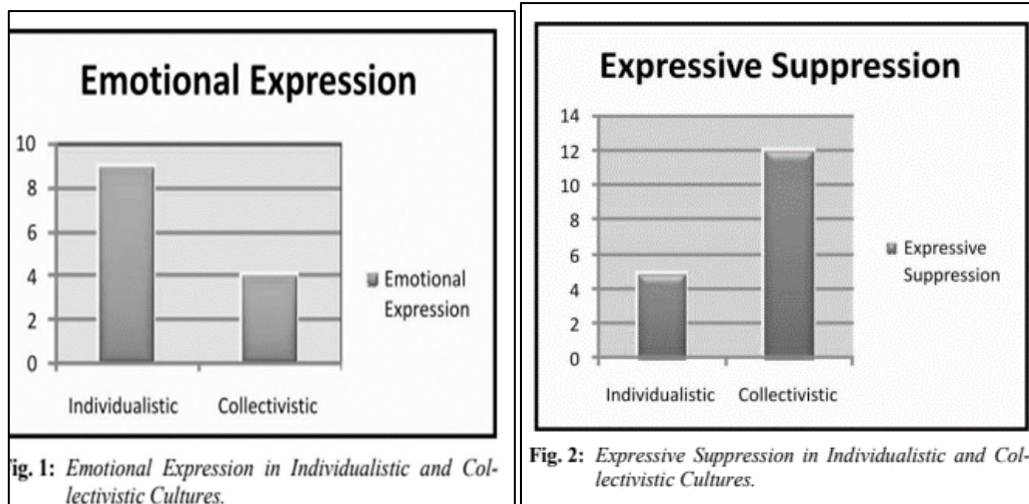
- Watches BOL news
- Doesn't trust the govt or politicians
- Doesn't hate other men (unless he is in politics...)
- Obeys his mother
- Doesn't pay taxes
- Doesn't care about environment or climate change

It would be an interesting study to find average Pakistani man!

Module 68: Cross Cultural Variations in Emotion Regulation

A systematic review of literature on emotion regulation was conducted to identify, analyze and compare the commonly used emotion regulatory strategies, cognitive reappraisal and expressive suppression in individualistic and collectivistic cultures.

Reference: Ramzan, N., & Amjad, N. (2017). *Cross Cultural Variation in Emotion Regulation: A Systematic Review. Annals of King Edward Medical University*, 23(1).



Collectivist culture encourages greatest control on emotion expression while interacting with family and friends and lays more emphasis on maintaining social harmony. On the other hand, individualistic culture endorses comparatively less expression of negative emotions towards strangers. Individuals from individualistic cultures may benefit more from cognitive reappraisal compared to expressive suppression because adjusting one's emotion to the social environment is more important in cultural context

Module 69: Indigenous Studies

In module 69 and 70, two indigenous studies are described. First study was conducted to examine relation between beliefs about aggression and aggressive behaviour. Aggression is a behaviour aimed at harming someone; physically, emotionally, verbally or relationally someone who is motivated to avoid the harm. Research indicates; moral beliefs about aggression predict aggressive behaviour. So, I tested if there is cultural variation in beliefs about aggression and found that:

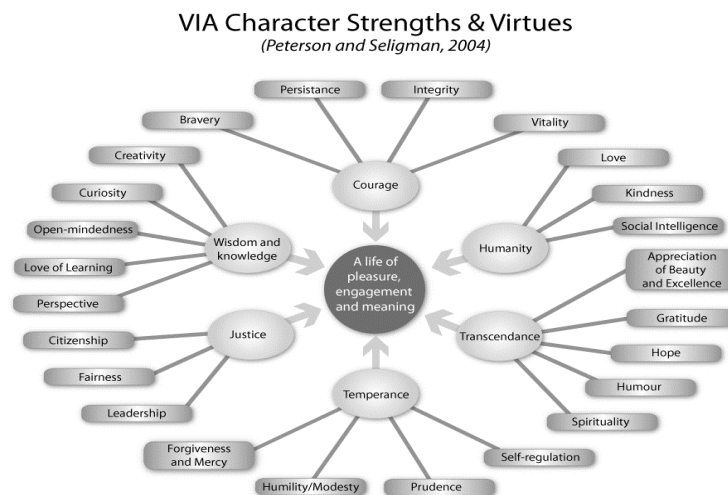
1. Gender differences in aggressive beliefs do not have same pattern across cultures
2. Children beliefs change with age. As children grow older, they are less likely to believe that aggression is acceptable or justified. This trend was observed in UK samples, where younger children had stronger beliefs about aggression, but these beliefs diminished as boys grew older. This pattern was opposite in Pakistani children. Clearly within culture variables like age and gender vary within culture and must be taken into account (Amjad and Skinner, 2004).
3. Situational variations also exist for example boys' responses say that it is not OK to hit a female (young boys' sample). Naturally question arises whether married adults think the same.
4. Extremist beliefs and moderate beliefs were differentiated, and only extreme beliefs predicted joining an extremist group.

The hostile beliefs about other religious groups, sects and race groups can be assessed as I did in my study. For example, from forwarding hate emails to persuading people to burn shop of a minority person to lynching/killing, hostile beliefs vary in intensity. These can be modified through experiments for example we measure beliefs before

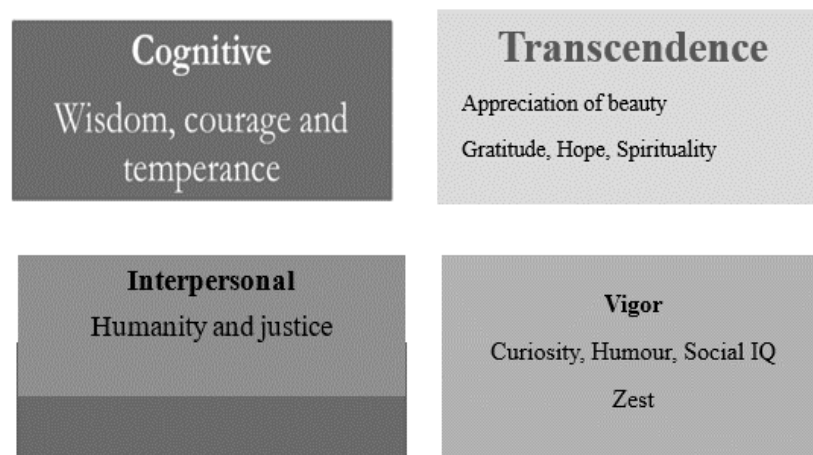
intervention (a talk, an interaction with a kind Jew, a Muslim, a transgender and so on) and then measure beliefs after the intervention. Educational Interventions are useful. Good News is that beliefs can be changed through education, interaction with other groups, empathy neuroscience, awareness, cultivating compassion and looking at things from Spiritual perspective.

Module 70: Character Strengths

Good character is something everyone looks for in other people, whether they are employees, students, friends, or potential partners. Sometimes called character strengths, these are the good qualities that people possess, a collection of positive traits that show people's strengths. Good character is exemplified in 24 widely valued character strengths that are organized under six broad virtues. Six virtues include wisdom, courage, humanity, justice, temperance, and transcendence. Virtue is thinking and doing what is right and avoiding what is wrong. Examples: she is a virtuous person; her virtue is patience. Courage is an important virtue of a leader; virtues and vices go hand in hand. The model given below shows 24 strengths classified under 6 virtues.



The study by Afifa Anjum and Naumana Amjad used the character strengths inventory translated in Urdu with young persons and found the following model: 24-character strengths were grouped under 4 virtues. This was analyzed through factor analyses which enables similar concepts as per responses to be grouped together



Lesson 18

**CULTURAL INFLUENCES ON HUMAN DEVELOPMENT AND
SOCIALIZATION****Module: 71-73****Module 71: Culture and Development**

Psychologists distinguish between human development and socialization. **Human development** is viewed as the changes in physical, psychological, and social behaviour that are experienced by individuals across the life span—from conception to death. **Socialization** is the process by which an individual becomes a member of a particular culture and takes on its values and behaviours. Neither human development nor socialization stops at age 18 or even 25. It is a lifelong process with accelerations and delays, changes in direction, sudden transitions, and long-term conversions.

The conceptions of individualism /collectivism can be considered as relevant to development and socialization. They represent value systems, that cultural communities construct and co-construct as shared realities in specific domains of life, that are transmitted and negotiated between generations. Yet, they also represent individual psychologies, which affect perception, motivation, affect regulation and social behavior in characteristic ways (Markus & Kitayama, 1991).

Individualistic and Interrelated Conceptions of the Self

The independent construal of the self (individualistic, egocentric, unique, private, ideocentric) expresses the notion of personal distinctness and separateness with an emphasis on unique personal attributes, abstracted from social responsibilities and duties. These "agencies" are conceived of as independent, assertive, competitive, self assured, efficient, self-sufficient and direct (Church, & Lonner, 1998). The interdependent construal of the self (cf. also sociocentric, relational; allocentric; collectivistic) describes an individual who is fundamentally connected with other human beings who experiences him or herself as part of an encompassing social relationship, subordinating individual interests to the group by being attentive, respectful, dependent, empathic, self controlled, dutiful, self-sacrificing, conforming, cooperative.

The Developmental Context of Parenting

- Infants all over the world have a primary motivation to relate to people.
- Protection from predators and the regulation of diverse physiological and behavioral systems in the offspring are considered to represent the main selective forces.
- The early relationship formation is crucial for the survival of the infant; caretakers provide the infant with food, shelter, warmth and hygiene.
- Infants are also dependent upon a specific social environment, providing them with social responses as well as stimulation to prompt, support and facilitate the psychological development in different domains.
- For securing physical and psychological care, infants are able to attract their caregivers' attention and elicit care giving motivation reliably with a special repertoire of inborn characteristics like the *babyness* (Kindchenschema) and attachment behaviors like crying, smiling, looking and vocalizing (Bowlby, 1969).

- Infants prefer human face over other displays and behave differently towards persons as compared with objects and develop early preferences for familiar over unfamiliar persons.
- They can be consoled by body contact and want to be held and carried.
- Parents are equipped with complementary behavioral propensities to deal with the peculiarities of infants' behaviors.
- The early social interactions between infants and parents forms the bases of later attachment (Bowlby, 1969; Ainsworth et al., 1978)
- Sensitivity to signals from infant by mother as well as prompt response provides the infant with comfort and secure attachment.

Module 72: The Component Model of Parenting

Two interactional mechanisms can be identified during early interactional exchanges between mothers and babies that form components of parenting: **contingency** as the prompt reactivity towards infants' signals and **warmth** as positive acceptance and affectivity. Contingency and warmth reflect basic parenting qualities which are complementary to infants' needs when forming early representations of relationships as well as self construal.

Warmth

Warmth has been recognized as an important parenting dimension since the early parenting style studies during the fifties and sixties, mainly as the opposite of parental control across many different cultures. Warmth is described as giving and expressing affection (positive affective exchange, openness and accessibility, nurturance, understanding, empathy and acceptance). Behavioural expressions like hugging, kissing or holding are indexed as expressing warmth.

- Body contact warmth also mediates emotional regulation in the human infant, e.g. reducing negative affect (carrying and proximity are the worldwide most popular responses to distress).
- It seems to play an important role for the development of social and emotional competence and is considered to be an important condition for the development of altruism and sharing.
- Besides fostering social coherence, warmth seems to relate to the development of social imitation and role taking.

Contingency

In interactions with babies, parents (as well as caretakers in general) display an instinct for prompt responsiveness to infant cues. There are different times span reported in the literature, which are considered as prompt ranging from 2 seconds (to 5 - 7 seconds, mainly as responses towards distress signals). There is however evidence, that parents in fact respond much faster to a substantial part of infants, mainly non – distress signals within a latency window of 200 to 800 msecs (Papousek & Papousek, 1991).

- The necessity of the short time span seems to be related to infants' restricted memory capacity; infants do not remember that events belong together if distance exceeds 1 second.
- The parental contingency matches infants' contingency detection mechanisms, which are present from birth.

- Infants' early experiences of behavioral contingency might strengthen confidence in acting effectively and thus establish security of self-regulation, leading to independent autonomy.
- The experience of warmth and emotional closeness, on the other hand, may strengthen the ability to relate to others and depend on their social support.

Module 73: Adolescent Future Orientation; An Integrated Cultural and Ecological Perspectives

Future Orientation

Future orientation is the image individuals have regarding their future, as consciously represented and self-reported. Like autobiography, it tells a personal subjective life story consisting of those life domains individuals deem important and gives meaning to one's life. Its importance for individuals' motivation and self-definition has been acknowledged by both psychologists (e.g., Bandura, 2001) and laypersons, as attested by the frequent use of future metaphors for promoting both commercial and public interests.

"Don't wait for the future-go find it"

"Where there cares there is future"

" Invest in the future of your children; buy a house now!"

"The future isn't something you travel to, it's something you build up"

Future orientation is a person's 'model of the future'. As such, it provides the grounds for setting goals, planning, exploring options and making commitments, and consequently guides the person's developmental course (Bandura, 2001; Nurmi, 1991; Seginer, 2003; Trommsdorff, 1986).

- Future orientation has a special importance for individuals going through developmental and transitional periods in which they are normatively expected to prepare themselves for what lies ahead.
- **Early psychological analyses:** Contemporary conceptualizations of future orientation can be traced back to early work of three psychologists: Frank (1939), Israeli (1930, 1936) and Lewin (1939, 1948).
- Their analyses addressed the conceptualization of future orientation as well as its motivational and developmental functions, especially addressing three issues:
 - (a) Future orientation, or the construction of possible events and experiences in the future, is generated in the present,
 - (b) Future orientation is domain specific, and individuals construct their images of the future by relating to different domains
 - (c) The content (themes) of these domains may be personal or social, realistic or ideal, and reality-based or fantastic.

Lesson 19

HUMAN DEVELOPMENT AND SOCIALIZATION**Module: 74-76****Module 74: Erikson Stages of Psychological Development**

Erikson's Stages of Psychosocial Development is a theory introduced in the 1950s by the psychologist and psychoanalyst Erik Erikson. It built upon Freud's theory of psychosexual development by drawing parallels in childhood stages while expanding it to include the influence of social dynamics as well as the extension of psychosocial development into adulthood. It posits eight sequential stages of individual human development influenced by biological, psychological, and social factors throughout the lifespan. American psychologist Erik Erikson (1950) theorized that all humans pass through a series of eight developmental stages that stretch from birth to death. Each stage is characterized by a developmental conflict, problem, or crisis. If the crisis has a positive resolution, the person's ego is strengthened by gaining a virtue that results in greater adaptation and a healthier personality. But if the crisis has a negative resolution, the ego loses strength, resulting in inhibited adaptation and an unhealthier personality. For instance, if a young girl's conflict between a desire to go and play on the street (an independent decision, initiative) and fear of retribution from parents (guilt) has a positive resolution, she will emerge with the virtue of purpose; a negative outcome, however, would result in a sense of unworthiness (see Table below).

Developmental stages according to Erikson

Stage	Ego Crisis	Age	Positive Outcome
1	Basic trust versus mistrust	0–1	Hope
2	Autonomy versus shame and doubt	2–3	Will
3	Initiative versus guilt	3–5	Purpose
4	Industry versus inferiority	5–12	Competence
5	Ego identity versus role confusion	Adolescence	Fidelity
6	Intimacy versus isolation	Young adult	Love
7	Generativity versus stagnation	Adulthood	Care
8	Ego integrity versus despair	Maturity	Wisdom

Source: Based on Erikson (1950).

Erikson thus defined the healthy or mature personality as one that possesses the eight virtues (namely hope, will, purpose, competence, fidelity, love, care, and wisdom) that emerge from a positive resolution at each stage of development. It was Erikson's belief that the outcome of every crisis resolution is reversible.

Stages of Childhood**Stage 1 – Infancy period: Trust vs. Mistrust**

- Virtue: Hope, Maldevelopment: Withdrawal
- Concomitant Freudian stage: oral stage
- Example: Secure environment provided by the caregiver, with regular access to affection and food

Stage 2 – Early Childhood period: Autonomy vs. Shame, doubt

- Virtue: Will, Maldevelopment: Compulsion
- Concomitant Freudian stage: anal stage
- Example: Caregiver promotes self-sufficiency while maintaining a secure environment

Stage 3 – Play Age period: Initiative vs. Guilt

- Virtue: Purpose, Maldevelopment: Inhibition
- Concomitant Freudian stage: genital stage
- Example: Caregiver encourages, supports, and guides the child's own initiatives and interests

Stage 4 – School Age period: Industry vs. Inferiority

- Virtue: Competence, Maldevelopment: Inertia (passivity)
- Concomitant Freudian stage: latency stage
- Example: Reasonable expectations set in school and at home, with praise for their accomplishments

Stage of AdolescenceStage 5 – Adolescence period: Identity vs. Identity confusion

- Virtue: Fidelity, Maldevelopment: Repudiation
- Example: Individual weighs out their previous experiences, societal expectations, and their aspirations in establishing values and 'finding themselves.'

Stages of AdulthoodStage 6 – Young Adulthood period: Intimacy vs. Isolation

- Virtue: Love, Maldevelopment: Distantiation
- Example: Individual forms close friendships or long-term partnership

Stage 7 – Adulthood period: Generativity vs. Stagnation/Self-absorption

- Virtue: Care, Maldevelopment: Rejection
- Example: Engagement with the next generation through parenting, coaching, or teaching

Stage 8 – Old Age period: Integrity vs. Despair

- Virtue: Wisdom, Maldevelopment: Disdain
- Example: Contemplation and acknowledgment of personal life accomplishments

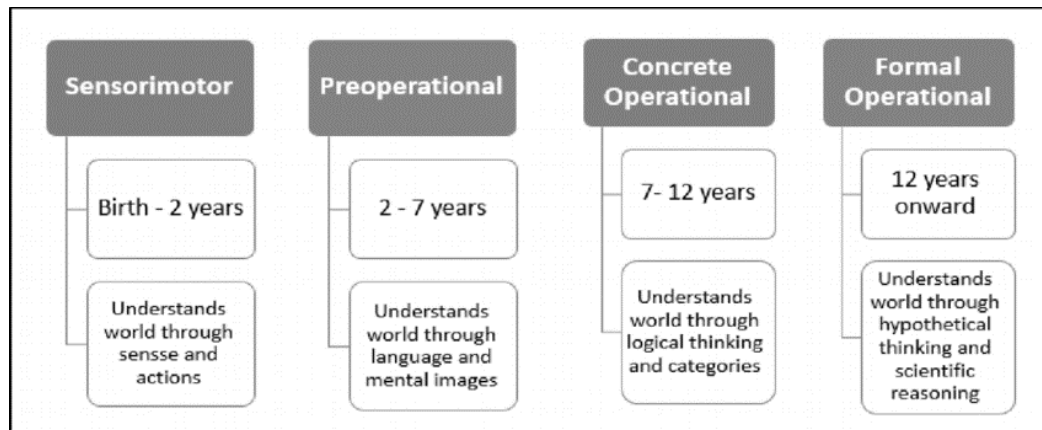
A ninth stage was added by Erik Erikson's wife, Joan Erikson. It considers new challenges experienced with continued aging and incorporates aspects from all previous eight stages of psychosocial development.

Module 75: Piaget Stages of Cognitive Development

Cognition refers to the mental processes involved in acquiring knowledge and understanding. This includes a range of activities such as perception, attention, memory, reasoning, decision-making, problem-solving, and language comprehension. Essentially, it encompasses how we think, learn, and remember information. Cognitive psychology studies these processes to understand how we interact with the world and make sense of our experiences.

Swiss psychologist Jean Piaget (1963) was primarily interested in how children develop the process of thinking about themselves and the world around them. He theorized that the child's cognitive growth is a stage-by-stage process, consisting of four stages:

1. The Sensorimotor Stage
2. Preoperational Stage
3. Concrete Operations
4. Formal Operations



1. Sensorimotor Stage

According to Piaget, at the start of the sensorimotor stage (0-2 years old), infants are only aware of what is right in front of them. They learn with their senses and motor skills, focusing on what they see and do (visual and physical interactions) within their immediate environment. They're constantly experimenting because they don't yet know how things react. They shake or throw things, put things in their mouth, and learn about the world through trial and error. The later substages include goal-oriented behavior that leads to a desired result. For instance, they may cry to see if you'll attend to them. Between the ages of 5-8 months, infants begin to realize that an object exists even though they can no longer see it. This critical milestone, known as **object permanence**, is a sign that the child is developing memory. For example, the infant learns that when you leave, you still exist, and you'll be back. They may also look for a toy when it's not with them because they know it still exists. They may also show stranger anxiety or fear of unfamiliar faces as they develop object permanence. They may cry and cling to parents or other familiar faces when strangers are around.

As infants start to crawl, stand, and walk, their increased physical mobility leads to more cognitive development. Near the end of the sensorimotor stage (18-24 months), infants reach another important milestone -- early language development -- a sign that they are developing some symbolic abilities.

2. Preoperational Stage

During this stage (2-7 years old), children can think about things symbolically, like using symbols to represent words, things, pictures, people, and ideas. As a result of being able to think symbolically, they can also:

- **Mimic behavior (imitation).** Your child may act as something else, even when the thing they're modelling is no longer with them. For example, they may walk the way someone else walks, even when the person isn't with them. They might use their arms to mimic airplane wings as they run around the room.
- **Play pretend or make-believe.** Your child can imagine and pretend that an object is something else (symbolic representation). For example, a stuffed animal can become a baby, and they may act as the parent.
- **Draw.** Drawing can start with scribbling and making images representing people and things in the child's world. For example, stick drawings may represent family members, and round objects may represent toys.

- **Develop mental imagery.** Your child creates their own mental images, and they may ask you for the names of things so they can better understand what they're **thinking about and visualize it.**
- **Describe events verbally.** Explaining or imitating experiences with words shows your child can think and learn, not just react to their surroundings.

They may also engage in **egocentric thinking**, where they can't understand that others think differently from them or see things from another person's perspective.

3. Concrete Operational Stage

At this time, **elementary-age and preadolescent children, aged 7-11 years old, show logical, concrete reasoning.** Children at this age gain the following skills:

- **Decentering:** Children's thinking becomes less focused on themselves. They begin to realize their thoughts and feelings are unique and may not be shared by others or be part of reality. They also become more empathic. Experts also describe decentering as "theory-of-mind (TOM)."
- **Conservation:** The child becomes aware of their surroundings and learns that things remain the same despite existing in a different form. For example, they know the amount of juice in its original bottle is still the same when poured into a glass cup.
- **Reversibility:** The child learns that things can return to their original state unchanged. For example, they learn that the **juice poured into the glass cup can** return to the bottle unchanged.
- **Class inclusion:** The child can now group objects based on shape or type.
- **Relations:** The child can use **logic to perceive and organize** a series of gradually changing items, such as arranging objects by size. But during this stage, most children still can't think **abstractly or hypothetically.**

4. Formal Operational Stage

Adolescents who reach **this fourth stage of intellectual development -- usually around age 11 or older -- can use symbols related to abstract concepts, such as algebra and science.** They can think about things in systematic ways, come up with theories, and consider possibilities. They also can think about abstract relationships and concepts such as justice.

Children **in this stage may become even more self-conscious and magnify their experiences or circumstances over how others might.** A child with a pimple might believe it is bigger than what it is and that others see it the way they do.

Although Piaget believed in **lifelong intellectual growth**, he insisted that the formal operational stage is the final stage of cognitive development. He also said that continued intellectual development in adults depends on the buildup of knowledge.

Module 76: Kohlberg; Stages of Moral Development

Lawrence Kohlberg (1927-1987) is known for his theory of **moral development.** American psychologist Lawrence Kohlberg (1981) proposed three main levels, each consisting of **two stages of moral development in which children and adults can make several types of moral judgments.** In brief, people go from lower stages of reasoning, where they **prefer to avoid punishment for wrongdoing,** to the higher stages, where they choose social contract and then universal principles to guide moral actions (see Table).

Kohlberg's Stages of Moral Development

Level	Stage	Description
Pre-conventional	Stage 1: Obedience and Punishment	Morality is based on avoiding punishment.
	Stage 2: Individualism and Exchange	Actions are determined by personal gain or reward.
Conventional	Stage 3: Interpersonal Relationships	Morality is based on social approval and relationships.
	Stage 4: Authority and Social Order	Emphasis on obeying laws and maintaining societal order.
Post-conventional	Stage 5: Social Contract	Recognizes individual rights and the importance of rules that can be changed for the greater good.
	Stage 6: Universal Ethical Principles	Moral reasoning based on abstract principles of justice and equality.

1. Pre-conventional Level:

Stage 1: Obedience and Punishment Orientation: Decisions are made based on avoiding punishment.

Stage 2: Individualism and Exchange: Actions are determined by personal gain or reward.

2. Conventional Level:

Stage 3: Interpersonal Relationships: Morality is based on social approval and maintaining relationships.

Stage 4: Authority and Social Order: Emphasis is placed on obeying laws and rules to maintain societal order.

3. Post-conventional Level:

Stage 5: Social Contract: Recognizes the importance of individual rights and societal rules, which can be changed for the greater good.

Stage 6: Universal Ethical Principles: Moral reasoning is based on abstract principles of justice and equality.

Cross-Cultural Examination of Kohlberg's Theory

Kohlberg's stages provide a useful framework for understanding moral development, incorporating a cross-cultural perspective. The theory has been tested by different researchers.

- Snarey (1985) examined 45 empirical studies of moral judgment development conducted in 27 countries and suggested that the first four stages appear to be universal in the subjects of all cultures studied.
- However, some critics express skepticism about the cross-cultural validity of this theory. Why? The methodology used in cross-cultural studies on moral development was based on hypothetical stories about moral choices that were related well only to U.S. subjects (Shweder et al., 1990). For example, in one such story a woman is suffering from an illness. She is prescribed an expensive drug that may save her life; however, the pharmacist in the story charges an excessive amount of money for the prescription. The woman's husband does not have the money. The moral predicament in this vignette is whether it is moral to steal the drug. It looks like a story that makes

sense and the situation described is not unusual. However, in many countries, medicine is under government control, and pharmacists cannot charge patients market prices. Some items are in short supply and bribery in these cases are common ways to get the prescription. Moreover, in some countries, physicians themselves— and not pharmacists—have access to medication and distribute it to their patients.

Broader Contributions: Beyond moral development, Kohlberg's work in educational philosophy emphasized democratic values and student autonomy. He was a proponent of "just community" schools, where democratic principles were integrated into daily school life.

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Lesson 20

SOCIALIZATION AND CULTURAL DEVELOPMENT-I**Module: 77-78****Module 77: Socialization Practices and Culture**

Socialization is the process by which an individual becomes a member of a particular culture, takes on values and behaviors of that culture. It is a **lifelong process**; there can be accelerations and delays i.e. one child may be able to learn early that he needs to cover his private parts as compared to another, changes in direction, sudden transitions and it includes **long-term conversions**. A saying by Prophet of Islam states "a child is not born Jew or Muslim or Christian. It is his parents who make him so". Philosophers, religious scholars and social scientists often point to importance of socialization.

"Man is born a barbarian, and only rises himself above the beast by culture". Baltasar Gracian (1601–1658)— Spanish writer and Jesuit priest

"He who opens a school closes a prison". Victor Hugo (1802–1885)— French poet and Novelist.

- Through socialization practices, one can learn about a culture, develop a sense of belonging to the cultural group. Socialization prepares youth for a racially/ ethnically diverse and conscious society. Primary and first agent of socialization are parents and family, followed by peers, teachers, neighbourhood and community. Parents can play their role in socialization in various ways. They need to maintain consistent responses to similar behaviors which help children understand clear expectations. By acknowledging and praising good behaviors, parents encourage desired behaviors through rewards or recognition which allow children to experience the logical outcomes of their actions.

Examples of socialization practices that enable a person to function within his or her culture:

- Interacting with friends and family
- Being told to obey rules
- Being rewarded for doing chores
- Being taught how to behave in public places
- Helping those in need

Module 78: Socialization and Social Evolution

Socialization is the dominant factor in human progress and the central process in social evolution. Sociological variables are key factors that influence social structures, interactions, and changes within societies. These variables play a crucial role in social evolution, which refers to the gradual development of societies over time. Income, attitudes, culture, demographics, and the impact of economy on lifestyle are all sociological variables that shape this evolution. These factors, among others, contribute to the complex web of social dynamics that drive societal change. There is a significant impact of sociological variables and the type of environment in which interaction occurs, as these elements work together to shape individual behaviors, group norms, and broader societal trends. Understanding these variables and their interplay is crucial for comprehending the mechanisms of social change and the trajectory of human development. In studying social evolution, a distinction between traditional and

industrial societies is often used. In traditional societies, social change is slow. Collective models of traditional societies prove stable since these had time to crystallize into an extended traditional heritage. Socialization is obvious, formalized and socially controlled. Cultural characteristics tend to be powerful. Industrial societies go through rapid change. Subgroups become numerous and fluid and there is marked independence from the models that govern society as well as differences between subgroups which can be complementary, disparate and conflict ridden.

Traditional Society	Industrial Society
Incalculable threat: no knowledge of when the next catastrophe will come	Calculable risk
Organizational logics: local	Organizational logics: national
Limited specific threats	Temporally and spatially bound threats
Simple understanding of blame and causality	Complex understanding of blame and causality
Prevailing beliefs anchored in tradition	First modernity: faith in progress and reason
Manufactured risks: insignificant	Manufactured risks: latent
Paradigmatic risk: natural catastrophe	Paradigmatic risk: industrial accident
Subjectivity informed by hunger	Subjectivity informed by inequality

Socialization moves from microscopic level to a broad framework. It is a structural change designed to assess whether social imagination aligns with social reality. Cultural pool means that individuals can now formulate their own socialization and enculturation prescription, and processes become more important than products.

Lesson 21

SOCIALIZATION AND CULTURAL DEVELOPMENT-II

Module: 79-80

Module 79: Social Science: See the Society First

In the process of understanding human behaviour and its motivational bases, researchers and theorists should apply their theories in the context of the society and its culture.

Weber (1922) drew a line between two types of societies: **preindustrial (traditional) and industrial (non-traditional)**.

- People in **preindustrial societies** are inseparable from traditions and customs. In these societies, people's desires and actions are viewed as appropriate or inappropriate on the basis of their links – or lack thereof – to the **existing customs and rules**. For example, married couples in traditional societies are unlikely to pursue divorce because it destroys the traditional family.
- In **capitalist societies**, rational thinking is seen as a key **motivator** for human behavior. People carefully evaluate the most efficient ways to achieve their goals. For example, if a married couple decides they can no longer live together, they might choose to divorce. Why? Because they believe it is the best decision for their well-being. People deliberately assess the most efficient ways of accomplishing a particular goal. If two spouses decide that they cannot live together any longer, then they would break up their marriage. Why? Because this act serves their best interests. In such cases, reason tends to overcome emotion; critical thinking often replaces intuition; and assessments of gains and losses tend to replace customs.

In **traditional cultures**, emotions and sentiments are given preference, which might be why a couple chooses not to divorce. However, in **capitalist societies**, personal interests are prioritized, and decisions are made based on what is best for the individual. The scarcity and value of their time often motivate people in modern societies, whereas in traditional cultures time is not viewed as a commodity (see Chapter 10).

Karl Marx preached that an economic condition of inequality activates human needs (Marx & Engels, 1848). Each society is divided roughly into **two large and antagonistic social classes**. People of the same social class, but of different ethnic groups, have much more in common than people belonging to the same ethnic or national group, but to an antagonistic social class. The **oppressed** want their share of resources, whereas the oppressors want to keep their status quo. However, **Marxism** failed to explain many other noneconomic aspects of human motivation. For example, it is easy to show that social equality, unfortunately, does not stop aggression and violence. Similarly, economic inequality does not necessarily cause hostility among people.

Module 80: How Culture Influences What We Perceive

Perceptual sets

Our experience with the environment shapes our perception by creating **perceptual expectations**. These expectations, known as a **perceptual set**, make interpretations likely to occur and increase both the speed and efficiency of the perceptual process. **Perceptual sets** common in people of a **particular culture**—and most relevant to their **experience**—are not necessarily developed in individuals from other cultures.

Perceptual sets are shaped by our experiences, culture, and environment, influencing how we interpret the world around us. Different cultures have distinct perceptual sets. For example, in societies with gender segregation, where men and women are socialized in separate spaces, you will observe fewer women in public areas.

No two individuals share identical perceptions, as we interpret symbols differently based on cultural conditioning and personal experience.

Personal Experience Influences One's Sensation and Perception

If many individuals from a particular group share such experiences, there should be some common group-related sensory or perceptual patterns. People living in mountains and deserts tend to overestimate the size of distant objects, as they are accustomed to seeing larger things from afar. Similarly, other perceptual cues come into play. For example, we are usually aware of the aroma outside a restaurant when we are hungry, yet we are much less sensitive to it when our stomach is full. In general, if we need something, we pay attention to the stimuli that are linked to the gratification of the need.

Our perception is often shaped by the culture we grow up in. For example, a researcher visited a jungle-dwelling tribe and took one of the members to the mountains. When asked what appeared to be far away, the person responded, "the ants," as in their perception, the farthest thing was the ants rather than distant landscapes. People living in the jungle develop a perception that focuses on nearby objects, as this helps them quickly react to potential dangers. They tend to approach things step by step.

Our brain constantly interprets things within a given context. Language plays a crucial role in this process, as we associate symbols with meaning, shaping our understanding of the world. Environmental conditions affect sensation and perception in many ways. Studies have shown that traditional hunter and gatherer cultures have a lower rate of color blindness among their members than traditional societies practicing agriculture. This makes sense from an evolutionary standpoint: color-blind hunters could not survive without the ability to distinguish details, colors, and contours, which is critical in hunting or gathering activities (Pollack, 1963). The level of noise in the surrounding environment is yet another example of how environment affects sensory processes. People who live in deserts do not suffer hearing loss to the extent that city dwellers do (Reuning & Wortley, 1973). The average difference in hearing problems between the two groups could be explained by the significantly lower level of noise in a desert in comparison with urban, metropolitan areas.

Lesson 22

Cross-Cultural Perspectives on Child Development and Family Dynamics**Module 81: Quality of life and Child Development**

Quality of life is determined by certain basic conditions and parameters such as availability of food and other products, type of living conditions, quality of education and health care, presence or absence of violence in the child's life, and a number of other factors—significantly affect the child's development. Children who are least exposed to violence have good quality of life.

As the child grows, other than quality of life family system also matters a lot. Countries vary in density of and number of immediate family members. A unit of two adults living with their own children is common in Western societies, such as Canada, Sweden, or the United States, whereas the large extended family in which parents, children, grandparents, cousins, and even some distant relatives live in one household is common in non-Western countries, such as Pakistan, Rwanda, or Indonesia.

Technological advancements and socioeconomic improvements may affect the composition of the family (Berry, 1997). A study of 799 students in Greece, Cyprus, the Netherlands, Great Britain, and Germany examined the relationship of family bonds to family structure but did not find substantial differences among families in the sampled countries in terms of emotional closeness, geographic proximity to relatives, and frequency of telephone contacts (Georgas et al., 1997).

However, when the extended families were analyzed, differences were found between generally wealthy individualist countries in the sample (the Netherlands, Great Britain, and Germany) and predominantly collectivist countries (Greece and Cyprus). The extended families in the latter sample were emotionally and geographically closer to each other than the families from the individualist sample.

Specific aspects of family relationship can correlate with industrial and financial advancement. For instance, second- and third-generation Mexican American children showed decreasing frequency of altruistic behavior compared to their first-generation Mexican American peers, who are less advanced economically (Knight & Kagan, 1977). Access to resources and educational opportunities are likely to provide an advantageous environment for the developing child.

Vygotsky (1932) established that *guided interaction* with a more knowledgeable partner should advance the intellectual development of the child. **Poverty** may directly affect relationships within the family. In preindustrial and economically underdeveloped societies, partly because of limited access to resources, close cooperation within families becomes an economic necessity.

Module 82: Norms, Customs and Child Care

What are the standard norms related to childcare, and how do they vary across different cultures? A child's development—emotional, social, and cognitive—is largely influenced by interactions with specific individuals. Who are the key people in the child's life that contribute

to their growth, and what roles do these people play? Where do children spend most of their time, and how are they developing through these interactions and roles?

Differences in Role

The child's development and socialization depend on the people with whom the child interacts, the places where they spend time together, and the roles children play (Whiting & Whiting, 1975). Adults assign children to some roles and disallow others. For example, cross-cultural differences in the behavior of boys and girls may be partially due to different roles assigned to them by adults. Girls are more apt to stay close to home and are more involved in child-care activities than are boys (Whiting & Edwards, 1988).

Differences in Activity

Rough-and-tumble play is a common child's activity across cultures. However, in traditional Muslim countries, girls are seldom encouraged by their parents to engage in such games (Ahmed, 2002). Again, there may be exceptions within Muslim societies where some families do allow or encourage rough play for girls.

Differences in Social Support

In many cultures, especially in Western societies, encouraging children to sleep in their own bedrooms is a common practice. This is often supported by child psychologists, who believe that having a separate bedroom promotes independence and self-reliance. In contrast, this practice is less commonly seen in Eastern cultures, where co-sleeping or keeping children in the same room as their parents is more prevalent, often due to the emphasis on family closeness and shared spaces.

There are similarities in patterns of social support from children, spouses, relatives, and friends. However, comparative studies identify plenty of national and cultural differences. For example, rocking or thumb-sucking in children would be considered wrong by white South African mothers. For native African mothers such behavior is absolutely normal. U.S. mothers respond more favourably to their babies' requests when the infants are playing with physical objects. Japanese mothers, on the other hand, are more responsive when their babies are engaged in play with them. Japanese parents, unlike U.S. parents, rarely leave their children with baby-sitters. These children learn how to interact with other adults, and this may explain why Japanese children display a higher rate of anxiety than U.S. boys and girls do when the parents are not present (Bornstein & Tamis-LeMonda, 1989).

Role of Parenting Style in Cultural traditions of Collectivism

Cultural traditions of collectivism are positively correlated with the authoritarian style of parenting, which is based on strict demands, behavioral control, and sanctions (Rudy & Grusec, 2001). In other words, in predominantly collectivist cultures more parents practice authoritarian methods than they do in individualist cultures. Russian adolescents perceived parents and teachers as more controlling than did U.S. students (Chirkov & Ryan, 2001). Russian elementary and secondary education and parenting styles are seen by observers as more authoritarian than the styles practiced in the United States. Findings from a comparative study of white, Mexican American, and Mexican parents revealed that white parents reported less authoritarian parenting than Mexican Americans. However, no differences were found in authoritarian parenting style between white and Mexican parents (Varela et al., 2004).

Once a norm is established, it may be passed on from one generation to the next. In most traditional African cultures, obedience is a highly desired pattern of behavior for children, a

pattern that is crucial for the child's survival in harsh living conditions (Klingelhofer, 1971). Most Western concepts of child-rearing judge obedience critically and condemn most forms of adult-child coercion.

Module 83: Parental Values and Expectations

Parents' expectations for a child can encompass a range of developmental milestones, such as walking, talking, recognizing surrounding, familiarity with people and different paces and social skills. There can also some other expectations. Let's discuss some parent's values regarding these expectations and child's reaction, behavior and learning process:

Developmental Timetables: Parents typically expect their children to acquire particular characteristics (such as walking, talking, or reasoning) at certain ages. There are some cultural patterns in such expectations (Super & Harkness, 1997). In one study, for example, Israeli mothers of European background expected their children to develop certain cognitive skills earlier than did mothers of non-European origin (Ninio, 1979). U.S. mothers had earlier expectations of their children's assertiveness than Japanese mothers, and Japanese mothers had earlier expectations about their children's ability to control their emotions and express courtesy (Hess et al., 1980).

According to Levy (1996), in societies that are small, egalitarian, and with little occupational specialization, children are expected to learn "on their own," whereas in industrialized democratic societies there are explicit expectations about what, with whom, when, and how children should learn. **Parents' particular beliefs** are translated into behavior that, in reverse, influences other beliefs.

"Parents who are afraid to put their foot down, usually have children who stepped on their toes" (Chinese Proverb)

Education: Parents from different cultural groups can hold different views on the formal education of their children and their role as parents in this process. Japanese mothers generally view autonomy of the child as her ability to interact with other children. The Chinese mothers expressed a greater interest in education and suggested that they were willing to sacrifice for the sake of the children to a greater extent than their U.S. counterparts. On the contrary, European American mothers stressed the importance of building their children's self-esteem and expressed less motivation regarding their children's education.

Chao (1996) asked a sample of 48 immigrants of Chinese origin (Taiwan) and 50 European American mothers of preschool age children to indicate their views on the role of parenting in the child's school success. The Chinese mothers expressed a greater interest in education and suggested that they were willing to sacrifice for the sake of the children to a greater extent than their U.S. counterparts. On the contrary, European American mothers stressed the importance of building their children's self-esteem and expressed less motivation regarding their children's education.

Most of the Taiwanese immigrants to the United States who were studied came from a middle-class stratum and most of them emigrated from Taiwan for economic reasons. This might suggest a high level of achievement motivation in this group.

Lesson 1: Introduction to Cross-Cultural Psychology.

Here are 10 MCQs based on this lesson:

Lesson 1: Introduction to Cross-Cultural Psychology

1. **What is the main focus of cross-cultural psychology?**
 - A. The study of physical characteristics across cultures
 - B. The critical and comparative study of cultural effects on human psychology
 - C. The exclusive study of indigenous cultures
 - D. A historical overview of cultural differences

Answer: B
2. **What are the two key elements of cross-cultural psychology?**
 - A. Universal traits and local practices
 - B. Comparative nature and psychological diversity
 - C. Ethnographic studies and qualitative analysis
 - D. Socioeconomic context and cultural traditions

Answer: B
3. **What is the goal of cross-cultural psychology regarding psychological universals?**
 - A. To prove all cultures are identical
 - B. To identify phenomena common across all cultures
 - C. To promote one culture over others
 - D. To differentiate traditional and modern cultures

Answer: B
4. **Which of the following is NOT a characteristic studied in cross-cultural psychology?**
 - A. Cultural norms and behaviors
 - B. Genetic mutations
 - C. Human actions in different environments
 - D. Psychological invariance

Answer: B
5. **Cross-cultural psychology is inherently linked to which essential skill?**
 - A. Memorization
 - B. Critical thinking
 - C. Physical endurance
 - D. Financial analysis

Answer: B
6. **Which term describes phenomena common to people across all cultures?**
 - A. Cultural relativity
 - B. Psychological universals
 - C. Social constructs
 - D. Cultural specifics

Answer: B
7. **How does cross-cultural psychology differ from cultural psychology?**
 - A. It ignores cultural norms
 - B. It studies only modern cultures
 - C. It compares multiple cultural groups to identify universals
 - D. It focuses on individual cultural practices exclusively

Answer: C
8. **What is one practical application of cross-cultural psychology?**
 - A. Understanding cultural diversity without empathy
 - B. Applying therapies developed in one culture to another
 - C. Eliminating cultural differences altogether

D. Restricting the study to traditional societies

Answer: B

9. **Which of the following is a psychological universal?**

- A. Personality structure
- B. Local religious practices
- C. Regional dialects
- D. National identity

Answer: A

10. **Which statement best defines cultural psychology?**

- A. A study of universal traits across multiple cultures
- B. A study of behaviors as determined by unique cultural contexts
- C. A comparative analysis of national histories
- D. A biological study of cultural practices

Answer: B

Lesson 2: Approaches in Cross-Cultural Psychology

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 2:

1. **Which approach in cross-cultural psychology emphasizes evolutionary factors influencing human behavior?**

- A. Eco-cultural approach
- B. Natural sciences approach
- C. Social sciences approach
- D. Integrative approach

Answer: B

2. **What does the social sciences approach primarily focus on?**

- A. Individual biological processes
- B. Social structures shaping society and individuals
- C. Economic factors affecting psychology
- D. The influence of climate on human behavior

Answer: B

3. **Which principle is emphasized in the eco-cultural approach?**

- A. Culture is independent of the environment
- B. The individual cannot be separated from their environment
- C. Political factors have no impact on individual psychology
- D. Human behavior is static and unchanging

Answer: B

4. **What are the two key contexts identified in the eco-cultural approach?**

- A. Historical and sociological
- B. Technological and psychological
- C. Ecological and sociopolitical
- D. Cultural and spiritual

Answer: C

5. **Which view of globalization predicts the development of a new international culture?**

- A. Cultures will remain isolated
- B. Weakening of local cultures
- C. Increased cultural cohesion
- D. Strengthening of local traditions

Answer: B

6. **The cultural mixtures approach is linked to which modern concept?**

- A. Isolationism
- B. Globalization
- C. Traditionalism
- D. Ethnocentrism

Answer: B

7. **Which of the following is a prediction made by the cultural mixtures approach?**

- A. Cultures will become entirely homogeneous
- B. Local cultures will dominate globally
- C. A mix of cultural identities will emerge
- D. Traditional cultures will completely vanish

Answer: C

8. **What does the humanities approach in cross-cultural psychology emphasize?**

- A. Political systems
- B. Individual interaction with the environment
- C. Advanced biological theories
- D. Static cultural models

Answer: B

9. **What role does technology play in cultural mixtures according to the eco-cultural approach?**

- A. It isolates cultures
- B. It enables cultural integration
- C. It prevents access to global resources
- D. It diminishes cultural diversity

Answer: B

10. **Which term refers to cultures absorbing influences and being dynamic?**

- A. Static cultures
- B. Non-traditional cultures
- C. Traditional cultures
- D. Collectivist cultures

Answer: B

Lesson 3: Scope and Nature of Cross-Cultural Psychology

Here are **10 MCQs** based on Lesson 3:

1. **What is the main purpose of cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. To study ancient cultural practices
- B. To examine how cultural contexts influence human thought and behavior
- C. To promote Western psychological theories globally
- D. To eliminate cultural differences

Answer: B

2. **What are the 'layers of culture' described in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. Biological, ecological, sociological
- B. National, regional, gender, generation, social class, corporate
- C. Traditional, modern, post-modern
- D. Individual, community, global

Answer: B

3. **Which layer of culture involves differences in behaviors between men and women?**

- A. National level
- B. Regional level

- C. Gender level
- D. Corporate level

Answer: C

4. **What is an example of a 'generation-level' cultural adaptation?**

- A. Use of technology introducing new practices among younger generations
- B. Standardized cultural practices across generations
- C. Shared rituals within one family
- D. Religious ceremonies passed down unchanged

Answer: A

5. **Which cultural level pertains to the specific norms of an organization?**

- A. Social class level
- B. Corporate level
- C. Regional level
- D. National level

Answer: B

6. **What methodological challenge is most common in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Excessive funding
- B. Compartmentalizing disciplines
- C. Problems of equivalence, such as linguistic and conceptual equivalence
- D. Focus on a single culture

Answer: C

7. **Which type of equivalence ensures the accuracy of translated questionnaires?**

- A. Metric equivalence
- B. Conceptual equivalence
- C. Temporal equivalence
- D. Structural equivalence

Answer: B

8. **Why is collaborative research important in cross-cultural studies?**

- A. It simplifies data collection in one culture
- B. It reduces funding requirements
- C. It ensures cultural expertise and representation in research
- D. It eliminates all methodological challenges

Answer: C

9. **What distinguishes cultural psychology from cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. Cultural psychology focuses on universal traits across cultures
- B. Cultural psychology studies psychological processes shaped by local practices
- C. Cultural psychology emphasizes biological factors over cultural ones
- D. Cultural psychology compares multiple cultural groups

Answer: B

10. **What is the significance of studying cultural universals in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. To prioritize Western culture over others
- B. To identify shared human traits and behaviors across cultures
- C. To isolate specific cultural practices
- D. To focus on the uniqueness of each culture

Answer: B

Lesson 4: Comparing Cultures

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 4:

1. **What is the primary focus of comparing cultures in cross-cultural psychology?**
 - A. Identifying genetic differences across regions
 - B. Exploring cultural similarities and differences in behaviors and beliefs
 - C. Promoting traditional cultural practices globally
 - D. Standardizing psychological theories across cultures

Answer: B

2. **What characterizes traditional cultures?**
 - A. Open to social innovations
 - B. Based on modern beliefs and principles
 - C. Confined to past-established rules and symbols
 - D. Emphasizing technological advancements

Answer: C

3. **How are non-traditional cultures typically described?**
 - A. Tolerant to social innovations and dynamic
 - B. Confined within local boundaries
 - C. Resistant to technological influences
 - D. Highly static and ritualistic

Answer: A

4. **Which of the following best describes individualistic cultures?**
 - A. Concerned with societal traditions and group harmony
 - B. Focused on autonomy and self-expression
 - C. Defined by communal decision-making
 - D. Centered on family loyalty above all

Answer: B

5. **Which cultural classification is higher in most Asian countries?**
 - A. Individualism
 - B. Collectivism
 - C. Masculinity
 - D. Power distance

Answer: B

6. **What term refers to the prioritization of group goals over individual pursuits?**
 - A. Individualism
 - B. Collectivism
 - C. Egalitarianism
 - D. Self-enhancement

Answer: B

7. **Which cultures are most commonly associated with individualism?**
 - A. Asian countries
 - B. Western countries like the U.S. and Australia
 - C. Middle Eastern nations
 - D. African tribal communities

Answer: B

8. **What is one possible effect of globalization on cultures, according to cross-cultural psychology?**
 - A. Complete disappearance of local cultures
 - B. Strengthening of cultural boundaries
 - C. Increased intermingling of cultural identities
 - D. Isolation of traditional practices

Answer: C

9. **What is a key trait of collectivist cultures in conflict resolution?**

- A. Competitive strategies
- B. Harmony-enhancing strategies
- C. Avoidance of social norms
- D. Individual-driven solutions

Answer: B

10. **Which statement best highlights the difference between traditional and non-traditional cultures?**

- A. Both emphasize technological advancements equally.
- B. Traditional cultures are more adaptive than non-traditional ones.
- C. Traditional cultures restrict social innovation, while non-traditional cultures embrace it.
- D. Non-traditional cultures focus only on rural areas, unlike traditional ones.

Answer: C

Lesson 5: Similarities and Differences Between Cultures

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 5:

1. **What does 'human value instantiation' mean in the context of cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. Genetic variations across cultures
- B. Instances of behaviors that reflect underlying values
- C. Physical traits shared among cultures
- D. Standardized behaviors across societies

Answer: B

2. **Which value is commonly associated with the behavior of saving water?**

- A. Environmental protection
- B. Economic efficiency
- C. Social harmony
- D. Individual success

Answer: A

3. **What did studies comparing behaviors in the UK, India, and Brazil reveal?**

- A. People in different countries share identical behaviors
- B. Concrete behaviors often reflect abstract values
- C. Cultural practices are uniform worldwide
- D. Values are irrelevant to observable actions

Answer: B

4. **What is a similarity found across cultures in terms of values?**

- A. Uniform religious practices
- B. Shared values like kindness and helping behavior
- C. Equal treatment of all social classes
- D. Identical family structures

Answer: B

5. **Which group is most likely to experience inequality within a culture?**

- A. Majority populations
- B. Marginalized groups or minorities
- C. Individuals in power
- D. Wealthy citizens

Answer: B

6. **How do East Asians typically view personality and emotions?**

- A. As rigid and unchanging

- B. As flexible and controllable
- C. As identical across all cultural contexts
- D. As unrelated to their environment

Answer: B

7. **What term refers to cultures where people emphasize autonomy over group affiliation?**

- A. Collectivistic cultures
- B. Interdependent cultures
- C. Independent cultures
- D. Harmonious cultures

Answer: C

8. **Which statement is true about interdependent cultures?**

- A. They prioritize personal success over community goals.
- B. They emphasize fitting in and maintaining harmonious relationships.
- C. They value autonomy and self-expression.
- D. They disregard social hierarchies.

Answer: B

9. **Which of the following is an example of a collectivist mindset?**

- A. Prioritizing one's career over family obligations
- B. Resolving conflicts through individual effort
- C. Helping others to maintain group harmony
- D. Emphasizing independence in decision-making

Answer: C

10. **What is a common feature of independent cultures?**

- A. Emphasis on family and communal goals
- B. Competitive conflict resolution strategies
- C. Adherence to traditional practices
- D. Preference for group cohesion over autonomy

Answer: B

Lesson 6: Critical Thinking in Cross-Cultural Psychology

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 6:

1. **What is the primary aim of critical thinking in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. To adopt cultural stereotypes
- B. To compare cultural groups without bias
- C. To prove the superiority of one culture
- D. To study ancient cultural practices exclusively

Answer: B

2. **What is 'metathinking' in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. Thinking deeply about personal opinions
- B. A skill to critically analyze one's own thought process
- C. Avoiding critical analysis of cultural behaviors
- D. Memorizing cultural facts for research purposes

Answer: B

3. **Which skill is NOT associated with critical thinking?**

- A. Open-mindedness
- B. Creativity
- C. Problem-solving
- D. Avoidance of judgment

Answer: D

4. **What is the role of cultural dichotomies in cross-cultural psychology?**
A. To simplify the understanding of homogeneous societies
B. To establish comparisons such as individualism vs. collectivism
C. To disregard cultural differences
D. To highlight similarities only
Answer: B
5. **Which term refers to the degree of acceptance of unequal power distribution in a culture?**
A. Collectivism
B. Power distance
C. Individualism
D. Uncertainty avoidance
Answer: B
6. **How do low power-distance cultures typically view relationships?**
A. As hierarchical and rule-bound
B. Based on equality and less concern for status
C. Focused on strict behavioral rules
D. Primarily influenced by authority figures
Answer: B
7. **What does uncertainty avoidance measure?**
A. A culture's acceptance of authority figures
B. A culture's tolerance for ambiguity and uncertainty
C. A culture's adherence to traditional values
D. A culture's rejection of change
Answer: B
8. **Which statement best describes high uncertainty-avoidance cultures?**
A. They support nonconformist attitudes.
B. They maintain strict rules to reduce ambiguity.
C. They value unpredictability and innovation.
D. They avoid establishing institutions or beliefs.
Answer: B
9. **Which of the following is an example of a cultural dichotomy?**
A. Masculinity vs. femininity
B. Tradition vs. modernity
C. Conformity vs. individuality
D. All of the above
Answer: D
10. **Why is critical thinking essential in cross-cultural studies?**
A. To eliminate cultural differences
B. To evaluate behaviors and beliefs objectively across cultures
C. To disregard cultural values for scientific rigor
D. To establish cultural superiority in research
Answer: B

Lesson 7: Research Methodology in Cross-Cultural Psychology

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 7:

1. **What is the primary goal of cross-cultural research?**
A. To eliminate cultural differences
B. To study how cultural contexts influence behavior and mental processes
C. To focus only on Western cultural practices

D. To standardize psychological theories globally

Answer: B

2. **What is the first step in conducting cross-cultural research?**

A. Collecting data

B. Reviewing the literature and describing the research problem

C. Testing hypotheses

D. Interpreting statistical results

Answer: B

3. **Which of the following is NOT a goal of cross-cultural research?**

A. Description

B. Interpretation

C. Prediction

D. Elimination of cultural diversity

Answer: D

4. **What is the purpose of a pilot study in cross-cultural research?**

A. To collect final data

B. To test and refine the methodology

C. To eliminate unnecessary variables

D. To publish preliminary findings

Answer: B

5. **What is the primary focus of qualitative research in cross-cultural psychology?**

A. Quantifying variables for statistical analysis

B. Gaining an in-depth understanding of behaviors and motivations

C. Testing the universality of psychological theories

D. Comparing numerical data across cultures

Answer: B

6. **What type of data is commonly used in quantitative research?**

A. Observational notes

B. Statistical measures like central tendency

C. Personal narratives and stories

D. Open-ended interviews

Answer: B

7. **Which of the following is an example of a field study?**

A. Observing cultural rituals in their natural environment

B. Conducting a survey through online questionnaires

C. Performing lab experiments in a controlled setting

D. Testing psychological theories through simulations

Answer: A

8. **Why are collaborative research teams important in cross-cultural psychology?**

A. They reduce the need for large sample sizes

B. They ensure cultural expertise and local representation

C. They eliminate all methodological challenges

D. They make studies shorter and simpler

Answer: B

9. **What is one of the main challenges in cross-cultural research?**

A. Lack of diverse research methods

B. Ensuring linguistic and conceptual equivalence

C. Collecting data from urban populations

D. Overemphasis on qualitative studies

Answer: B

10. Which method focuses on observing and interpreting behaviors in their natural setting?

- A. Quantitative research
- B. Qualitative research
- C. Experimental research
- D. Meta-analysis

Answer: B

Lesson 8: Research Methods-I

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 8:

1. What is the primary focus of cross-sectional studies in cross-cultural psychology?

- A. Observing changes over time in a single culture
- B. Collecting data from a population at a single point in time
- C. Conducting experiments in controlled environments
- D. Testing long-term cultural trends

Answer: B

2. Which research method involves manipulating variables to study cause-and-effect relationships?

- A. Field studies
- B. Experimental research
- C. Qualitative research
- D. Cross-sectional studies

Answer: B

3. What type of experiment occurs in a real-world setting rather than a lab?

- A. Laboratory experiments
- B. Quasi-experiments
- C. Field experiments
- D. Observational studies

Answer: C

4. Which famous experiment studied the role of authority in a controlled setting?

- A. Harlow's attachment study
- B. Zimbardo's Stanford Prison Experiment
- C. The Little Albert experiment
- D. Pavlov's classical conditioning

Answer: B

5. What is a major strength of field experiments?

- A. They are highly controlled and replicable
- B. They reflect real-life behavior more accurately
- C. They eliminate all extraneous variables
- D. They rely solely on quantitative data

Answer: B

6. Which type of experiment studies naturally occurring variables without manipulation?

- A. Quasi-experiment
- B. Laboratory experiment
- C. Longitudinal study
- D. Field experiment

Answer: A

7. What is a significant limitation of laboratory experiments?

- A. They cannot control extraneous variables

- B. Their artificial settings may produce unnatural behavior
- C. They do not allow for precise measurements
- D. They are always more expensive than field experiments

Answer: B

8. **Which scale represents true amounts with a meaningful zero point?**

- A. Nominal scale
- B. Ordinal scale
- C. Interval scale
- D. Ratio scale

Answer: D

9. **Which type of data is collected using an ordinal scale?**

- A. Rank-ordered values with no equal intervals
- B. Categories with no inherent order
- C. Measurements with equal intervals but no true zero
- D. True quantities with a meaningful zero

Answer: A

10. **What is the primary goal of cross-cultural experimental research?**

- A. To compare cultural practices without variables
- B. To test cause-and-effect relationships across cultural groups
- C. To collect narratives and personal experiences
- D. To observe cultural rituals without interference

Answer: B

Lesson 9: Research Methods-II

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 9:

1. **What is a key feature of big data studies in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. Focus on small-scale qualitative data
- B. Emphasis on experimental designs in laboratories
- C. Analysis of large volumes of structured, semi-structured, and unstructured data
- D. Restriction to a single cultural context

Answer: C

2. **Which of the following is a limitation of big data studies?**

- A. They cannot analyze complex relationships between variables
- B. They are limited to local cultural insights
- C. They often require advanced computational resources
- D. They are only applicable to qualitative research

Answer: C

3. **What is the purpose of cross-sectional studies in cross-cultural research?**

- A. To observe changes in behavior over time
- B. To examine variables at a single point in time across populations
- C. To manipulate cultural variables experimentally
- D. To analyze individual case studies qualitatively

Answer: B

4. **Which type of study is best for understanding relationships between variables across cultures?**

- A. Longitudinal study
- B. Cross-sectional study
- C. Experimental study
- D. Field study

Answer: B

5. **What distinguishes field experiments from laboratory experiments?**
A. They focus on abstract theories
B. They are conducted in natural settings
C. They eliminate all extraneous variables
D. They require advanced computational models
Answer: B
6. **Which experimental design studies natural, real-life occurrences without manipulation?**
A. Laboratory experiment
B. Quasi-experiment
C. Big data analysis
D. Qualitative study
Answer: B
7. **What is a primary benefit of laboratory experiments in cross-cultural psychology?**
A. High ecological validity
B. Easy replication and precise control over variables
C. Ability to observe behaviors in natural environments
D. Access to diverse cultural samples
Answer: B
8. **Which type of measurement scale uses categories with no inherent order?**
A. Nominal scale
B. Ordinal scale
C. Interval scale
D. Ratio scale
Answer: A
9. **What distinguishes an interval scale from a ratio scale?**
A. Interval scales have a true zero point
B. Ratio scales lack equal intervals between measurements
C. Interval scales measure distances but lack a true zero point
D. Ratio scales are used exclusively in qualitative research
Answer: C
10. **What is the final step in cross-cultural research methodology?**
A. Conducting a pilot study
B. Interpreting data and presenting findings critically
C. Collecting data from diverse cultural groups
D. Reviewing existing literature on the topic
Answer: B

Lesson 10: Research Methods-III

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 10:

1. **What is the main characteristic of a longitudinal study in cross-cultural psychology?**
A. Data is collected at a single point in time
B. It examines the impact of cultural variables over a long period
C. It focuses only on one culture
D. It involves experimental manipulation of variables
Answer: B
2. **Which research method allows researchers to examine changes within the same group over time?**

- A. Cross-sectional study
- B. Longitudinal study
- C. Field experiment
- D. Case study

Answer: B

3. **What is the key advantage of a longitudinal study in cross-cultural research?**

- A. It collects data from multiple cultures simultaneously
- B. It allows for studying cultural changes over time
- C. It is quicker to complete than cross-sectional studies
- D. It eliminates the need for cultural comparisons

Answer: B

4. **What is a primary limitation of longitudinal studies?**

- A. They require large sample sizes from diverse cultures
- B. They are expensive and time-consuming
- C. They focus only on cross-cultural comparisons
- D. They cannot assess cultural differences effectively

Answer: B

5. **Which research design is best suited for studying cause-and-effect relationships between variables?**

- A. Cross-sectional studies
- B. Experimental research
- C. Longitudinal studies
- D. Field studies

Answer: B

6. **What is the key feature of quasi-experimental research in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. The researcher manipulates all variables
- B. It focuses on natural, real-world settings without random assignment
- C. It examines cultural variables in laboratory settings
- D. It uses exclusively qualitative data

Answer: B

7. **What does a cross-sectional study compare?**

- A. Changes in a single individual over time
- B. Different cultural groups at a specific moment
- C. Variable manipulation across cultures
- D. Behavior changes within one culture over many years

Answer: B

8. **Which type of research allows researchers to study cultural differences in a natural setting without manipulating variables?**

- A. Laboratory experiments
- B. Field studies
- C. Quasi-experiments
- D. Longitudinal studies

Answer: B

9. **What is the main disadvantage of using case studies in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. They are not representative of larger populations
- B. They require complex statistical analysis
- C. They do not provide in-depth qualitative data

D. They involve manipulative experiments

Answer: A

10. **What is the primary purpose of using control groups in experimental research?**

A. To observe the impact of culture on behavior

B. To compare outcomes between different cultural groups

C. To eliminate the effects of extraneous variables

D. To generalize findings across all cultures

Answer: C

Lesson 11: Research Methods-IV

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 11:

1. **Which research method involves the observation of behaviors in their natural environment without manipulating variables?**

A. Experimental research

B. Cross-sectional study

C. Field study

D. Longitudinal study

Answer: C

2. **What is a key advantage of field studies in cross-cultural psychology?**

A. They provide data in controlled, artificial settings

B. They allow researchers to manipulate variables easily

C. They reflect real-life behavior in natural settings

D. They eliminate the need for cross-cultural comparisons

Answer: C

3. **Which of the following is a limitation of field studies?**

A. They cannot be replicated easily

B. They require artificial environments

C. They do not allow for the study of emotions

D. They focus exclusively on theoretical constructs

Answer: A

4. **What type of research design is commonly used in field studies?**

A. Quasi-experimental design

B. Experimental design

C. Descriptive design

D. Ethnographic design

Answer: D

5. **Which of the following is an example of a field study in cross-cultural psychology?**

A. Observing eating behaviors in a specific cultural group in their natural setting

B. Conducting a laboratory experiment on emotions

C. Comparing test scores between cultures in a controlled environment

D. Analyzing data from a global survey

Answer: A

6. **What is the purpose of ethnographic research in cross-cultural studies?**

A. To compare cultural differences through statistical analysis

B. To collect in-depth data from real-life experiences in a cultural group

C. To test hypotheses in controlled laboratory environments

D. To quantify behaviors using measurement scales

Answer: B

7. **Which method focuses on observing human behavior in real-life settings without interference?**
A. Case study
B. Field study
C. Experimental research
D. Survey research
Answer: B
8. **Which of the following is a strength of experimental research?**
A. High ecological validity
B. Ability to manipulate and control variables
C. Rich qualitative insights
D. Ease of implementation in natural settings
Answer: B
9. **What is a major challenge of conducting research in natural environments for cross-cultural studies?**
A. Lack of ethical guidelines
B. Difficulty in replicating the study
C. Limited sample sizes
D. Over-simplification of findings
Answer: B
10. **Which type of research design allows researchers to gather data on behaviors and social phenomena without manipulating them?**
A. Experimental design
B. Descriptive research
C. Ethnographic design
D. Quasi-experimental design
Answer: B

Lesson 12: Qualitative Approaches in Cross-Cultural Psychology

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 12:

1. **What is the main characteristic of qualitative research in cross-cultural psychology?**
A. Focus on large-scale statistical analysis
B. Collection of numerical data
C. In-depth exploration of cultural phenomena and behaviors
D. Use of experimental controls to manipulate variables
Answer: C
2. **Which research method is commonly used to gather data in qualitative research?**
A. Surveys with fixed responses
B. Interviews, observations, and ethnographies
C. Random sampling of participants
D. Statistical tests for generalization
Answer: B
3. **Which of the following is NOT a characteristic of qualitative research?**
A. Subjective analysis
B. Focus on detailed, rich descriptions
C. Use of predetermined, structured instruments
D. Contextual understanding of behaviors
Answer: C

4. **What is the primary goal of qualitative research in cross-cultural psychology?**
- A. To test hypotheses through controlled variables
 - B. To understand the meanings and experiences behind cultural behaviors
 - C. To quantify cultural behaviors using surveys
 - D. To compare statistical trends across cultures

Answer: B

5. **Which of the following methods is typically used in qualitative cross-cultural research?**
- A. Randomized controlled trials
 - B. Structured questionnaires
 - C. Ethnography
 - D. Large-scale surveys

Answer: C

6. **What is one challenge faced by researchers using qualitative methods in cross-cultural psychology?**
- A. Difficulty in generalizing findings to a broader population
 - B. Limited access to participants from diverse cultures
 - C. Excessive reliance on statistical data
 - D. Inability to understand cultural diversity

Answer: A

7. **Which term refers to the process of immersion in a cultural setting to understand its practices and beliefs?**
- A. Ethnography
 - B. Quantitative analysis
 - C. Experimental manipulation
 - D. Longitudinal study

Answer: A

8. **Which of the following is a strength of qualitative research in cross-cultural psychology?**
- A. It provides objective, generalizable data
 - B. It allows for the manipulation of variables in controlled settings
 - C. It provides rich, context-specific insights into cultural phenomena
 - D. It focuses on quantitative measures of behavior

Answer: C

9. **What does qualitative research typically focus on in cross-cultural studies?**
- A. Generalizing cultural patterns across large populations
 - B. Identifying universal cultural traits
 - C. Understanding the underlying meanings and motivations behind behaviors
 - D. Comparing statistical data across different cultures

Answer: C

10. **Which type of data is most commonly used in qualitative research?**
- A. Numerical data from surveys
 - B. Observational notes and personal interviews
 - C. Experimental data from controlled trials
 - D. Random sampling data

Answer: B

Lesson 13: Ethical Issues in Cross-Cultural Research

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 13:

1. **What is the primary ethical concern in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Ensuring cultural universals are applicable in all settings
- B. Protecting the confidentiality and privacy of participants
- C. Reducing the complexity of cultural diversity
- D. Standardizing behaviors across cultures

Answer: B

2. **Which of the following is an ethical challenge in conducting research across different cultures?**

- A. Finding universal cultural practices
- B. Ignoring the impact of language on research
- C. Misinterpreting cultural norms and behaviors
- D. Ensuring participants are from diverse cultural groups

Answer: C

3. **What does 'informed consent' require in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Ensuring participants do not share cultural practices with researchers
- B. Providing participants with clear, culturally appropriate information about the study
- C. Conducting the research in controlled environments only
- D. Asking for permission without giving any details to the participants

Answer: B

4. **Why is it important to consider cultural differences when obtaining informed consent in cross-cultural research?**

- A. To ensure the research is approved by all cultural leaders
- B. Because cultural norms and expectations vary regarding autonomy and decision-making
- C. To avoid collecting data from participants
- D. To make the process of consent faster

Answer: B

5. **Which principle of research ethics emphasizes respect for cultural differences and rights?**

- A. Autonomy
- B. Beneficence
- C. Justice
- D. Cultural relativism

Answer: D

6. **What does 'cultural relativism' mean in the context of ethical research?**

- A. Treating all cultures equally in a scientific study
- B. Applying ethical standards from one culture to all cultures
- C. Understanding and respecting the cultural context of the participants' behaviors and beliefs
- D. Focusing solely on the universal aspects of human behavior

Answer: C

7. **What is a potential ethical issue when conducting research in a culture with significantly different values from the researcher's own?**

- A. The researcher may not gain access to participants
- B. The researcher may unintentionally impose their own cultural norms on participants
- C. The study will be too easy to conduct
- D. The data collected will not be relevant

Answer: B

8. **What is the importance of debriefing participants after a cross-cultural study?**
- A. To ensure participants understand the cultural implications of the research
 - B. To explain the results of the research to participants in a culturally sensitive manner
 - C. To give participants the opportunity to change their responses
 - D. To ensure participants are not aware of the study's real purpose

Answer: B

9. **Which ethical concern in cross-cultural research is related to how participants' data is handled?**
- A. Minimizing the number of participants
 - B. Cultural appropriation
 - C. Protecting the anonymity and confidentiality of participants
 - D. Ensuring participants are from the same cultural group

Answer: C

10. **Which of the following is a key ethical principle that researchers should follow when working across cultures?**
- A. Focusing only on the differences between cultures
 - B. Considering the participants' cultural context when designing research
 - C. Standardizing data collection methods across all cultures
 - D. Ensuring all participants have the same cultural background

Answer: B

Lesson 14: Cross-Cultural Perspectives on Interpersonal Touch and Mate Preferences

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 14:

1. **What is the primary focus of cross-cultural research on interpersonal touch?**
- A. Understanding how touch is universally perceived
 - B. Exploring cultural variations in the use of touch in social interactions
 - C. Determining the physiological effects of touch
 - D. Comparing the psychological impact of touch across genders

Answer: B

2. **Which of the following is a common finding in cross-cultural studies on interpersonal touch?**
- A. Touch is universally perceived as negative
 - B. Cultures vary in the frequency and context of touch in social interactions
 - C. Touch is considered unimportant in communication worldwide
 - D. Touch is only important in intimate relationships

Answer: B

3. **Which cultural factor influences the way interpersonal touch is expressed?**
- A. Socioeconomic status
 - B. Gender roles
 - C. Language differences
 - D. Age differences

Answer: B

4. **What is the relationship between mate preferences and cultural context?**
- A. Mate preferences are universally the same across all cultures
 - B. Cultural norms and values heavily influence mate preferences
 - C. Mate preferences are determined solely by genetic factors
 - D. All cultures value physical appearance above other traits

Answer: B

5. Which of the following is a key variable in cross-cultural studies of mate preferences?
- A. Religious beliefs
 - B. Economic status
 - C. Physical attractiveness
 - D. Age differences
- Answer: C
6. In cultures with strong gender roles, how are mate preferences often influenced?
- A. There is a greater emphasis on mutual respect
 - B. Preferences are more likely to align with traditional gender expectations
 - C. Mate preferences are less influenced by physical attractiveness
 - D. Both men and women equally prefer emotional traits in a partner
- Answer: B
7. Which of the following is an example of cultural variation in mate preferences?
- A. Preference for physical beauty in Western cultures
 - B. Preference for educational attainment in all cultures
 - C. Universal preference for similar socioeconomic status
 - D. Preference for shared hobbies and interests across cultures
- Answer: A
8. What does the concept of "cultural relativism" suggest about mate preferences?
- A. Mate preferences are universally determined by biology
 - B. All cultures have the same mate preferences
 - C. Mate preferences must be understood within the cultural context of each society
 - D. Mate preferences are irrelevant in cross-cultural research
- Answer: C
9. How do collectivist cultures typically view mate selection?
- A. As a highly individualistic choice
 - B. As a decision that is influenced by family or community values
 - C. As irrelevant to the community
 - D. As a decision made after emotional connection is established
- Answer: B
10. What role does the concept of "individualism" play in mate preferences in Western cultures?
- A. Mate preferences are based on family approval rather than personal choice
 - B. Mate selection is influenced by personal desires and autonomy
 - C. Mate selection is solely based on physical appearance
 - D. Mate preferences are less relevant in individualistic societies
- Answer: B

Lesson 15: Methodological Challenges and Considerations in Cross-Cultural Research-I

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 15:

1. What is one of the primary methodological challenges in cross-cultural research?
- A. Designing research that is culturally irrelevant
 - B. Ensuring equivalence between cultures in research tools and methods
 - C. Limiting the sample size to one cultural group
 - D. Reducing the complexity of cultural diversity
- Answer: B
2. What does 'conceptual equivalence' refer to in cross-cultural research?
- A. Ensuring that measurement tools are interpreted the same way in all cultures

- B. Using identical instruments for all cultures regardless of context
- C. Ensuring equal sample sizes across cultures
- D. Reducing cultural diversity in research

Answer: A

3. **Which of the following is a challenge when translating research instruments for cross-cultural studies?**

- A. Maintaining cultural relevance without bias
- B. Ensuring that instruments are uniformly available across cultures
- C. Testing for a universal cultural understanding of the instrument
- D. Simplifying the translation process for quick results

Answer: A

4. **What is one potential problem with using westernized research instruments in non-Western cultures?**

- A. They may be too simple to produce meaningful data
- B. They might not accurately reflect the cultural context of the participants
- C. They can easily be adapted to any culture
- D. They require no translation or adaptation

Answer: B

5. **What does 'linguistic equivalence' refer to in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Using only one language for all research participants
- B. Ensuring that the translation of instruments maintains the original meaning
- C. Designing research instruments in multiple languages with no cultural context
- D. Relying on the researcher's language for all interviews and surveys

Answer: B

6. **Why is it difficult to achieve 'metric equivalence' in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Cultural differences lead to varied perceptions of scale values
- B. Most cultures do not use measurement scales at all
- C. Cultural groups do not agree on any common terms
- D. Research instruments are generally too broad to apply across cultures

Answer: A

7. **Which of the following is an example of a methodological issue when studying sensitive cultural topics?**

- A. Lack of statistical power in the sample
- B. Difficulty in ensuring participant anonymity due to cultural expectations
- C. Over-generalizing cultural norms across all groups
- D. Collecting data from a single community without cultural variation

Answer: B

8. **What is one solution to overcome cultural biases in research design?**

- A. Relying solely on quantitative data for clarity
- B. Engaging in collaborative research with local cultural experts
- C. Using identical research methods for all cultures
- D. Focusing exclusively on universal human behaviors

Answer: B

9. **What does the term 'sampling bias' refer to in cross-cultural studies?**

- A. Choosing participants who represent a specific cultural perspective
- B. Selecting a sample that is not representative of the broader population
- C. Ensuring that all participants are from the same cultural background
- D. Relying on a diverse set of research tools

Answer: B

10. **What is the purpose of conducting a pilot study in cross-cultural research?**
- A. To confirm the effectiveness of the data collection methods in different cultural contexts
 - B. To collect final data from all cultural groups
 - C. To ensure that participants understand all research tools
 - D. To test the hypothesis before conducting a full study

Answer: A

Lesson 16: Methodological Challenges and Considerations in Cross-Cultural Research-II

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 16:

1. **What is one challenge researchers face when comparing different cultural groups in cross-cultural research?**
- A. Differences in the levels of cultural openness
 - B. Ensuring that cultural differences are not overemphasized or misinterpreted
 - C. Ensuring identical methods are used across all groups
 - D. Relying too heavily on qualitative data

Answer: B

2. **Which of the following is a key concern when collecting data in collectivist cultures?**
- A. Overemphasis on individual opinions and behaviors
 - B. Participants may be hesitant to express personal views that differ from the group
 - C. The focus on economic outcomes rather than cultural values
 - D. The tendency to ignore traditional cultural practices

Answer: B

3. **What does 'response bias' mean in the context of cross-cultural research?**
- A. A tendency for participants to answer questions in a socially desirable manner
 - B. A form of bias where researchers ignore cultural context
 - C. The use of only one language in research instruments
 - D. A sampling error where data is collected from only one group

Answer: A

4. **Why is cultural adaptation of research instruments important?**
- A. To ensure that the research reflects the values and norms of the specific culture
 - B. To make the research easier to conduct
 - C. To reduce the complexity of data collection
 - D. To increase the generalizability of the findings across cultures

Answer: A

5. **What is the issue with applying Western psychological theories to non-Western cultures?**
- A. They may overlook important cultural factors that influence behavior
 - B. They simplify the complexities of non-Western cultures
 - C. They result in highly accurate findings universally
 - D. They focus only on biological factors rather than cultural ones

Answer: A

6. **What is the role of 'ethnography' in cross-cultural research?**
- A. To conduct experiments in controlled environments
 - B. To observe and document behaviors in their natural cultural settings
 - C. To analyze large data sets quantitatively
 - D. To survey participants about their general cultural attitudes

Answer: B

7. **Which method is often used to minimize bias when conducting cross-cultural research?**

- A. Random sampling of participants from diverse cultures
- B. Limiting research to a single cultural group
- C. Collecting data only in urban environments
- D. Focusing on universal theories and applying them to all cultures

Answer: A

8. **What is 'social desirability bias' in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Participants provide answers that they believe will be accepted by others
- B. Participants selectively provide information based on social status
- C. Research instruments are biased toward particular groups
- D. Participants prefer research conducted in their native language

Answer: A

9. **What is the purpose of using both qualitative and quantitative methods in cross-cultural research?**

- A. To ensure that the research is always conclusive
- B. To offer a comprehensive understanding of cultural behaviors through different lenses
- C. To reduce the amount of data collected
- D. To prioritize the statistical validity of the findings

Answer: B

10. **Which of the following is a reason why culture influences data interpretation in cross-cultural research?**

- A. Cultural values affect the way people respond to research questions
- B. Cultures use the same language, making interpretation identical
- C. All cultures view the same behaviors in identical ways
- D. Data interpretation is not influenced by culture

Answer: A

Lesson 17: Culture and Social Behavior

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 17:

1. **Which factor is most strongly associated with the variation in social behavior across cultures?**

- A. Genetic differences
- B. Economic resources
- C. Cultural norms and values
- D. Environmental climate

Answer: C

2. **What role do 'social norms' play in shaping behavior in different cultures?**

- A. They ensure that all behaviors are the same across cultures
- B. They regulate behavior by providing accepted guidelines for action
- C. They eliminate individual differences in behavior
- D. They are irrelevant to cultural behavior

Answer: B

3. **Which of the following best describes how collectivist cultures influence social behavior?**

- A. Emphasis on individual achievement over group goals
- B. Encouraging self-expression and independence
- C. Focus on group harmony, family, and community needs

D. Prioritizing social and environmental factors over family connections

Answer: C

4. **How do individualistic cultures typically view social behavior?**

- A. Social behavior is subordinated to the group's needs
- B. Social behavior is focused on maintaining group harmony
- C. Social behavior is driven by personal goals, autonomy, and self-expression
- D. Social behavior is generally dictated by religious traditions

Answer: C

5. **In cross-cultural psychology, which of the following is considered a 'universal social behavior'?**

- A. Child-rearing practices
- B. The role of elders in decision-making
- C. Expressing gratitude and affection
- D. Practices related to marriage and family life

Answer: C

6. **What is the impact of power distance on social behavior?**

- A. It defines how equal or unequal people view power distribution in society
- B. It determines social behaviors in low-income groups only
- C. It regulates personal behaviors independently of the social group
- D. It encourages collectivism in all cultures

Answer: A

7. **Which of the following is an example of 'high power distance' in social behavior?**

- A. Emphasizing equality in social roles and opportunities
- B. Acknowledging differences in social status and respecting hierarchical structures
- C. Encouraging direct communication between all social classes
- D. Prioritizing individual autonomy over group consensus

Answer: B

8. **In which type of culture is there typically more emphasis on the importance of direct communication in social interactions?**

- A. Collectivist cultures
- B. High-context cultures
- C. Individualistic cultures
- D. Low-context cultures

Answer: D

9. **Which of the following is a key characteristic of 'low-context' cultures?**

- A. Relying on shared understanding and non-verbal cues for communication
- B. Communication is explicit, direct, and relies on verbal expression
- C. Emphasizing family and community over individual goals
- D. Having indirect and non-confrontational communication styles

Answer: B

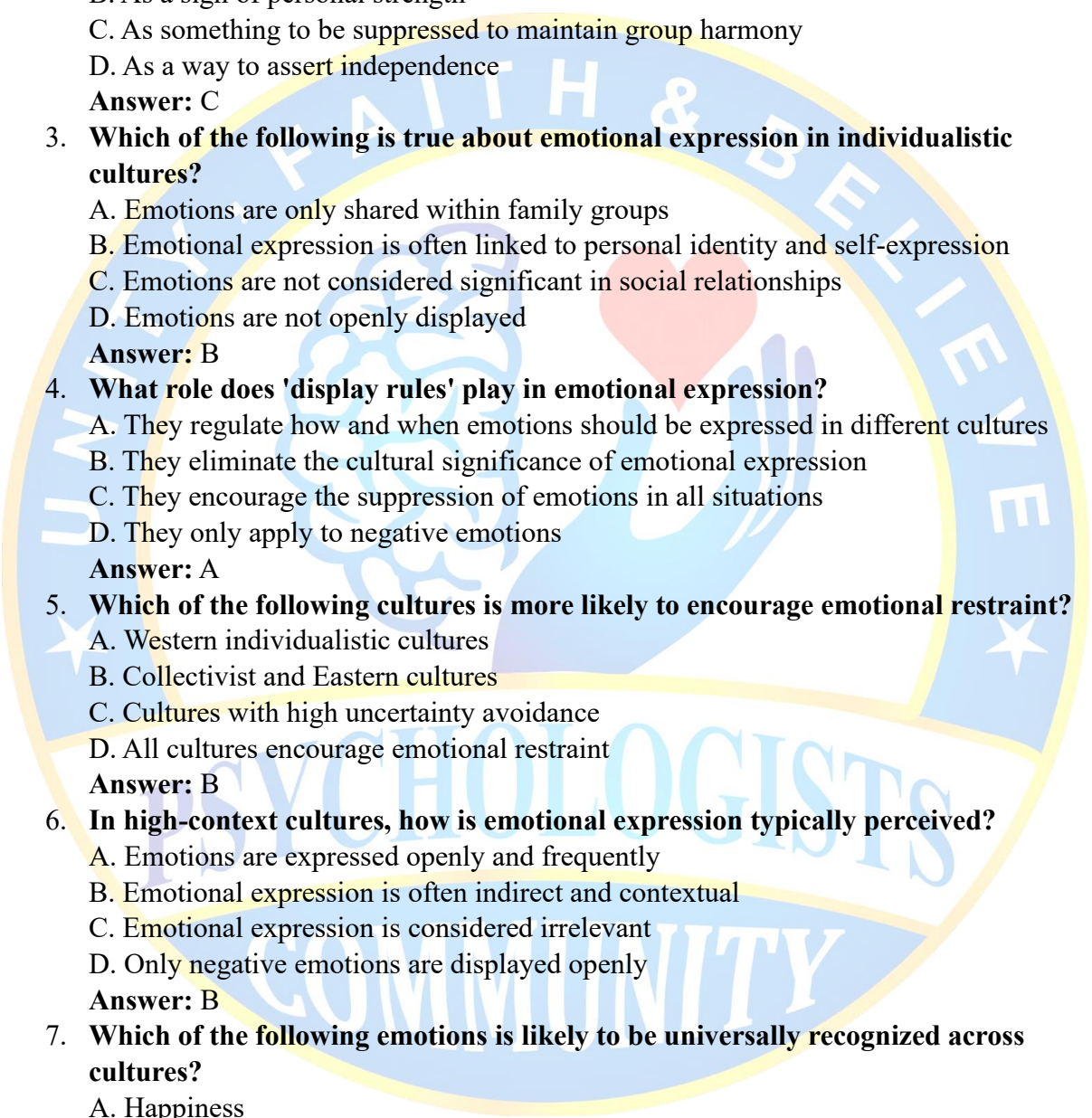
10. **What is the effect of cultural differences in social behavior on cross-cultural research?**

- A. It complicates the comparison of social behaviors across cultures
- B. It leads to universally accepted norms for social behavior
- C. It eliminates the need for qualitative research methods
- D. It reduces the importance of social influences in behavior

Answer: A

Lesson 18: Cultural Influences on Emotional Expression and Perception

Here are 10 MCCs based on Lesson 18:

- 
1. **What is a major cultural difference in emotional expression?**
A. Emotions are universally expressed the same way in all cultures
B. Some cultures encourage the suppression of emotions, while others encourage their expression
C. All cultures have the same emotional reactions to events
D. Emotions are only perceived in individualistic cultures
Answer: B
2. **In collectivist cultures, how is emotional expression typically viewed?**
A. As an essential part of individual identity
B. As a sign of personal strength
C. As something to be suppressed to maintain group harmony
D. As a way to assert independence
Answer: C
3. **Which of the following is true about emotional expression in individualistic cultures?**
A. Emotions are only shared within family groups
B. Emotional expression is often linked to personal identity and self-expression
C. Emotions are not considered significant in social relationships
D. Emotions are not openly displayed
Answer: B
4. **What role does 'display rules' play in emotional expression?**
A. They regulate how and when emotions should be expressed in different cultures
B. They eliminate the cultural significance of emotional expression
C. They encourage the suppression of emotions in all situations
D. They only apply to negative emotions
Answer: A
5. **Which of the following cultures is more likely to encourage emotional restraint?**
A. Western individualistic cultures
B. Collectivist and Eastern cultures
C. Cultures with high uncertainty avoidance
D. All cultures encourage emotional restraint
Answer: B
6. **In high-context cultures, how is emotional expression typically perceived?**
A. Emotions are expressed openly and frequently
B. Emotional expression is often indirect and contextual
C. Emotional expression is considered irrelevant
D. Only negative emotions are displayed openly
Answer: B
7. **Which of the following emotions is likely to be universally recognized across cultures?**
A. Happiness
B. Envy
C. Embarrassment
D. Shame
Answer: A
8. **How do cultural differences impact the perception of emotions in others?**
A. People from different cultures always interpret emotions in the same way
B. Cultural differences can lead to misinterpretations of emotional expressions
C. Emotions are universally understood in the same context across cultures

D. Emotional perception is unrelated to cultural background

Answer: B

9. **What does the term 'emotional intelligence' refer to in cross-cultural psychology?**

- A. The ability to suppress emotions in all situations
- B. The ability to understand and manage emotions in oneself and others
- C. The ability to express emotions freely across all cultural contexts
- D. The ability to hide emotions from others

Answer: B

10. **Why is understanding cultural differences in emotional expression important in cross-cultural research?**

- A. It helps in identifying universal emotional responses
- B. It provides insights into cultural norms and socialization practices
- C. It eliminates the need for emotional regulation in research settings
- D. It focuses exclusively on the biological aspects of emotions

Answer: B

Lesson 19: Cultural Influences on Social Identity and Self-Concept

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 19:

1. **What is a major difference between the self-concept in individualistic and collectivist cultures?**

- A. Individualistic cultures emphasize group identity over personal identity
- B. Collectivist cultures focus on individual achievements and autonomy
- C. Individualistic cultures stress personal goals and individual achievement
- D. Collectivist cultures do not have a concept of self

Answer: C

2. **Which of the following is true about social identity in collectivist cultures?**

- A. Social identity is primarily based on individual autonomy and self-expression
- B. Social identity is shaped by group membership and interdependence
- C. Social identity is determined by personal achievements
- D. Social identity is less important than in individualistic cultures

Answer: B

3. **In individualistic cultures, how is self-concept typically viewed?**

- A. As a product of social relationships and group memberships
- B. As fluid and dependent on group dynamics
- C. As stable and self-referential, focusing on personal uniqueness
- D. As influenced only by cultural traditions

Answer: C

4. **What is 'self-enhancement' in the context of social identity?**

- A. Emphasizing group goals over personal desires
- B. Focusing on collective success over individual achievements
- C. The tendency to view oneself in a positive light and maintain self-esteem
- D. Suppressing personal desires to maintain social harmony

Answer: C

5. **How do collectivist cultures typically perceive personal failure?**

- A. It is seen as a reflection of personal incompetence, leading to loss of face
- B. It is considered irrelevant to one's identity
- C. It is a private matter and not shared with others
- D. It is celebrated as a learning experience

Answer: A

6. Which of the following best describes the role of family in shaping self-concept in collectivist cultures?

- A. Family is less influential than in individualistic cultures
- B. Self-concept is largely independent of family influence
- C. Family plays a central role in shaping one's identity and self-worth
- D. Family members are expected to remain uninvolved in personal identity development

Answer: C

7. What is 'face' in the context of social identity in collectivist cultures?

- A. The literal appearance of a person
- B. The reputation and social standing that one maintains within the group
- C. A reference to how one looks in social media profiles
- D. The focus on individual autonomy and success

Answer: B

8. In individualistic cultures, how is self-concept typically maintained in the face of failure?

- A. By emphasizing collective responsibility for failure
- B. By focusing on personal growth and autonomy rather than group expectations
- C. By seeking group approval to overcome personal challenges
- D. By suppressing negative emotions and avoiding failure-related discussions

Answer: B

9. What is the role of social comparisons in the self-concept of individuals from individualistic cultures?

- A. They prioritize group success over individual achievement
- B. They rely on comparisons to others to enhance personal self-esteem
- C. They do not engage in social comparisons because of their independent nature
- D. They suppress comparisons to avoid threatening group harmony

Answer: B

10. Why is understanding cultural differences in self-concept important in cross-cultural psychology?

- A. It helps explain how behaviors and identities are shaped by cultural norms
- B. It leads to the conclusion that self-concept is universally similar across all cultures
- C. It suggests that only individualistic cultures have a developed self-concept
- D. It focuses only on personal achievement rather than cultural context

Answer: A

Lesson 20: Cultural Influences on Moral Development and Ethics

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 20:

1. How does moral development differ between collectivist and individualistic cultures?

- A. Collectivist cultures prioritize individual rights over social harmony
- B. Individualistic cultures emphasize obedience to authority more than collectivist cultures
- C. Collectivist cultures emphasize group goals and societal harmony in moral development
- D. Moral development is not influenced by culture

Answer: C

2. Which of the following best describes how moral values are typically taught in collectivist cultures?

- A. Moral values are based on individual choice and autonomy

- B. Moral teachings prioritize societal rules, family expectations, and group harmony
- C. Moral values focus on personal achievements and success
- D. Moral values are based on Western principles of justice and fairness

Answer: B

3. In individualistic cultures, how are moral decisions generally made?

- A. Moral decisions are based on group consensus
- B. Morality is based on individual rights, autonomy, and justice
- C. The community's opinions are the primary guide for moral behavior
- D. Morality is often ignored to prioritize social harmony

Answer: B

4. What is the role of social hierarchies in moral development in collectivist cultures?

- A. Social hierarchies are irrelevant to moral development
- B. Moral values focus on equality and mutual respect across all levels
- C. Moral development stresses respect for authority and group expectations based on social roles
- D. Moral development in collectivist cultures emphasizes independence and self-assertion

Answer: C

5. Which of the following is an example of a moral dilemma in individualistic cultures?

- A. Deciding whether to prioritize family needs or personal career goals
- B. Deciding how to maintain group harmony during a disagreement
- C. Choosing between the well-being of the community and personal desires
- D. Deciding whether to conform to traditional gender roles

Answer: A

6. How do collectivist cultures typically view moral behavior?

- A. As a personal choice that does not affect others
- B. As a communal responsibility where behavior affects the group as a whole
- C. As primarily concerned with justice and individual rights
- D. As focusing exclusively on individual autonomy and rights

Answer: B

7. What is one key influence on moral development in individualistic cultures?

- A. The importance of family over personal autonomy
- B. The focus on communal norms and collective goals
- C. The emphasis on personal rights, freedoms, and equality
- D. The reliance on tradition and religious norms

Answer: C

8. Which of the following moral principles is more emphasized in collectivist cultures?

- A. Fairness and justice for all individuals
- B. Autonomy and independence
- C. Duty, responsibility, and maintaining social harmony
- D. Equality and equal treatment for all people

Answer: C

9. How do moral development theories vary across cultures?

- A. All cultures use the same stages of moral development
- B. Cultural values influence the emphasis on certain moral principles, such as justice or harmony
- C. There is no variation in moral development across cultures

D. All cultures emphasize individual rights and autonomy equally

Answer: B

10. **What is one key aspect of moral reasoning in cultures with high power distance?**

A. Moral decisions are based on individual autonomy and choice

B. Moral reasoning is often shaped by the respect for and obedience to authority figures

C. Moral dilemmas are solved based on consensus and group agreement

D. Equality and fairness guide moral decisions in high power distance cultures

Answer: B

Lesson 21: Cultural Influences on Mental Health and Well-being

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 21:

1. **How does culture influence the understanding of mental health and well-being?**

A. Mental health is viewed the same way in all cultures

B. Cultural beliefs and values shape how mental health issues are perceived and treated

C. Culture has no effect on mental health understanding

D. Mental health is primarily determined by biological factors across all cultures

Answer: B

2. **In collectivist cultures, how is mental illness often perceived?**

A. As a private matter that should be dealt with individually

B. As a sign of personal weakness to be hidden from others

C. As something that can be shared openly with the community

D. As a public issue that affects only the individual

Answer: B

3. **What is a common approach to mental well-being in individualistic cultures?**

A. It is seen as a communal responsibility

B. It is often viewed as an individual responsibility to achieve self-actualization

C. It focuses on group harmony and collective support

D. It places less importance on individual mental health

Answer: B

4. **Which factor often influences the treatment of mental health in collectivist societies?**

A. The focus on individual counseling and therapy

B. The importance of family, community, and social support in treatment

C. The reliance on biological treatments such as medication

D. The emphasis on solitary, self-guided healing

Answer: B

5. **How do individualistic cultures typically view well-being?**

A. As the ability to maintain family and social roles

B. As the pursuit of personal happiness and self-expression

C. As defined by social harmony and group acceptance

D. As dependent on collective achievements

Answer: B

6. **What is the role of spirituality in mental health in some cultures?**

A. Spirituality has no impact on mental health

B. Spirituality is often integrated into the treatment of mental health issues

C. Spirituality is a negative influence on mental health

D. Spiritual practices are discouraged in the treatment of mental health

Answer: B

7. **In cultures with high power distance, how is mental illness often treated?**
- A. Mental health issues are openly discussed and analyzed in the community
 - B. Mental illness is often ignored and the individual is expected to "get over it"
 - C. Mental health is treated as an individual responsibility, with less emphasis on social roles
 - D. Mental health is often treated with respect for authority figures such as elders or religious leaders

Answer: D

8. **Which of the following can be a barrier to seeking mental health care in collectivist cultures?**

- A. The emphasis on personal autonomy
- B. Fear of bringing shame or dishonor to the family or community
- C. Cultural acceptance of mental health issues
- D. The prevalence of mental health awareness campaigns

Answer: B

9. **How are emotional expressions related to mental well-being in high-context cultures?**

- A. Emotional expression is discouraged, and mental well-being is maintained privately
- B. Emotions are expressed openly, which enhances mental well-being
- C. Emotional expression is suppressed to maintain social harmony
- D. Emotional expression has no influence on mental well-being

Answer: C

10. **What impact does globalization have on mental health practices across cultures?**

- A. It causes mental health practices to become more culturally specific
- B. It leads to a homogenization of mental health practices worldwide
- C. It has no effect on mental health practices across cultures
- D. It emphasizes the rejection of traditional healing methods in favor of Western approaches

Answer: B

Lesson 22: Cultural Perspectives on Gender and Sexuality

Here are 10 MCQs based on Lesson 22:

1. **How do gender roles differ across cultures?**
- A. Gender roles are identical in all cultures
 - B. Gender roles are culturally constructed and vary significantly across societies
 - C. Gender roles are only influenced by biological factors
 - D. Gender roles are less important in collectivist cultures

Answer: B

2. **In collectivist cultures, how are gender roles typically perceived?**

- A. Gender roles are flexible and can change over time
- B. There is a strong emphasis on maintaining traditional gender roles within the family and society
- C. Gender roles are seen as irrelevant to social structure
- D. Gender roles are mostly defined by individual preferences

Answer: B

3. **What is the role of socialization in the development of gender roles in different cultures?**

- A. Socialization plays a minimal role, as gender roles are biologically determined
- B. Socialization helps in shaping culturally specific expectations for gendered

behaviors and roles

C. Socialization has no impact on the development of gender roles

D. Socialization only influences gender roles in Western cultures

Answer: B

4. **Which of the following is true about sexuality in collectivist cultures?**

A. Sexuality is considered a private, individual matter

B. Sexual behavior is closely linked to social expectations, family honor, and group values

C. Sexuality is not discussed openly in any culture

D. Sexuality is often defined solely by individual choices

Answer: B

5. **What is one of the challenges when studying gender and sexuality in a cross-cultural context?**

A. Gender roles and sexuality are universally the same across all cultures

B. Gender and sexual behavior are only influenced by biological factors

C. Cultural biases and Western frameworks can limit the understanding of gender and sexuality in other cultures

D. There is no difference in how gender and sexuality are perceived across cultures

Answer: C

6. **Which of the following is an example of how Western cultures might differ in their perception of gender roles compared to other cultures?**

A. Western cultures tend to have more rigid gender roles than collectivist cultures

B. Western cultures often have more flexible and individualistic notions of gender and sexuality

C. Western cultures prioritize collectivist views of family roles

D. Western cultures reject the concept of gender altogether

Answer: B

7. **In many non-Western cultures, what is the relationship between gender roles and social status?**

A. Gender roles have no impact on social status

B. Social status is largely determined by gender roles and expectations

C. Social status is only based on individual achievements, not gender

D. Social status is irrelevant in traditional cultures

Answer: B

8. **How do gender norms in some cultures affect individuals who do not conform to traditional gender roles?**

A. They are celebrated for their individuality

B. They may face social exclusion or stigmatization

C. They are given greater respect and admiration

D. They are encouraged to change their gender identity

Answer: B

9. **What is the impact of globalization on gender and sexuality norms?**

A. It has no impact on gender and sexuality norms across cultures

B. It leads to the erosion of all traditional gender roles worldwide

C. It can create tensions between traditional cultural norms and global influences

D. It solely strengthens traditional gender and sexual norms

Answer: C

10. **What is a key consideration when studying gender and sexuality in a cross-cultural context?**

A. Gender and sexuality are universally the same across all cultures

- B. Researchers must avoid applying their own cultural norms and values to other cultures
C. Gender roles and sexual behavior are solely biologically driven
D. The concept of gender is irrelevant to cross-cultural research
Answer: B

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 <https://whatsapp.com/channel/0029Va94SpQ8F2pM1KzxFJ0t>

 **Like our Facebook Page:**

 <http://www.facebook.com/psychologistscommunity>

 **Join our Facebook Group:**

 <https://www.facebook.com/groups/psychologistscommunity>

 **Follow us on Twitter:**

 <https://twitter.com/psychologistsco>

 **Follow us on Instagram:**

 <https://www.instagram.com/psychologistscom>

Important Guidelines for the Psychologists Community WhatsApp Group

-  No marketing ads or group links
-  No advertisements
-  No LMS handling ads
-  Boys: Do not inbox girls
-  No irrelevant chat
- Use the relevant group for resources and queries.

 **Failure to follow these rules will result in removal from the group!**

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